another sense, and every tenant is supposed competent to create subordinate to him a *mirásh* of his own tenure, as *mirásh táluk*, *mirásh hawálá*, &c., which means a perpetual farm, conveying a right of occupancy at the stipulated rates of rents.

TENANCIES OF CULTIVATORS, OR RAYATI TENURES.—By Act VIII. of 1869, cultivating husbandmen are divided into three classes:—(1) *rayats* entitled to hold their lands in perpetuity at fixed rates of rent; (2) *rayats* with rights of occupany, but liable to periodical enhancements of rent; and (3) tenants at will.

(1.) *Rayats entitled to hold at fixed rates.*—By Section 3, Act VIII. of 1869, it is provided that *rayats* who hold lands at fixed rates of rents, which shall not have been changed from the time of the Permanent Settlement, are entitled to receive *pattás* at those rates. Such *rayats* are also protected against auction-purchasers by Section 37, Act XI. of 1859. There are only few *rayats* of this class, and they are chiefly on the Mulfatganj side of the District.

(2.) *Rayats having Rights of Occupancy.*—These *rayats* are entitled to receive *pattás* at "fair and equitable rates," and are protected against auction-purchasers, except in Dakshín Sháhbázpur Subdivision. The Right of Occupancy is not in this District held to be transferable. *Rayats* having Rights of Occupancy are found in all parts of the District.

(3.) *Tenants at will.*—All other *rayats*, besides those described above, have no rights whatever, independently of those which they derive from the act of the landlord under lease. By Section 8 of Act VIII. of 1869, they are entitled to *pattás* only at such rates as may be agreed on between them and the persons to whom the rent is payable. In the absence of any provision to the contrary, these *rayats* are liable to be ejected from their holdings, if at the end of the Bengali year, any arrears of rent remain due in respect of the same.

The commonest name of a *rayatí* tenancy in the District is *karshá*. It is derived from *krisha*, to till. The tenure is usually held under a *páttá*, specifying the amount of rent annually payable for the same. Except in Dakshín Sháhbázpur, a *karshá* is not in this District held to be transferable.

When a *karshádár* lets out his land, the person holding of him is called *korfá* or *koljamá*. In some parts of the District *karshádárs* are called *jotdárs*, and *korfás* are called *koljotdárs*; the right of a *jotdár* is held to be transferable at Tushkhálí and in Dakshín Sháhbázpur. Land is also let out on *bargá*. The nature of this tenure

is, that the occupant of the soil, generally a *karshádár*, makes over the land to another person on condition of receiving half the crop. This tenure is generally held without any written engagement.

Similar to the *bargá* is another tenure called *khámár*. The word means properly lands originally waste but brought into cultivation by the *zamíndár*. It is applied to lands which the *zamíndár* retains in his own hands, and cultivates by hired labour, or by tenants at will, paying half the produce of the land for labour, and retaining the other half for rent.

Besides these, there are also three other *rayatí* tenures, viz., *káimí karshá*, *mirásh karshá*, and *rayatí hawálá*. The first two of these tenures are the same except in name, and by the established custom of the country held to be hereditary and transferable. The rent is generally liable to variation. *Rayatí hawálás* are also of the same nature, but with the difference that the grantor has the right of pre-emption.

FARMS AND MORTGAGE TENURES.—*Ijárá*.—The common term for a farming lease is *ijárá*, derived from an Arabic word meaning price or hire, and signifies a contract for, or farm of, the rent of lands at a specific amount. Leases of this kind are generally short, seldom exceeding ten years, and they convey only a limited interest. The *ijáráddár* is not competent, without permission of his landlord, to grant a lease extending beyond the term of his own lease, or to transfer his right without the *zamíndár's* consent. In the case of an ordinary farm, no length of occupancy gives the tenant a right to hold in perpetuity. These rules, however, are not applicable to a *maurúsí ijárá* or *mirásh ijárá*, which is a perpetual farm conveying a right of occupancy for ever at the rates contracted for. A *katkiná* is a lease by which lands are let out for terms of years at a rack-rent. The system of *ijárá* is prejudicial to the interests of the *rayats*. Generally an *ijáráddár* takes a lease of an estate at a rent equal to the entire rental paid by the *rayats*, and as a consequence has to depend solely on his power of exaction for a profit. Thus the *ijáráddár* makes the most he can out of the estate during his short tenure of it, and the unfortunate *rayats* are squeezed in every way.

The mortgage leases are of the following kinds:—(1) *poshaní*, (2) *sudbarát*, (3) *bandak*, (4) *rahán*, (5) *baybalwáfá*.

The condition of *poshaní* is, that the property passes into the hands of the lessee, mortgagee, and he retains the whole rent until the entire debt is liquidated; under the *sudbarát* system, in like manner, the rent of the farm is retained by the lessee, mortgagee, in lieu

of interest on loan. In this and in the case of *bandak* and *rahán*, under which money is advanced on the security of the farm, the lessee, or mortgagee, has the right of bringing the farm to sale, and realising his money out of the proceeds thereof, if it is not paid at the time when, according to the conditions of the lease, it is payable. The distinction between a *sudbarát* and a *bandak* and *rahán* is, that under the first the property pledged as security passes into the hands of the lessee or mortgagee, while under the second and third the property remains with the lessor or mortgagor. Under *baybalwáfá*, money is advanced on the condition that if it is not paid at the time when it is made payable, the property shall immediately be reckoned as sold, and the lessor or mortgagor shall have no title to it. The *baybalwáfá* is of two kinds—*dakhalikát* and *bedakhalikát*. Under the first, the property is placed in the hands of the mortgagee from the beginning of the transaction, and he retains the rent for the interest; and under the second, the property remains in the hands of the mortgagor.

SERVICE TENANCIES.—The service tenures in Bákarganj, granted rent-free by the *zamíndárs* in exchange for services rendered by the grantee, are of the four following descriptions:—(1) *nánkár*, (2) *chákrán*, (3) *inámat*, and (4) *páikán*.

(1.) *Nánkár*, derived from two Persian words meaning business and bread, is applied to a tract of land set apart for the maintenance of a certain person in consideration of his doing some personal service. It is a rent-free tenure, hereditary, but not otherwise transferable. The grantor has the right of resuming it on the tenant ceasing to perform the duties intrusted to him. Tenures of this kind are not liable to attachment for the debts of the tenant. The *nánkár* tenures are scattered all over the different parts of the District, and are held by barbers, washermen, sweepers, village heads, &c.

(2.) *Chákrán* is the same as the preceding.

(3.) *Inámat*, from *inám*, literally a gift by a superior to an inferior. The nature of it is, that it is a grant of rent-free lands, made either as a mark of favour or as a reward to the grantee for his distinction in any particular branch of service. The *batwárá* papers show that there are six *inámat* tenures in *parganá* Aurangpur.

(4.) *Páikán*.—A grant resumable at any time at the option of the *zamíndár*, and not transferable or liable to attachment for the personal debts of the holder. The *zamíndár* bestows it in consideration of the holder's personal services as a *páik* (messenger) or *láthiál* (clubman).

These tenures exist in all parts of the District, but their number is greatest in Binodpur and Baikunthpur, places which have an evil notoriety for their *láthiáls* (clubmen).

Under the ancient system, such lands were exempted from the Government assessment of the estates in which they were included, the area of these rent-free lands being deducted from that of the whole estate before the assessment was made. At the time of the formation of the Decennial Settlement this was disallowed, and now, although these tenures are held rent-free by the grantee, the area of such lands is included in the *zamíndár's* Government assessment in the same way as the rest of the estate.

RELIGIOUS AND CHARITABLE RENT-FREE TENURES. — These tenures are nine in number, as follows:—(1) *debottar*, (2) *bráhmottar*, (3) *britti*, (4) *britta bhikshá*, (5) *mahattrán*, (6) *chirághí*, (7) *khánábárí*, (8) *jautuk*, and (9) *áimá*.

(1.) *Debottar*.—Tenures granted rent-free for the support of temples and idols. They are hereditary, but not otherwise transferable.

(2.) *Brahmottar*.—Aurangpur seems to be specially rich in its *brahmottars*, the *batwárá* papers showing as many as 608 *brahmottars* in the *parganá*. In other parts of the District also these tenures exist, but their number, it is believed, is nowhere so great. The nature of this tenure is, that it is granted rent-free to Bráhmans for their maintenance and that of their descendants, as a reward for their sanctity or learning, or to enable them to devote themselves to religious duties and education. Such tenures cannot be resumed by the *zamíndár* or his descendants, and are hereditary and transferable.

(3.) *Britti*.—This also is a grant of rent-free lands for the maintenance of Bráhmans, and is in every way the same as a *brahmottar*. Tenures of this kind are chiefly found in *parganás* Krishnadebpur, Chandradwíp, and Rájnagar.

(4.) *Britta bhikshá* is held on the same condition as a *brahmottar*, and is a tenure granted to a Bráhman at the time of his being invested with the sacred thread.

(5.) *Mahattrán*.—This is a grant of rent-free lands to a Hindu other than a Bráhman. Originally these grants were made out of respect to the sanctity of their holders. They are hereditary, transferable, and liable for the personal debt of the holders. Tenures of this kind are chiefly found in *parganás* Chandradwíp and Salimábád.

(6.) *Chirághí.*—A grant of rent-free lands to a Muhammadan, similar to the *debottar* and *brahmottar* of the Hindus, made in consideration of the grantee's sanctity, and of his illuminating a mosque or tomb. It is hereditary, but not in all cases, capable of being alienated, sold, or transferred to another. *Chirághí* tenures exist in all parts of the District, and are numerous.

(7.) *Khánábárí.*—A house with the grounds and outhouses attached to it. A small patch of garden ground attached to a *rayat's* hut, in which he grows vegetables for his own use, and for which he is exempt from rent by the *zamíndár*. This is the same in its nature as *chákrán*, *páikán*, and *mahattrán* tenures, and it occurs chiefly in *parganá* Chandradwíp. Perhaps the largest *khánábárí* in the District is that in Mádhabpáshá, and which belongs to the old *zamíndárs*, or rájás, as they are termed, of Chandradwíp.

(8.) *Jautuk* is the property with which a woman is endowed, and which she brings to her husband in marriage. It is the same as English dower.

(9.) *Áimá.*—A grant of rent-free lands to learned and religious persons, or for a religious and charitable purpose.

STATISTICAL ACCOUNT

OF THE

DISTRICT OF MAIMANSINH.

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MAIMANSINH (Mymensing) District lies between 23° 58′ and 25° 25′ north latitude; and 89° 40′ and 91° 19′ east longitude. It contains an area, according to a return by the Boundary Commissioner in July 1874, of 6,318·02 square miles. The Census Report of 1872 took the area of the District at 6293 square miles, and returned the population at 2,349,917 souls. The civil station and administrative seat of the District is Maimansinh, otherwise called Nasírábád, situated on the west bank of the Brahmaputra river, in 24° 45′ 15″ north latitude, and 90° 27′ 21″ east longitude.

BOUNDARIES.—The District is bounded on the north by the Gáro Hills; on the east by the District of Silhet; on the south east by the District of Tipperah; on the south by the District of Dacca; and on the west by the river Jamuná, which separates it from the Districts of Pabná, Bográ, and Rangpur. The boundaries, as at present existing, were only settled a few years ago. The *Calcutta Gazette* of the 15th February 1866, notified the following transfers:—The transfer of the Police Circle of Sirájganj from the District of Mai-

* My account of Maimansinh District is chiefly derived from the following sources:—(1.) Five series of returns forwarded by the Collector, in answer to five sets of questions issued by me in 1869-70; (2.) Mr Reynold's Report in the History and Statistics of the Dacca Division (Calcutta, 1868); (3.) Report on Bengal Census, 1872, by Mr H. Beverley, C.S., with subsequent District compilation by Mr C. F. Magrath; (4.) Babu Hem Chandra Kar's Report on Jute Cultivation in Bengal; (5.) Rent Statement; (6.) Collector's Land Tenure Report; (7.) Annual Reports on the Police of the Lower Provinces for 1870, 1871; (8.) Annual Report on the Jails of the Lower Provinces for 1870, and Statistics specially drawn up for me by the Inspector General of Jails; (9.) Annual Reports of the Educational Department for 1856-57, 1860-61, 1870-71, 1872-73; (10.) Postal Statistics furnished by the Director-General of Post Offices; (11.) Area and latitudes and longitudes by the Surveyor General; (12.) Income Tax Report; (13.) Board of Revenue's Parganá Statistics; (14.) Medical Return prepared for me by the Civil Surgeon; (15) Report on Charitable Dispensaries, 1871; and (16.) My forthcoming 4 vols. of Bengal MS. Records.

mansinh, to that of Pabná; the Police Circle of Díwánganj from Bográ to Maimansinh; and the Police Circle of Atiá from Dacca to Maimansinh. Considerable difficulty seems to have been experienced in determining the northern boundary, a question having arisen as to whether any part of the Gáro Hills was included in the Permanent Settlement of 1793 made with the Maimansinh landholders. In 1856, when the survey of the rest of the District had been completed, the Survey officers attempted to lay down a northern boundary, which included a portion of the hills; but the difficulties attending the task, and the opposition of the hill tribes, compelled them to abandon the attempt, and a provisional line was laid down at the foot of the hills, which it was proposed should be maintained as the District boundary. This was objected to by the Rájá of Susang, and by some other landholders, who claimed a large part of the Gáro hills as included in the lands held by them under the Permanent Settlement. The Board of Revenue recommended that the survey line at the foot of the hills should be maintained as the northern boundary of the District, leaving the landholders to prosecute any claims they might have to the land, in the Civil Courts. The Government of Bengal adopted this view in June 1861, but it was not until the 29th August 1866, that the final notification appeared in the *Calcutta Gazette*. In 1874, 28 villages along the southern boundary were transferred from Maimansinh to Dacca.

General aspect of the District.—Almost the whole of the District, with the exception of the Madhupur jungle, and a portion of Ran Bháwál, is level and open, covered with well-cultivated fields, and intersected by numerous small rivers and channels. A large portion of the western and south eastern part of the District, comprising the Fiscal Divisions of Juánsháhí and Ran Bháwál, lies under water during the rainy season. The Madhupur jungle, known also by the name of Gar Guzálí, extends from the northern part of Dacca into the very heart of the District, almost as far as the Brahmaputra. This part forms a slightly elevated tract, averaging in height some sixty feet above the level of the plains, but nowhere rising above a hundred feet. It is about forty-five miles in length, by from six to sixteen miles in breadth, covered with dense jungle; abounding in wild beasts, and the most unhealthy portion of the District, especially during the hot weather and rains. The *sál* (Shorea Robusta) grows throughout it, and is valuable both for timber and as charcoal. The open parts of the jungle afford grazing grounds during the cold

weather. The land of the District may be divided into three classes of soil, known as *báluá*, *doras*, and *mátiá*. The first of these is a light sandy loam, principally found in the neighbourhood of the large rivers, and well adapted for the growth of indigo and jute. The second description occurs in marshy lands, in which the *boro dhán* or spring rice crop is cultivated. The third class, which is the most valuable and fertile, consists of a rich mould, producing an abundant crop. These varieties of soil intermingle with each other, and are not confined to specific portions of the District. A different kind of soil is found in the neighbourhood of the Madhupur jungle, in the Fiscal Division of Pukhariá, and in the western part of Ran Bháwál. It consists of a red clay, strongly impregnated with iron, similar to that found in the jungly tract in the north-west of Dacca District.

MOUNTAINS.—There are no mountains in the interior of Maimánsinh, and the only elevated tract besides the Madhupur jungle, is the Susang hills on the north-west border. These hills have long even ridges, and are accessible to beasts of burden. If roads were made, they could also be rendered accessible to wheeled carriages. A small portion of them is barren and rocky, but the greater part is covered with thick, thorny jungle. Their height has not yet been ascertained.

RIVERS.—The Jamuná river, which forms the western boundary of the District, enters it near Dáokobá in Rangpur, and runs a course of ninety-four miles from north to south, till it finds its exit at Salímábád. It is navigable for large boats throughout the year. During the rainy season, it expands in many places to five or six miles in breadth, overflowing a considerable portion of the low-lying lands of the Fiscal Divisions of Pukhariá, Kágmárí, and Atiá. Some remarkable instances of alluvion and diluvion have taken place in consequence of the rapidity of the current, and the ravages which it commits on its banks. The Jamuná is a river of many changes. After the survey (1850-56), it swept to the eastward and washed away several villages on that bank of the river; but afterwards retired towards the west, forming a new channel, and leaving a number of sandbanks and alluvial accretions on the east of its bed. The banks are abrupt or sloping, according as the current sets from one side of the river or the other; but, in consequence of the numerous alterations in the current, they change their appearance almost yearly. Both banks of the river are cultivated. The Jamuná does not form important islands, but it throws up a good many alluvial deposits

(*chars*), some of considerable size, which are a fruitful source of litigation. The tide does not affect it, and it is not fordable at any season of the year. Its bed is sandy. (2) The Brahmaputra river enters Maimansinh at its north-west corner, close to Karaibárí on the borders of Goálpárá, from which point it flows in a south-easterly and southerly direction through the centre of the District as far as Tok, whence it forms the boundary between Maimansinh and Dacca, as far as Bhairab Bázár, a little below which it unites its waters with those of the Meghná. The following account of the river is extracted from the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," page 223 (Mr Reynolds' excellent District Report):—"The days are past in which the Brahmaputra was here entitled to rank as one of the great rivers of India. The gradual formation of *chars* and bars of sand in the upper part of its bed has diverted the great volume of water into the present channel of the Jamuná. The Brahmaputra is now a stream, which, in Maimansinh at least, probably averages less than a quarter of a mile in width in the dry season, and which is in most places easily fordable. Two places in the District may specially be noted in which the course of the river has considerably changed within a comparatively recent period. One of these is the tract between Jamálpur and Piárpur; the other lies between Kátiádí and Nápit *chár* in the south-eastern part of the District. From my recollections of Maimansinh, ten years ago, I can state with confidence, that in the interval the volume of water in the Brahmaputra has sensibly diminished; and it is not impossible, that in the lapse of another quarter of a century, this once great river may have dwindled away into an entirely insignificant stream. On the other hand, there is the chance that by the shifting of the sandbeds in the upper channel, the mass of water which now forms the Jamuná may be again diverted back to its old bed in the Brahmaputra. The diminution of water in the Brahmaputra, while it has exercised an unfavourable influence on the commercial prosperity of the District, has added greatly to its agricultural capabilities. The *chars* formed by the river are found to be extremely well adapted to the growth of indigo and jute; and in process of time they become suited to other crops also. In the rainy season, the Brahmaputra is navigable for boats of the largest burden, and the current flows with great rapidity." This was published only six years ago (1868). Since then, the process of silting up has gone on quickly, and the Jamuná is now not only the most important, but practically the only channel for the Brahmaputra waters to the south-

ward. The old eastward channel has dwindled into an insignificant stream. Its bed is sandy, and the banks are generally abrupt. (3.) The Meghná ranks third among the Maimansinh rivers, but as it only flows through a small portion of Juánsháhí Fiscal Division in the south-east, is hardly entitled to be considered as one of the rivers of this District. (4.) The Jhináí, a much less important stream not navigable in the dry season, leaves the Brahmaputra near the town of Jamálpur, flows through the Fiscal Division of Jafarsháhí, and falls into the Jamuná. (5.) The Kángsá river flows through the Fiscal Division of Maimansinh, and for a short distance forms the boundary between Maimansinh and Silhet. It is a stream of no great width, but of considerable depth, and is navigable throughout the year by boats of considerable burden. It is not fordable at any season of the year, but in other respects it partakes of the character of the Brahmaputra. Of minor streams, the Collector estimates that there are about a dozen which can be navigated by native boats of two tons burden throughout the rainy season. The Dhanu and Ghorá-utrá are two of these rivers, both being branches of the Meghná, the former flowing through the Fiscal Divisions of Nasírujiál and Kháliájurí; and the latter through the Fiscal Division of Juánsháhí. Another is the Surmá or Bherámoná river which separates the Fiscal Division of Kháliájurí from the District of Silhet. In Átiá and Pukhariá Fiscal Divisions there are a number of channels in connection with the Jamuná. They are fed entirely from that river, and if at any future day, its current were to change, they would at once disappear.

FERRIES, &c.—The following is a list of the seventeen principal ferries in the District, which are annually farmed out to the highest bidder: (1) Sambhuganj or *Sadr ghát* ferry, across the Brahmaputra river at Nasírábád, possessing three tolerably good boats. (2) Bhairá ferry, across the Brahmaputra, a few miles below the civil station of Nasírábád; in 1866 this, and the ferry above named were farmed out for £300. (3) Mantalá ferry, and (4) Aiman ferry; these two were rented for £10, 10s. in 1866. (5) Gábtalí ferry, across the river Banar, twenty-one miles west of the station on the main road to Subankhálí; only used in the rains; rental in 1866, £3, 2s. (6) Báigunbárí ferry, across a channel of the Brahmaputra; rental in 1866, £15. (7) Dulápur or Kakariá, over the river Meghná; only open from November to May, as the current is too rapid in the rains to allow the boats to cross; this, and the two following ferries were let in 1866 for £20, 12s. (8) Kaimarbálí, and (9) Ainargop ferries,

over the Ghorá-utrá river, a branch of the Meghná, and only maintained during the rainy months. (10) Jamálpur ferry, across the Brahmaputra, just above the sub-divisional station of Jamálpur; the ferry is used throughout the year, the river never being fordable at this place. (11) Piárpur ferry, over the Brahmaputrá river, about half-way between Nasírábád and Jamálpur. (12) Gopálpur ferry, over a small stream about ten miles east of Subankhálí; only maintained during the rains. (13) Nabagrám ferry, also only maintained during the rains, and thrown across a small stream on the Subankhálí road. (14) Kakráil ferry, similar to the one just named. (15) Salímábád ferry; (16) Alagdiá ferry; and (17) Dauhajání ferry, all across the Jamuná river, and used only in the rainy season; transferred some years ago from Dacca to Maimansinh. These were all the public ferries in 1867, but there were also private ones, of which probably the most important is the one on the Jamuná at Subankhálí. In the Annual Report for 1871-72, the Commissioner of the Division states that the revenue from most of these ferries is decreasing, owing to the dwindling of the rivers.

LAKES, MARSHES, &c.—The eastern and south-eastern parts of the District abound in marshes, which contain large quantities of fish, but the only sheet of water deserving the name of a lake is the Háodá *bil*, in the northern part of the Madhupur jungle. It is navigable throughout the year, but boats seldom ply upon it, and as its size varies according to the season, no accurate estimate of its area can be given. Marshes abound in Susang Fiscal Division; and to the west of the town of Nasírábád, there is a chain of swamps extending almost the whole distance from the Sotoá river to Gábtalí, twenty miles west of the town. Of artificial watercourses, the only one worthy of note is the Kátákhálí, within the sub-division of Kisoríganj. The loss of life in the District from drowning in the year 1869-70, as far as could be traced by the police reports, was 164 adults and 273 children—total, 437.

RIVER TRAFFIC.—There are no towns in the District situated on the banks of the rivers which contain a large community living entirely by river traffic. A great deal of trade on the rivers is nevertheless conducted by merchants who have their store-houses on the banks. The principal traffic down the rivers is the export of rice, jute, indigo, &c. With regard to the channels as a means of communication, I take the following extract from the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," page 224. "On the whole, the

rivers of the District cannot be said to afford any great facilities for internal communication. The Brahmaputra, which is the natural central highway, is not navigable in the dry season for large boats, and the Jamuná and Meghná only skirt the borders of the District. The Dhanu and Ghorá-utrá flow through a part of the District which is of no commercial importance. There is no regular water-carriage from the civil station to any large market; and it would be well if the inhabitants of the District would accept the truth on this point, and turn their attention to other means of communication."

UTILISATION OF THE WATER SUPPLY.—None of the non-navigable rivers or streams are utilised as a motive power for turning machinery, nor have they any descents or rapids sufficient to render it likely that they could be so applied by the formation of dams or weirs. In some parts of the Kisorganj Sub-division, in the south-east of the District, the small rivers and watercourses are used for purposes of irrigation. There are fisheries in all the rivers and marshes, and the supply of fish, though not exported, appears on the whole sufficient to meet the demands of the population. The principal fisheries existing in the District are Bághján *rakdaha*, Karátiá *rakdaha*, Phatikjání *rakdaha*, Nándáil, and Báigunbárí. None of these fisheries exceed half-a-mile in length, and they lie chiefly in the Kisorganj Sub-division. The marshes in this part of the District contain large quantities of fish. A considerable portion of the subdivision is under water during the rains. In the dry season the fishermen build temporary huts on the margin of a marsh, and live there till they have caught the greater part of the fish, when they remove to another place. There is also a chain of marshes in the west of the District which are well stocked with fish. The Collector estimates that about one-sixteenth of the entire population lives by navigation, fisheries, and river industries. Taking the population as returned by the census of 1872, this would give a total of 146,869 people living by boating or fishing. This, however, would appear to be too low an estimate, as the District Census Report returns the number of Hindu boating and fishing castes at 92,445, while the Hindus only form 34·8 per cent of the entire District population. The general value of the fisheries is returned at between £4000 and £5000 per annum, but no exact estimate exists.

MARSH CULTIVATION.—None of the rivers or marshes have been embanked with a view to cultivation, but many marshes are capable of being reclaimed. Most of the alluvial deposits in the beds of

the rivers are overgrown with coarse grass, which is used for thatching purposes. *Jháu* jungle (Tamarix Indica) also grows extensively on these *chars*, and is much used for fuel. A description of grass called *dal* grows spontaneously in the swamps and marshes, and is useful as food for elephants. There are no cane or reed producing grounds of any extent, although a few rattan jungles occur here and there, especially in the Kisoríganj Sub-division. Long-stemmed rice is a good deal grown in the marshes, in water varying from thirteen to fifteen feet in depth. No increase in the length of stem has been effected by which this variety of rice can be made to grow in deeper water than formerly, nor does it appear that any experiment of the kind has yet been tried. The principal twenty-one varieties of long-stemmed rice are as follow: (1) *Bághráj*, (2) *Kuá mágárí*, (3) *Dulai*, (4) *Mátiáchang*, (5) *Rádhá Vaishnaví*, (6) *Gangá Ságar*, (7) *Khalsiáputi*, (8) *Nárikel bádí*, (9) *Goá Khubí*, (10) *Mánik dighá*, (11) *Dighá kálá máddri*, (12) *Kálá mánik*, (13) *Pakshiráj*, (14) *Aswin áman*, (15) *Mánik dighi*, (16) *Baran*, (17) *Porá Mágurá*, (18) *Bitá*, (19) *Dhepá*, (20) *Bara áman*, (21) *Chhota áman*. The general line of drainage in Maimansinh, as indicated by the flow of the rivers, is from north to south. The water of the swamps and marshes seldom finds its way towards the rivers, and hence arises the unhealthy state of the District—a subject which has attracted the attention of the Sanitary Commissioner.

MINERALS.—Lime is found in some parts of Susang Fiscal Division, and it still appears very probable that iron mines may be discovered in the Madhupur jungle, which has never yet been properly explored. The soil covered by this jungle is highly ferruginous, and it is stated that in former times smelting operations were carried on. Coal and lime have been found in the Gáro hills, but this tract does not belong to the District. There are no hot springs, nor any unusual physical phenomena, such as gorges or passes, in the District; excepting perhaps a cavern at a place called Joginíghátá, but even this is not of great size.

FORESTS, JUNGLE PRODUCTS, &c.—The Madhupur forest, which covers an area of about four hundred and twenty square miles, produces *sál* trees and the *gajárí kát* timber used for upright supports in building; the annual value of the produce amounting to about £2000 or upwards. There are also forests in Juánsháhí, Atiá, and Kágmárí Fiscal Divisions, which yield similar produce to the annual value of from £700 to £1000 each. No accurate returns

exist as to the area of these last named forests, save that each extends about half a day's journey in length. The principal articles of jungle produce are bees'-wax, honey, *chiretá*, and a coarse kind of yam (*kachu*). Extensive uncultivated pasture grounds are situated in the northern plains along the foot of the hills, as well as in the Fiscal Divisions of Pukhariá, Kháliájurí, and Nasírujiál, but their area has not yet been ascertained. Many of the Gáros who live at the foot of the hills gain a subsistence by pasturing cattle in the forest, or by collecting and trading in jungle products. Others of them bring down from their hills, honey, wax, *pachápát* leaf, cotton, and other articles, which they barter for rice, salt, tobacco, brass utensils, and dogs, the latter being a favourite article of food among them.

FERÆ NATURÆ.—The wild animals of Maimansinh are numerous, and of many kinds. The *char* lands in the beds of the rivers in the north-west of the District are infested by tigers, and a few years ago were believed to contain more of these animals than any other part of India. These lands, however, are gradually being brought under cultivation, and it is believed that in the course of a few more years tigers will seldom be met with. Leopards are found in abundance, and are occasionally killed in the vicinity of the civil station, although more often near other towns and villages. Bears are found in the Madhupur jungle. The *sambar* deer and the hog deer are abundant. In addition to these there is the barking deer and the *barasinghá*, or large deer. The last named rare and beautiful deer is found in the grassy plains at the foot of the Gáro Hills, and is said to be only known in Lower Bengal in the three Districts of Silhet, Maimansinh and Rangpur. It is a finely proportioned clean-limbed animal. The rhinoceros, although now rarely seen, is occasionally found in some parts of the District. Elephants abound in the Gáro and Susang hills, and sometimes descend and commit great depredations among the crops in the villages below. They are yearly captured in considerable numbers by the Mahárájá of Susang. The Madhupur jungle does not contain so much large game as the *chars* of the Brahmaputra, but a few wild elephants are still found there. Wild buffaloes, which were formerly very common, have become scarce of late years, and the wild boar is much less plentiful than formerly. There is no organised system in the District for the destruction of wild animals, but rewards are given on the scale sanctioned by the

Board of Revenue for Bengal generally, namely—for tigers, 10s. per head; for leopards, 5s. per head; and for bears, 4s. per head. The number of deaths from wild beasts and snakes in 1869 was three hundred and twenty-three, and this may be taken to be a fair average of the annual loss of life from this cause. No rewards for snake killing have ever been given in Maimansinh. Small game is found in abundance in the north of the District, near the Gáro Hills; pea-fowl, jungle fowl, partridges, and several varieties of pheasants resorting in great numbers to this locality. The florican (Sypheotides Bengalensis) is plentiful in the sandbanks and *chars* in the north-west of the District. The black partridge (Francolinus vulgaris) is found in the Madhupur jungles. The *sáras* crane (grus Antigone), common crane (grus cinerea), and the various kinds of wild fowl are plentifully found in marshy localities. Among fish, the *mahásál*, found particularly in Susang, is worthy of remark. It is a very oily fish, and requires to be cooked immediately on being caught, or it becomes uneatable and offensive. The *hilsá* fish, which was once very common in the Brahmaputra, has become scarce of late years; the mango fish is unknown. The commoner varieties of fish are, however, abundant. No traffic is carried on in the skins of wild animals; but there exists a considerable trade in elephants, which contributes towards the wealth of the District. Several land-holders in the north of the District, and especially the Mahárájá of Susang, derive handsome incomes every year from this source.

Population.—Prior to 1872, no systematic attempt was made at an accurate enumeration of the District population. A rough estimate at the time of the Survey, between 1850 and 1856, by counting the number of houses and allowing an average of five inhabitants to each house, returned the population of the District at 947,240. In 1866, the Collector, in his District Report in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," based a subsequent estimate upon the figures returned in 1850-56 by the Survey. Estimating an average increase of population at the rate of two per cent. per annum, and allowing for a slight increase of area since the Survey, he calculated the population in 1866 at 1,197,823 souls.

The first regular census, taken in January 1872, proved that the Collector's previous estimate was one half below the truth. In taking the census, the want of village institutions or officials, through which to work, caused much trouble, inconvenience, and delay. Eventually it was done through the instrumentality of the *zamindárs*

and their servants. The total number of enumerators employed (including 54 in the municipal towns), was 9375. The results disclosed a total population of 2,349,917 souls, dwelling in 7601 villages or townships, and 308,008 houses, the average pressure of the population on the soil being 373 persons to the square mile. It does not appear that the census was quite so successful in Maimansinh as in some other Districts of the Dacca Division, owing to the want of a proper village agency to work with. The Collector, however, considers that "on the whole it has been very fairly done," and that "very correct and satisfactory results have been obtained in all the municipal towns." The following table illustrates the distribution of the population in each police circle (*tháná*) and subdivision, and the pressure per square mile, &c.

ABSTRACT OF POPULATION, AREA, &C., OF EACH POLICE CIRCLE (THANA) IN MAIMANSINH DISTRICT.

Sub-division.	Police Circle (Tháná).	Area in square miles.	Number of villages, mauzás, or townships.	Number of houses.	Total Population.	AVERAGES ACCORDING TO THE CENSUS REPORT. Persons per square mile.	Villages, mauzás, or townships per square mile.	Persons per village, mauzá, or township.	Houses per square mile.	Persons per house.
SADR.	Maimansinh,	665	505	30,999	220,933	332	·76	437	47	7·1
	Mádárganj,	326	729	22,643	169,829	521	2·24	233	69	7·5
	Ghafargáon,	462	215	11,037	83,642	181	·47	389	24	7·6
	Netrakoná,	1,002	1,328	42,236	351,380	351	1·33	265	42	8·3
	Durgápur,	373	585	13,517	112,900	303	1·57	193	36	8·4
	Phulpur,	382	403	14,193	96,963	254	1·05	241	37	6·8
	Sub-divisional total,	3,210	3,765	134,625	1,035,647	323	1·17	275	42	7·7
JAMALPUR.	Jamálpur,	371	451	20,835	175,022	472	1·22	388	56	8·4
	Sherpur,	516	444	20,820	154,225	299	·86	347	40	7·4
	Diwánganj,	401	86	9,016	85,222	213	·21	991	22	9·5
	Sub-divisional total,	1,288	981	50,671	414,469	322	·76	422	39	8·2
ATIA.	Pingná,	120	222	12,842	99,391	828	1·85	447	107	7·7
	Madhupur,	350	774	17,104	126,922	363	2·21	164	49	7·4
	Atiá,	571	921	43,392	309,888	543	1·61	336	76	7·1
	Sub-divisional total,	1,041	1,917	73,338	536,201	515	1·84	280	70	7·3
KISORIGANJ.	Kisoríganj,	148	286	14,925	109,774	742	1·93	384	101	7·4
	Nikli,	163	279	13,334	97,035	595	1·71	348	82	7·3
	Bázidpur,	443	373	21,115	156,791	354	·84	420	48	7·4
	Sub-divisional total,	754	938	49,374	363,600	482	1·24	388	65	7·4
	DISTRICT TOTAL,	*6,293	7,601	308,008	2,349,917	373	1·21	309	49	7·6

* This was the area taken for the purpose of the Census in 1872, and the population per-centages are calculated from it. The Boundary Commissioner in July 1874 returned the exact area of the District at 6318·02 square miles.

Maimansinh is not a densely populated District, the pressure rising in few localities above 400 persons to the square mile. The most populous tracts are Pingná *thánd* lying between the Jamuná river and the Madhupur jungle, where the population is 828. to the square mile; and the strip along the left bank of the old bed of the Brahmaputra, where it averages about 600. Throughout the District as a whole, there are only 373 persons to the square mile.

POPULATION CLASSIFIED ACCORDING TO SEX, RELIGION, AND AGE. —The total population of Maimansinh District consisted in 1872 of 2,349,917 souls, *viz.*, 1,187,962 males and 1,161,955 females. The proportion of males in the total population is 50·5 per cent., and the proportion of females, therefore, 49.5 per cent. Classified according to religion and age, the census gives the following results: —Hindus:—under twelve years of age, males 138, 910 and females 111,056, total 249,966; above twelve years of age, males 271,856, and females 296,141, total 567,997; total of Hindus of all ages—males 410,766 and females 407,197, grand total 817,963, or 34·8 per cent. of the District population; proportion of males in total Hindu population 50·2 per cent. Muhammadans:—under twelve years of age, males 319,027, and females 258,606, total 577,633; above twelve years, males 452,140 and females 489,862, total 942,002; total of Muhammadans of all ages, males 771,167, and females 748,468, grand total 1,519,635, or 64·7 per cent. of the District population; proportion of males in total Muhammadan population, 50·7 per cent. Christians:—under twelve years of age, males 20 and females 19, total 39; above twelve years, males 53 and females 32, total 85; total of Christians of all ages, males 73 and females 51; grand total 124; proportion of males in Christian population 58·9. Other denominations not separately classified, consisting of aboriginal races and tribes:—under twelve years of age, males 2389 and females 2187, total 4576; above twelve years, males 3567 and females 4052, total 7619; total "Others" of all ages, males 5956 and females, 6239, grand total 12,195, or ·5 per cent. of the District population; proportion of males in total "Others," 48·8 per cent. Population of all religions:—under twelve years of age, males 460,346 and females 371,868, total 832,214; above twelve years, males 727,616 and females 790,087, total 1,517,703; total population of all ages, males 1,187,962 and females 1,161,955, grand total 2,349,917; proportion of males in total District population, 50·5 per cent.

The percentage of children not exceeding twelve years of age in the population, arranged according to religion, is returned as follows:—Hindus, proportion of male children, 17·0 per cent., and of female children, 13·6 per cent. of the Hindu population; proportion of children of both sexes, 30·6 of the total Hindu population. Muhammadans,—proportion of male children, 21·0 per cent, and of female children 17 per cent; proportion of children of both sexes, 38·0 per cent. of the total Muhammadan population. Christians—proportion of male children, 16·1 per cent., and of female children, 15·3 per cent.; proportion of children of both sexes, 31·4 per cent. of the total Christian population. "Other" denominations —proportion of male children, 19·6 per cent., and of female children, 17·9 per cent.; proportion of children of both sexes, 37·5 per cent. of the total "Other" population. Population of all religions—proportion of male children, 19·6 per cent., and of female children, 15·8 per cent., proportion of children of both sexes, 35·4 per cent. of the total District population. The small proportion of girls to boys, and the excessive proportion of females above twelve years of age to males of the same class, is probably due to the fact, that natives consider girls have attained womanhood at a much earlier age than they hold that boys reach manhood.

The number and proportion of insanes, and of persons afflicted with certain other infirmities in Maimansinh District, is thus returned in the Census Report:—Insanes, males, 623, and females 256; total 879 or ·0374 per cent. of the District population. Idiots, males 101, and females 53; total 154, or .0066 per cent. of the population. Deaf and dumb, males 668, and females 298; total 966, or ·0411 per cent. of the population. Blind, males 1468, and females 833; total 2301, or ·0979 per cent. of the population. Lepers, males 1528, and females 234; total 1762, or ·0750 per cent. of the population. The total number of male infirms amounted to 4388, or ·3693 per cent. of the total male population; number of female infirms 1674, or ·1440 per cent. of the total female population. The total number of such infirms of both sexes was 6062, or ·2579 per cent. of the total District population.

POPULATION ACCORDING TO OCCUPATION.—The following paragraphs relating to the occupations of the people, are condensed from the separate District census statements compiled by Mr C. F. Magrath, C.S. The figures must be taken as an approximation only, and the classification is in many respects unavoidably imperfect.

OCCUPATION OF MALES.—CLASS I.—Persons employed under Government, Municipal, or other local authorities :—Government police, 154; rural police, 4138; covenanted English officers, 6; subordinate judicial officers, 2; subordinate executive officers, 2; postal officials, 37; clerk, 1; unspecified, 29. Total of Class I., 4369.

CLASS II.—Professional persons, including professors of religion, education, law, medicine, fine arts, surveying, and engineering—(*a*) Religion—ministers and missionaries, 2; Hindu priests (*purohits*), 5728; spiritual guides (*gurus*), 415; astrologers (*áchárjyas*) 192; Muhammadan priests (*mullás*), 123; pilgrim guides (*pandás*), 3; priests of family idols (*pujháris*), 17; *khundkars*, 46; expounders of the *puráns* (*kathaks*), 2. (*b*) Education—Schoolmasters, 573; Sanskrit teachers (*pandits*), 185; Muhammadan clerks and interpreters (*munshis*), 23; almanac writers, 2. (*c*) Law.—Pleaders, 52; law agents (*mukhtárs*), 53; stamp vendors, 30. (*d*) Medicine.—Doctors, 509; Hindu medical practitioners (*kabirájs*), 274; vaccinators, 9; veterinary surgeon, 1; cow doctor (*gobaidya*), 1; accoucheurs, 208; compounder, 1. (*e*) Fine Arts—Photographer, 1; musicians, 2,629; singers, 232; dancers, 26; jugglers, 41; painters, 128. (*f*) Surveying and engineering—Surveyors or *ámins*, 9. Total of Class II., 11,515.

CLASS III.—Persons in service or performing personal offices :—Personal servants, 319; cooks, 25; *masálchis*, 7; barbers, 5,675; washermen (*dhobás*), 3,512; sweepers (*mihtars*), 259; water carriers, 38; gardeners, 317; genealogists (*ghataks*), 4; door-keepers (*darwáns*), 320; unspecified, 36,342. Total of Class III., 46,818.

CLASS IV.—Persons engaged in agriculture, and with animals :—(*a*) In agriculture.—Landholders (*zámindárs*), 473; large leaseholders (*ijárádárs*), 211; rent-free tenure holders (*lákhirájdárs*), 11; subordinate landholders (*tálukdárs*), 8,345; permanent lease-holders (*patnídárs*), 67; holders of small estates (*mahaldárs*), 5; petty landholders (*jotdárs*), 26; ordinary cultivators, 495,391; *hawáládárs*, 5; land stewards (*gumáshtás*), 466; rent collectors (*tahsíldárs*), 759; village accountants (*patwáris*), 137; holders of land on a tenure of military or public service *páiks*, 246; *zamíndári* servants, 716; village head-men (*mandals*), 483; rent collectors in charge of estates owned by absentee landlords (*náibs*), 12; manager of estates, 1. (*b*) With animals.—Horse dealer, 1; cattle dealers, 2; pig dealers, 57; shepherds, 2; cow-herds, 367; elephant drivers (*máhuts*), 23; grooms, 56; grass-cutters, 6; hunters (*shikáris*) 31. Total of Class IV., 507,899.

CLASS V.—Persons engaged in commerce and trade :—(*a*) In conveyance of persons and goods.—Cartmen, 387 ; bullock-drivers, 206; palanquin-bearers, 4,505 ; cart-owners, 56 ; *sardárs*, 19 ; boatmen, 2,858; boat-owners, 141 ; seamen (*laskar*), 1 ; weighmen, 9. (*b*) In keeping and lending money, and in the sale of goods.—Bankers and *mahájans*, 2,534; pawnbrokers, (*poddárs*), 11 ; money changers, 2 ; money lenders, 4,642 ; merchants, 324 ; petty dealers (*bepáris*), 903 ; cotton dealers, 2 ; jute dealer, 1 ; shopkeepers, 23,538 ; grocers and spice dealers (*baniás*), 3 ; dealers in miscellaneous goods, 94 ; brokers or *dalál*s, 12 ; clerks (*sarkárs*), 8; peon (*piyádás*), 711 ; vernacular clerks and writers (*muharrirs*), 110. Total of Class V., 41,077.

CLASS VI.—Persons employed in mechanical arts, manufactures, and engineering operations, and in the sale of goods manufactured and prepared for consumption :—(*a*) Constructive Arts—Bricklayers (*rájmistris*), 792 ; stone masons, 51 ; brick makers, 22 ; sawyers, 154; carpenters, 5,454; thatchers, 80; well diggers, 17 ; boat builders, 30. (*b*) Miscellaneous Artizans—Blacksmiths, 1769; coppersmiths, 32 ; braziers, 65 ; bell-metal workers (*kánsáris*), 98 ; *kalaigars*, 18 ; goldsmiths, 2,289 ; potters (*kumárs*), 4,350 ; glass makers, 9 ; lime vendors, 118 ; cabinet makers, 176 ; mat makers, 802 ; basket makers, 58 ; toy makers, 146 ; bead makers, 58 ; laquered ware makers, 14 ; shell carvers, 92 ; cane workers, 3 ; cotton spinners, 27 ; silk weavers, 8 ; cotton weavers, 14,505 ; jute weavers, 105 ; tailors, 897 ; shoe-makers, 613; cloth vendors, 1,594; gunny bag makers, 144; net makers, 18 ; thread sellers, 127 ; jute spinners, 13; bookbinders, (*daftris*), 12 ; bookseller, 1 ; paper makers, 52. (*c*) Dealers in Vegetable Food—Oil sellers, 4,430 ; grain sellers, 31 ; flour sellers, 8 ; rice sellers, 8 ; sellers of spices, 6 ; grain husker, 1 ; grain parchers, 24 ; costermongers, 2 ; confectioners, 39 ; sellers of molasses (*gur*), 191 ; honey sellers, 37. (*d*) Dealers in Animal Food—Butchers, 990 ; fishermen, 32,813 ; fishmongers, 110 ; milkmen, 4,096. (*e*) Dealers in Drinks—Brewers and distillers, 9 ; spirit sellers, 74 ; toddy sellers, 16. (*f*) Dealers in Stimulants—Opium sellers, 13 ; hemp (*ganjá*) sellers, 36 ; *pán* sellers, 2,178. (*g*) Dealers in Perfumes, Drugs, Medicines, &c.—Perfumer, 1 ; gunpowder sellers, 8 ; soap sellers, 4 ; *tikd* sellers, 2. (*h*) Dealers in Vegetable and Animal Substances—Firewood sellers, 267 ; bamboo sellers, 384 ; rope sellers, 402 ; hide sellers, 371 ; skinners and leather dealers (*chámárs*), 499. Total of Class VI., 81,863.

CLASS VII.—Miscellaneous persons not classified otherwise.—Pensioners, 21; beggars and paupers, 7,482; labourers, 22,402; unemployed, 4,171; male children, 460,345. Total of Class VII., 494,421. Grand total of males, 1,187,962.

OCCUPATION OF FEMALES.—The general caution prefixed to the paragraphs on the occupations of the people, applies, with particular force to this section. Class I. *nil.* Class II.—Professional Females—Priestesses, 57; female spiritual guides (*gurus*), 15; schoolmistress, 1; midwives (*dáis*), 16; musicians, 4; singers, 3; dancers, 13; total, 109. Class III.—Females in service or performing personal offices—Female domestic servants, 840; *ayahs*, 3; female barbers, 13; washerwomen, 59; sweepers, 14; brothel keeper, 1; prostitutes, 2,218; total, 3,148. Class IV.—Females employed in agriculture or with animals—Female landholders (*zamíndárs*), 46; female permanent leaseholders (*patnídárs*), 6; female rent free tenure holders (*lákhirájdárs*), 10; *jotdárs*, 5; subordinate land-holders (*tálukdárs*), 411; female cultivators with right of occupancy, 18; female ordinary cultivators, 1,465; female goat dealer, 1; female cow-herds, 8; total, 1,970. Class V.—Females engaged in commerce or trade—Carriage owner, 1; money lenders, 165; shop-keepers, 665; total, 831. Class VI.—Females employed in manufactures and in the sale of goods manufactured or prepared for consumption—Dealers in pottery, 19; basket maker, 1; mat makers, 42; bead makers, 13; spinners, 2,213; weavers, 91; net makers, 13; rice dealers, 695; costermongers, 39; oil dealers, 75; grain parchers, 104; grain huskers, 516; honey sellers, 4; seller of molasses (*gur*), 1; fishwomen, 454; milk sellers, 75; *pán* sellers, 5; hemp (*ganjá*) seller, 1; firewood sellers, 10; total, 4,371. Class VII.—Miscellaneous Females, not classified otherwise—Female pensioners, 40; beggars and paupers, 1,103; female labourers, 487; unemployed adult females, 777,910; female children, 371,986; total, 1,151,526. Grand total of females, 1,161,955.

ETHNICAL DIVISION OF THE POPULATION.—As in other Districts of Eastern Bengal, the Muhammadans form the majority of the population. The Census Report of 1872 returned them as numbering 1,519,635, or 64·7 per cent. of the total population. The Hindus, including semi-aboriginal and aboriginal tribes who have embraced Hinduism as a religion, are returned at 817,963, or 34·8 per cent. of the District population. Excluding these aboriginal and semi-aboriginal tribes, the census returns the number of

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NAME OF NATIONALI OR CASTE.	
I.—NON-ASIAT *European.*	
English,	.
Irish,	.
Scotch,	.
French,	.
	To
II.—MIXED R	
Eurasians,	.
III.—ASIATI	
A.—Other than n India and Bur	
Armenians,	.
Nepálese,	.
	To
B.—Natives of India	
I.—*Aboriginal*	
Chutiá,	.
Gáro,	.
Hájang,	.
Mikir,	.
Nat,	.
Santál	.
Uráon,	.
	To

NAME OF NATIONALITY, TRIBE, OR CASTE.	
3.—*Hindus.*	
(i)—SUPERIOR CASTES.	
Bráhman,	33,414
Rájput,	2,470
Ghátwál,	383
Total,	36,267
(ii)—INTERMEDIATE CASTES.	
Baidya,	2,067
Bhát,	135
Káyasth,	105,537
Total,	107,739
(iii.)—TRADING CASTES.	
Agarwálá and Márwárí	7
Gandhabanik,	2,238
Khatri,	941
Suvarnabanik,	3,106
Others,	1,206
Total,	7,498
(iv.)—PASTORAL CASTES.	
Garerí,	3
Goálá,	17,513
Total,	17,516
(v.)—CASTES ENGAGED IN PREPARING COOKED FOOD.	
Gánrár,	314
Madak,	5,017
Total,	5,331
(vi.)—AGRICULTURAL CASTES.	
Bansí,	386
Bárui,	6,435
Támlí,	33
Kaibartta	77,798
Kurmí,	659
Málí	11,836
Sadgop,	581
Súdra,	3,617
Others,	15
Total,	101,360

NAME OF NATIONALITY, TRIBE, OR CASTE,	
(vii.)—CASTES ENGAGED CHIEFLY IN PERSONAL SERVICE.	
Behárá,	2,665
Dhanuk,	172
Dhobá,	12,587
Gajiyá,	1,757
Hajjám,	19,875
Kahar,	199
Total,	37,255
(viii.)—ARTISAN CASTES.	
Kacháru,	16
Kámár,	9,019
Kánsárí,	2,061
Kumár,	19,323
Rájmistrí,	4
Sánkhárí,	192
Sonár,	552
Sunrí,	35,982
Sutradhar,	21,479
Telí,	6,998
Kalu,	816
Total,	96,442
(ix.)—WEAVER CASTES.	
Jogí,	39,644
Kapálí,	11,393
Tántí,	7,392
Total,	58,429
(x.) LABOURING CASTES.	
Beldár,	781
Chunárí,	847
Mátiál,	1,138
Patiál,	2,769
Total,	5,535
(xi.)—CASTES OCCUPIED IN SELLING FISH AND VEGETABLES.	
Dalatiá,	97

NAME OF NATIONAL
OR CASTE

(xii.)—BOATING AN
CASTES.

Jáliá,	.
Jhálo,	.
Málá,	.
Mánjhí,	.
Pátní,	.
Pod,	.
Tior,	.
Tilak Dás,	.

T

(xiii.)— DANCER, MUS
GAR, AND VAGABON

Báití,	.
Dhulí,	.
Nagarchí,	.
Palwárí,	.
Parwáriá,	.

T

(xiv.)—PERSONS ENU
NATIONALITY

Hindustání,	.
Sikh,	.
Uriyá,	.

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24,936; Nats, 424;
Chutiás, 4. The pr
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constitution. They
raised some distance
In their habits, the

as to food. They eat dogs, jackals, foxes, frogs, snakes, &c., in a nearly raw or half-cooked state. They are excessively fond of liquor, and manufacture a description of rice beer called *pachwai*, of which they consume large quantities. Cultivation is conducted on a very rude system. A piece of jungle land is selected and cleared, and for this no rent is at first demanded by the proprietor. But after a year or two when the holding has been well cleared, the landlord claims his rent; upon which the Gáro cultivator who has reclaimed the land generally moves off in search of fresh ground, and the holding which he has rendered fit for regular cultivation, is leased out to a Bengali peasant. The chief agricultural products of the Gáros are rice and cotton; but many of them are also wood-cutters and dealers in fuel. The same remarks may be applied to the Hájangs, another numerous aboriginal tribe in this part of the country. The Mandai, Koch, Dalu, Hádi-Hotri, and Mech tribes, all bear strong points of resemblance to each other, and according to the Collector, are supposed to have descended from the Gáros, although they now partake more of the nature and disposition of the Hindu inhabitants of the plains. These people have no special religion of their own. Their intercourse with the Hindus has led them to adopt the rites and conceptions of Hinduism. They celebrate many of the Hindu religious ceremonies and sacrifices, and are now generally regarded as belonging to the lowest castes of the Hindu community. They earn their livelihood by cultivation, hunting, cutting and selling wood for fuel, &c. These and other aboriginal or semi-aboriginal castes who have adopted some form of Hinduism as their religion, will be again mentioned in my enumeration of Hindu castes.

CASTES.—The following is a list of 89 Hindu castes met with in Maimansinh District, arranged as far as possible in the order in which they rank in local public esteem, and showing their occupations, &c. The numbers of each caste are taken from Mr C. F. Magrath's Census compilation for the Maimansinh District. The following eight rank highest. (1.) Bráhman, members of the priesthood, and the highest caste in the Hindu social scale; many are also landholders or managers of landed estates, and others are employed in government or private service in respectable capacities; some are also traders. The pure Bráhmans are not numerous in Maimansinh, and these are generally poor, although still held in high esteem. Under the general name of Bráhman,

are included several distinct sects, who, though reported to have sprung from the same origin, have become degraded by receiving alms from people who belong to the lower castes. These despised Bráhmans are excluded from the community of the pure Bráhmans, and have as their followers only the lower castes, the receipt of whose charity caused their dishonour. Some of them are held in such low esteem that many men belonging to the higher castes of Súdras would refuse to eat with them. It is difficult, however, to give them a place in the caste list according to the degree of estimation in which they are held, and they are accordingly classed with the caste to which they originally belonged. The following are some of the denominations by which these degraded Bráhmans are known: —(*a.*) Barna Sarmá, who employ themselves as painters of idols, astrologers, and accept alms on the occasions of *sráddhas* or obsequies; few in number; in easy circumstances, and not much despised. (*b.*) Agradání Bráhmans, who have lost their rank by the practice of accepting the first offerings at a *sráddha*. These offerings consist of grain, oil-seeds, a cow with her calf, a small bit of gold, or a piece of cloth. The class is few in number, and as a rule its members are poor. Besides the above, there are other classes such as Sháhá Bráhmans, Kaibartta Bráhmans, Chandál Bráhmans, and others named after the lower Hindu castes to which they have attached themselves. These are held in much lower esteem than the two classes above named, and rank below several of the Súdra castes, to minister to whose religious wants is reckoned an act of degradation fatal to the purity of a Bráhman. The Census Report of 1872, returned the number of Bráhmans of all classes in Maimansinh District, at 33,414. (2.) Kshattriya or Khatri, a class of up-country traders, who claim to belong to the Kshattriya or warrior caste of Sanskrit times. It is believed, however, that there are no pure Kshattriyas in Lower Bengal. The Census Report terms them Khatris and classifies them as a trading caste; number in 1872 in Maimansinh District, 941. (3.) Rájputs, up-countrymen, employed in military service, and as guards, policemen, and door-keepers. They claim to be Kshattriyas by descent, and in 1872 numbered 2470 souls. (4.) Ghátwál, a class claiming to be Kshattriyas, employed as frontier police in protecting the *ghâts* or hill passes; number in 1872, 383. (5.) Baidya, hereditary physicians by caste employment; many of whom have abandoned their original profession, and are now landed proprietors, clerks, &c. As a class

they are moderately well off, and are held in much esteem; number in 1872, 2067. (6.) Káyasth, the writer caste of Bengal, employed as government servants, clerks, writers, &c., in all departments of business requiring a knowledge of letters; some are also landed proprietors. A few are wealthy men, but the greater number are said to be just above want. A second and lower class of Káyasths work as domestic servants for the first, and although not despised, are naturally not held in the same esteem as the higher class. The Census Report returns the total number of Káyasths, in Maimansinh District at 105,537. (7.) Bhát, heralds, bards, and genealogists; also carriers of letters of invitation on occasion of marriages, *sráddhas* and other ceremonies. The members of this caste or class claim to be Bráhmans who have lapsed from the dignity of pure Bráhmanhood, owing to their acceptance of alms from inferior persons. It is very doubtful, however, whether they have any right to the name of Bráhman, although they wear the *paitá* or sacred thread. In the Census Report they are classified as a distinct caste, their number in Maimansinh District being returned at 135. (8.) Márwárí and Agarwálá, up-country trading castes. These are two distinct castes, but returned together in the Census Report which gives their number in Maimansinh District at 7.

PURE SUDRA CASTES. Next in rank come the following twelve pure Súdra castes, from whose hands a Bráhman can take water or uncooked food without injury to his caste. Originally the respectable Súdra castes were only nine in number, and were called *nabasáks;* but some of them, such as the Baniás, have split up into two or more castes, of equal social rank; while others such as the Telís and Támbulís have by their influence and wealth forced themselves forward from a lower class into a position of social respectability. (9.) Nápit, barbers, 19,875 in number. (10.) Kámár or Karmokár, blacksmiths, 9,019 in number. (11.) Kumár or Kumbhar, potters and makers of earthen idols, 19,323 in number. (12.) Telí or Tilí, originally oil pressers and sellers by caste occupation; many have now abandoned their hereditary employment, and are traders, grain dealers, &c., some of them being rich men. Number in Maimansinh District in 1872, 6,998. (13.) Támlí or Támbulí, betel sellers by caste occupation, but now general traders, grain dealers, &c., 33 in number. (14.) Sadgop, the highest of the cultivating castes. Some are also small landed proprietors, and as a caste they are well-to-do, 581 in number. (15.) Súdra, a respectable

cultivating caste, also employed as domestic servants, and as boatmen, 3,617 in number. (16.) Málá or Málákar, gardeners and flower-sellers, who prepare and sell wreaths for marriages and other religious and social ceremonies, also firework manufacturers, 11,836 in number, and reported to be generally in well-to-do circumstances. (17.) Gandhabanik or Baniá, grocers and spice dealers, many of them also wealthy traders and merchants, 2,238 in number. (18.) Bárui, *pán* gardeners and sellers of betel leaf, 6,435 in number. (19.) Sánkhárí, shell cutters and makers of shell bracelets, 192 in number, and stated to be generally in fair circumstances and above want. (20.) Kánsárí, braziers, and manufacturers of brass and bell metal pots and plates, &c. There is a large settlement of this caste at Kágmárí in well-to-do circumstances. Throughout the District in 1872, the caste numbered 2,061 souls.

INTERMEDIATE SUDRA CASTES.—The following twelve form the intermediate Súdra castes, who are neither esteemed nor despised, and have moderate claims to respectability. (21.) Taipál, not given as a separate caste in the Census Report, but the collector returns them as a well-to-do class of grocers and petty shop-keepers. (22.) Goálá, milkmen and cattle dealers, 17,513 in number, as a class stated to be pretty well off. (23.) Garerí, an up-country pastoral caste, 3 only in number in Maimansinh District. (24.) Sháhá, traders and merchants. These originally belonged to the Surí or despised wine selling caste; but they have abandoned their hereditary occupation for general trade, and by their wealth and importance have pushed themselves forward into a higher social rank. The Sháhás are not mentioned as a separate caste in the Census Report, and their numbers are probably included in the Surís or wine sellers, to which caste they originally belonged. (25.) Kaibarttas, cultivators, fishermen, and boatmen; the third most numerous caste in the District, numbering 77,798 in 1872, and as a class said to be above the reach of want. (26.) Madak or Mayrá, sweetmeat makers, 5,017 in number. (27.) Gánrár, sellers and preparers of parched rice and other preparations of grain, 314 in number. (28.) Kurmí, a class of up-country cultivators, 659 in number. (29.) Vaishnav, not a caste properly speaking, but a sect of Hindus professing the principles inculcated by Chaitanya, a religious reformer of the fifteenth century. A full account of this sect will be found in my Statistical Accounts of the Districts of Dacca and the Twenty-four Parganás. The Census Report returns

the number of Vaishnavs in Maimansinh District at 11,991. (30.) Tántí, weavers, 7,392 in number, and generally poor. (31.) Sonár or Swarnakár, goldsmiths, 552 in number. (32.) Suvarnabanik, merchants, bankers, dealers in gold and silver, &c., 3,106 in number, and usually well off.

Low Castes.—The following thirty-three are low castes and are despised as such. (33.) Sutradhar or Chhutár, carpenters, 21,479 in number. (34.) Dhanuk, labourers and domestic servants, 172 in number. (35.) Dhobá, washermen, 12,587 in number. (36.) Kalu, oil pressers and sellers, 816 in number. (37.) Jogí, a caste of weavers, with customs of their own differing from those of other classes of Hindus. They have men of their own caste who officiate as their priests and religious instructors, and they generally bury their dead, although in other respects conforming to Hindu practices. In 1872 they numbered 39,644 in Maimansinh District, and, unlike other weaving castes, were reported to be in moderate circumstances and generally above want. (38.) Chandál, cultivators, fishermen, day labourers, &c.; some are also employed as menial servants in upper class households, but they are greatly despised and not allowed to touch any vessel containing drinking water, or any article of food. The Chandáls are the most numerous caste in Maimansinh District, numbering in 1872, 123,262. (39.) Kapálí, cultivators and weavers of gunny cloth, 11,393 in number. (40.) Chunárí, lime burners from shells, 847 in number. (41.) Beldár, labourers and cultivators, 781 in number. (42.) Káhár, an up-country caste, employed as domestic servants, water carriers, palanquin bearers, &c., 199 in number. (43.) Sunrí or Surí, wine and spirit sellers and distillers. As stated above, a number of families belonging to this caste have abandoned the occupation of their fellow castemen, and taken to trade, become wealthy, and established a claim to a higher social rank; they call themselves Sháhás, and are generally respected as wealthy traders. The number of Surís in Maimansinh District is returned by the census at 35,982. (44.) Kacháru, makers of lac bracelets, 16 in number. (45.) Behárá, palanquin bearers and labourers, 2665 in number. (46.) Bansí, cultivators and labourers, 386 in number. (47.) Gajiyá, domestic servants and cultivators, 1,757 in number. (48.) Rájmistrí, not a caste, the name simply signifying a bricklayer, an occupation which is followed by men of various castes. The District Census Compilation, however, gives it among the castes, and returns its number as 4. (49.) Jáliá, fisher-

men, 36,399 in number. (50.) Jhálá, not a distinct caste, but a class of fishermen, 5,765 in number. (51.) Málá, fishermen and boatmen, 10,061 in number. (52.) Mánjhí, not a separate caste, but a class of boatmen who act as helmsmen, 3,938 in number. (53.) Pod, fishermen, 63 in number. (54.) Tior, fishermen and boatmen, 14,451 in number. (55.) Mátiál, labourers, 1138 in number. (56.) Dalatiá, sellers of fish and vegetables, 97 in number. (57.) Pátní, ferrymen and boatmen, 21,726 in number. (58.) Tilak Dás, boatmen and fishermen, 42 in number. (59.) Bágdi, labourers and cultivators, 1,326 in number. (60.) Dhulí, native drummers and musicians, 108 in number. (61.) Báití, makers of fine floor matting, 1,006 in number. (62.) Patitá or Patiál, mat-makers, 2,769 in number. (63.) Nagarchí, musicians, 138 in number. (64.) Palwárí, musicians, 630 in number. (65.) Parwáriá, musicians, 19 in number.

SEMI-ABORIGINAL CASTES.—The following twenty-four are all semi-aboriginal castes and are utterly despised. (66.) Báheliá, labourers and cultivators, 19 in number. (67.) Bhuiyá, labourers and cultivators, 7 in number. (68.) Dom, basket makers, and also drummers, 3,717 in number. (69.) Nisí, basket makers, 33 in number. (70.) Dosadh, labourers, 17 in number. (71.) Chámár and Muchí, two distinct castes following the same occupation, that of leather dealers and shoemakers, returned together in the Census Report, 5,934 in number. (72.) Bediyá, a wandering gipsy-like tribe, who gain a livelihood by juggling, selling petty trinkets, and sometimes by theft, 57 in number. (73.) Bind, labourers, 37 in number. (74.) Buná, these people are immigrants from the Districts of Chutiá Nágpur, and are ordinarily engaged as labourers in Indigo factories, or as palanquin bearers, 492 in number. (75.) Chain, labourers, 13 in number. (76.) Mál, snake charmers, 20,166 in number. (77.) Mandai, cultivators and wood-cutters, 5,901 in number. (78.) Pán, labourers, 94 in number. (79.) Pási, sellers of toddy and palm wine, 25 in number. (80.) Shikárí, hunters, 349 in number. (81.) Koch, cultivators and fishermen, 12,420 in number. (82.) Páliyá or Páli, cultivators and labourers, 23 in number. (83.) Rájbansí, cultivators, fishermen, and labourers, 14,007 in number. The collector states that previous to 1790 there were no Rájbansís in this part of the country, and they appear to be emigrants from Rangpur District. (84.) Hádí Hotrí, cultivators, labourers, and wood-cutters, 11,690 in number. (85.) Káorá, swine keepers, 168

in number. (86.) Hárí, swine keepers and sweepers, 1821 in number. (87.) Musáhar, a very low caste of day labourers, 349 in number. (88.) Bhuimálí; this is said to be a caste peculiar to Eastern Bengal, its members are generally employed as domestic servants for all work which is considered degrading, such as sweeping the house, carrying torches, umbrellas, &c., 633 in number. (89.) Mihtar, sweepers, 3,032 in number.

The foregoing list is exclusive of 8,098 persons of unknown or unspecified caste; 166 persons enumerated by nationality only; 26 native Christians of Hindu origin; and 43 Sanyásís, or worshippers of Siva who reject caste. It includes 11,991 Vaishnavs, who are now regarded as a caste, although merely followers of the teachings inculcated by Chaitanya, a religious reformer of the fifteenth century whose chief doctrine was the equality of all men before their Maker. The Collector reports that no castes seem to be declining in point of number, but the relative importance of several is sensibly undergoing a change owing to the spread of English education and the more general diffusion of knowledge. The natural result has been the advance of the lower classes in wealth and position, and a tendency towards the social intermingling of separate castes.

THE MUHAMMADANS admit no distinction of caste, but are divided into the four following classes:—(1.) Sayyid or Mír, claiming direct descent from Muhammad. (2.) Shaikh; this class is divided into two rival sects, the Shiahs and Sunnís—the former are the followers of Alí, the son-in-law of Muhammad, and the latter the followers of the first four Khalífás or successors of Muhammad. (3.) Pathán or Khán—Afgháns and their descendants. (4.) Mirzá or Beg.

RELIGIOUS DIVISION OF THE PEOPLE.—The population is divided into Muhammadans, Hindus, Bráhma Samáj followers, a few Christians, and a number of aboriginal tribes following various primitive faiths.

THE MUHAMMADANS form the majority of the population. In 1872 the census returned their number as follows—Males, 771,167, and females, 748,468; or 64·7 per cent. of the District population. The Collector states that no definite reason can be assigned for the preponderance of Muhammadans in the District, the proportion of Muhammadans to Hindus being nearly as two to one. It is locally reported that during the days of Musalmán supremacy the difference was much greater than at present. The religion of Islám has now ceased to make any further progress among the people. The

present Muhammadan population consists chiefly of the sect known as Faráizís, in whom centre much of the wealth and influence of the District, some of its members being very large landholders. Many of the poorer among the Faráizís were formerly known as sympathisers with the Wahábi disaffection, and a small number went from Maimansinh to the rebel camp beyond our north-west frontier, for the purpose of co-operating with the fanatics in that part. The Collector adds that special enquiries prove that Wahábi ill-feeling is now extinguished in the District. No new sects of Muhammadans are springing up. Nearly all the rich Musalmán landed families of Maimansinh are said to have settled in the District subsequently to the acquisition of the country by the English.

HINDUS.—The Hindus, as loosely grouped together for religious purposes in the Census Report of 1872, numbered 410,766 males, and 407,197 females; total, 817,963, or 34·8 per cent. of the District population. The Hindu population in the south-eastern part of the District mostly belong to the Vaishnav sect, and pay great veneration to the memory of one Rám Krishna Gosáin, who is said to have first introduced Vishnuvite tenets into this part of the country. This sect has its head-quarters in the neighbouring District of Silhet, but it has also many monasteries and places of worship (*ákrás*) in Maimansinh. The Mandai tribe, supposed to be offshoots of the Gáros, who inhabit the plains at the foot of the northern hills, have adopted some of these religious usages, and are now generally ranked with the lowest castes of Hindus, although not yet recognised by the more orthodox.

THE BRAHMA SAMAJ or Theistic Sect of Hindus does not, according to the Collector, number over 50 *professed* followers in Maimansinh District, but he states that the reformed faith appears to be gaining ground. In the Census Report, the members of the Bráhma Samáj are not shown separately, but are included with the general Hindu population. The Bráhma Samáj at the town and head-quarters station of Násírábád was established about twenty years ago by the exertions of a few educated natives of the District, some of whom still live and take a great interest in the prosperity of the society. The number of Bráhmas is said to have considerably increased of late years, and in 1871 the Collector reported that the Samáj was attended by most of the educated natives of the town. Although the majority are not very well off in circumstances, the members of the Samáj have, by means of subscriptions among themselves, built a substantial house

for the purposes of their worship and meetings. Branches of the Samáj have also been established at Kisorĺganj, Sherpur, Husainpur, Jangalbárí, and Bangáon, after the fashion of the one at the civil station. Missionaries from the principal Samáj at Calcutta also make periodical visits to the branch Samájs in Maimansinh, and with considerable success. The members of the Samáj are all residents of the towns, and the collector stated in 1871 that no attempt had then been made to preach the tenets of the reformed faith among the poorer classes forming the rural population.

THE CHRISTIAN population of Maimansinh District numbers 124 souls, namely, 73 males and 51 females. Deducting 98 as the number of European, Eurasian, and Armenian Christians, there remains a total native Christian population in Maimansinh of only 26 souls. These chiefly reside at the civil station of Nasírábád, and are nearly all employed as Government clerks or as missionaries; as a class they are not in good circumstances.

DISTRIBUTION OF THE PEOPLE INTO TOWN AND COUNTRY.—The population of the District is almost entirely rural, and the Census Report discloses only five towns as containing a population of five thousand souls or upwards, namely,—Maimansinh or Nasírábád, the civil station and administrative head-quarters of the District, although not the most populous town, population, 10,068; Jamálpur, population, 14,312; Kisorĺganj, population, 13,637; Sherpur, population, 8,015; and Dhánikholá, population, 6,730. The total urban population thus disclosed amounts to only 52,762 souls, leaving a balance of 2,297,155 as forming the rural population. The dwellers in the towns, therefore, only make up 2·24 per cent. of the total population of the District. The Muhammadans do not furnish an equal proportion of the town population as of the entire District population. The Musalmáns, who throughout Maimansinh amount to 64·7 per cent. of the people, comprise only 59·49 per cent. of the residents in the towns. The Hindus, on the other hand, who form 34·8 per cent. of the entire population, furnish 40·16 per cent. of the town population. The remaining ·35 per cent. of the town population is made up of a sprinkling of Christians in Nasírábád or Maimansinh town, and of "others," principally in Jamálpur town. The District Census Compilation thus classifies the villages and towns:—There are 3,974 villages containing less than two hundred inhabitants; 2,363 with from two hundred to five hundred; 904 with from five hundred to a thousand; 304 small towns with from one

thousand to two thousand; 39 with from two to three thousand; 9 with from three to four thousand; 3 with from four to five thousand; 2 towns with between six and ten thousand; and 3 with between ten and fifteen thousand inhabitants; total number of towns and villages, 7,601. The following are the particulars of the five principal towns in the District containing a population exceeding five thousand souls.

MAIMANSINH OR NASIRABAD, the civil station and administrative head-quarters of the District, although not the most important or most populous town, is situated in Alapsinh Fiscal Division, on the W. bank of the Brahmaputra river, in 24° 45′ 15″ north latitude, and 90° 27′ 21″ east longtitude. The Census Report returns the following details of population:—Muhammadans—males 3,007, and females 2,371; total, 5,378. Hindus—males 3,748, and females 883; total, 4,631. I am unable to explain the apparent discrepancy in the proportion of females to males in the Hindu population of the town. Everywhere else the number of the sexes is nearly equal, males being slightly in excess of the females, as might be expected in a town population. Christians—males 39, and females 19; total, 58. Other denominations not separately classified—males 1, females *nil;* total, 1. Population of all religions—males 6,795, and females 3,273; total, 10,068. The town has been constituted a municipality. The total municipal income for 1869, as returned to me by the Collector, amounted to £685, 13s., and the expenditure to £580, 19s. The returns for 1871 show a decrease in municipal revenue and expenditure. According to the District Census Statement, the gross municipal income of Maimansinh or Nasírábád town in 1871 amounted to £473, 6s., and the gross municipal expenditure to £470; average rate of municipal taxation, 7½ *dnnás*, or 11¼d. per head of the population. The town is of no great commercial importance, as the river on which it is situated—the Brahmaputra—is only navigable for large boats in the rainy season; nor is it noted for any historical event, and with the exception of two Hindu temples, it contains no buildings of any antiquity or particular interest. The river is crossed by a ferry just opposite the town. Nasírábád town contains good English and Vernacular schools, a charitable dispensary, and has a municipal committee for purposes of sanitation and conservancy, besides a small body of municipal police.

JAMALPUR, the head-quarters station of the sub-division of the

same name, and the most populous town in the District, is situated in Jafarsháhí Fiscal Division, on the west bank of the Brahmaputra, in 24° 54′ 55″ north latitude, and 89° 59′ 30″ east longitude. The Census Report gives the following details of the population of the town and municipality. Muhammadans—males 4,956, and females 4,784; total, 9,740. Hindus—males 2,303, and females, 2,149; total, 4,452. Christians, *nil.* Other denominations not separately classified—males 51, and females 69; total, 120. Population of all denominations—males 7,310, and females 7,002; total, 14,312. This population refers to the municipal limits, which include several neighbouring villages grouped together for municipal purposes. The population of the town or village itself was returned at 2,458 in 1867. The Collector returns the total municipal income of the town in 1869 at £349, 15s., and the expenditure at £208, 6s. In 1871 the gross municipal income amounted to £344, 6s., and the expenditure to £314, 8s.; average rate of municipal taxation, 3 *ánnás* and 10 *pie*, or 5¾d. per head of the population. Jamálpur town is distant thirty-two miles from Nasírábád, with which it is connected by a good road. A ferry across the Brahmaputra is maintained opposite the town, which contains a subordinate judge's court, police station, Government school, &c. Jamálpur was formerly a military station, but no troops are now stationed there, or have been since 1857.

KISORIGANJ, the head-quarters of the subdivision of the same name, is situated in Joár Husainpur Fiscal Division, thirteen miles east of the Brahmaputra river, in 24° 26′ 20″ north latitude and 90° 48′ 40″ east longtiude. The District Census Report gives the following details of its population. Muhammadans,—males 3,533 and females, 3,802: total 7,335. Hindus,—males, 3,146 and females 3,148: total 6,294. Christians,—*nil.* Other denominations not separately classified,—males 3 and females 5: total 8. Population of all denominations,—males, 6,682, and females, 6,955: total 13,637. This is the population of the municipal union which comprises several contiguous villages, rather than of the town of Kisoríganj itself. The population of the town in 1867 was returned at about 1200 only. The gross income of the municipality in 1871, is returned at £240, 8s., and the gross expenditure at £353, 14s., average rate of municipal taxation 2¾ *annás* or 4⅛d. per head of the population. Kisoríganj is connected with the Brahmaputra river by a road; and also by a creek, which, however, is only navigable during

the rainy months. A fair is annually held here during the *Jhulan játrá*—a festival in celebration of the birth of Krishna lasting for a month, from about the middle of July to the middle of August.

SHERPUR town is situated in the Fiscal Division of the same name, nine miles north of Jamálpur, in 25° 0′ 58″ north latitude, and 90° 3′ 6″ east longitude. The Census Report returns its population as follows Muhammadans,—males 2,197, and females 2,100 : total 4,297. Hindus,—males 2,053, and females 1,665 : total 3,718. Christians and "others"—*nil.* Population of all denominations—males, 4,250, and females, 3,765 : total, 8,015. The town comprises also the villages of Náráyanpur and Barukpárá, and lies between the rivers Shirí and Mirghí, about half a mile from the former and one mile from the latter. There is no water-carriage to the town, and even water for drinking and household purposes is obtained solely from tanks. Sherpur contains a fine Hindu temple, and several masonry houses, but the buildings in general are in bad repair, and the place has a decayed and neglected appearance. A fairly good road connects Sherpur with Jamálpur, the Brahmaputra river being crossed by a ferry. The town contains a police station, a post office, a subordinate judge's court, and a good school. It was constituted a municipality under the provisions of Act xx. of 1856, and a small body of municipal police is maintained for the protection of the town. In 1869, the total municipal revenue, according to the Collector, amounted to £316, 6s., and the expenditure to £189, 14s. 6d. In 1871 the gross municipal revenue, according to the Census Report, amounted to £281, 4s., and the gross expenditure to £207, 16s., average rate of taxation 5 *ánnás* and 7 *pie*, or 8⅜d. per head of the population.

DHANIKHOLA, in the Fiscal Division of Alapsinh, is situated on the Satuá river, an insignificant stream, in 24° 39′ 10″ north latitude, and 90° 24′ 11″ east longitude. Population ; Muhammadans—males 2,399, and females 2,236 : total 4,635. Hindus,—males 1,038, and females 1,057 : total 2,095. Christians and "others"—*nil.* Population of all denominations—males 3,437, and females 3,293: total 6,730. This town has not been constituted a municipality.

The table on the next page shows the population, etc., of the foregoing five towns in Maimansinh District containing a population of upwards of five thousand inhabitants.

Besides the towns thus enumerated there are several others containing less than five thousand inhabitants, and therefore not shown separately in the Census Report, but which are of suffi-

cient importance to be given here. The list on the following pages of the more important villages arranged according to the *pargandás* or Fiscal Divisions in which they are situated, is condensed from Appendix B to Mr Reynold's Report on Maimansinh. The population figures for these villages refer to the year 1867.

RETURN OF POPULATION IN TOWNS CONTAINING MORE THAN 5000 INHABITANTS IN MAIMANSINH DISTRICT (1872).

Name of Town.	Muhammadans.	Hindus.	Christians.	Others.	Total.	Gross Municipal Income.	Gross Municipal Expenditure.	Rate of Taxation per head.
						£ s. d.	£ s. d.	s. d.
Maimansinh or Nasírábád,	5,378	4,631	58	1	10,068	473 6 0	470 0 0	0 11¼
Jamálpur,	9,740	4,452	...	120	14,312	344 6 0	314 8 0	0 5⅜
Kisoríganj,	7,335	6,294	...	8	13,637	240 8 0	353 14 0	0 4⅛
Sherpur, .	4,297	3,718	...	...	8,015	281 4 0	207 16 0	0 8⅜
Dhánikholá,	4,635	2,095	...	...	6,730			
Total, .	31,385	21,190	58	129	52,762	1,339 4 0	1,345 18 0	0 6 Average.

I. ALAPSINH, FISCAL DIVISION. (1.) Maimansinh or Nasírábád, the civil station and administrative head-quarters of the District: details given above. (2.) Muktágáchhá, a town situated about eleven miles west of Nasírábád, with which it is connected by a fair road; population about 1,200, of whom the majority are Hindus. Three markets are held here, one daily, one weekly, and one bi-weekly. This town is the residence of most of the Hindu landholders of the Fiscal Division. (3.) Dhápuniá, about five miles south-west of Nasírábád on the river Satuá. Although the river is only navigable during the rainy season, the village is an important mart for grain, of which large quantities are kept stored. (4.) Bairá Bháluká, on the high road to Dacca, situated on the Brahmáputra about five miles south-east of Nasírábád; population 1,192. (5.) Bhábkhálí, on the Brahmaputra, about seven miles south-east of Nasírábád; population 872; there is an Indigo Factory in this village. (6.) Káthál, nine miles south-east of Nasírábád; population 1,625. (7.) Rámpur; fourteen miles south of Nasírábád; population 2,173. (8.) Bálipárá, sixteen miles south-east of Nasírábád; population 1,779. (9.) Dhulá, one and a-half miles south of Bálipárá; population 1,090. In addition to a bi-weekly market, there is a considerable daily bázár here. (10.) Baihár, on the Satuá river, nine miles south of Nasírábád; population 3,206. (11.) Tirsal, eleven miles south of Nasírábád, where a

cattle market of some importance is held; population, 1,345. (12.) Gobindganj, on the Satuá at its junction with the Brahmaputra, five miles north-west of Nasírábád. There are large warehouses here for storing grain, and a fair is held twice a-year, in March and October. (13.) At Báigunbárí situated near the last named village, there is a very large Indigo Factory belonging to Mr Brodie. A number of pilgrims visit this village on the occasion of a festival in March or April for the purpose of bathing in the Brahmaputra.

II. ATIÁ FISCAL DIVISION. (14.) Atiá is the principal village of the recently created Sub-division of the same name, but is not a place of great importance.

III. BÁOKHAND FISCAL DIVISION. (15.) Amtalá, twenty two miles north-east of Nasírábád; population 1,922, principally Hindus. The village is the residence of a great number of wealthy cloth merchants, and contains a large Hindu Temple.

IV. BARBAZU FISCAL DIVISION. (16.) Kadím Hámjání, on a branch of the river Jamuná, over which there is a ferry, fourteen miles south of Subankhálí; there is a large mosque in the village.

V. TAPPÁ HAZRÁDI. (17.) Karímganj, nine miles east of Kisorí-ganj, and about twenty-two miles from the Brahmaputra river; population 1,646. This village is the principal bázár for the people of the low country in the South-east. (18.) Abdullápur, on the Brahma-putra river; population 4,085, almost entirely Muhammadans. (19.) Chándpur, on a small stream called the Pankuriá river, thirteen miles east of the Brahmaputra; population, 1,315. The village is well known as the residence of many native merchants and dealers. (20.) Bangáon; population, 1,505. There are several Hindu Temples in this village, and it is the residence of many wealthy merchants. (21.) Kátiádí, on the Brahmaputra; population, 400. As a commercial mart, this place has lost its former great importance owing to the drying up of the channel of the river on which it stands; it is still, however, a much frequented bázár. (22.) Kálíachápra, an inland mart of some importance, eight miles east of the Brahmaputra. A large market is held on Tuesdays and Fridays, at which there is an abundant supply of grain and other country produce.

VI. JOÁR HUSAINPUR FISCAL DIVISION. (23.) Kisoríganj, head quarters of the Sub-division of the same name; details given in a previous page. (24.) Dárinagar, a village on the Brahmaputra, contains a large indigo factory, the property of Mr Wise of Dacca. (25.) Husainpur, a small village on the Brahmaputra, the population

of which is only 180; but the village site is entirely occupied by shops, and the place is a large mart for all articles of country produce. (26) Haibatnagar, two miles west of the Sub-divisional Station. The village is an inconsiderable one, but a large and well-supplied bi-weekly market is held there, and the place is the residence of the most influential landholders of that part of the country.

VII. JAFARSHÁHÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—(27.) Jamálpur, the head-quarters town of the sub-division of the same name, details given in a previous page. (28.) Chandrá, on the Jhináí river, two miles north-west of Jamálpur, contains a well-known indigo factory belonging to Mr Brodie. There is also a ferry here, which is only used in the rainy season.

VIII. JUÁNSHÁHÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—(29.) Bázidpur, a village of 742 houses, which possesses a force of Municipal Police under Act x. of 1856. The receipts and expenditure of the Municipal Committee in 1869-70, were as follows:—Revenue, £68, 12s. 6d.; expenditure, £35, 12s. 9d.

IX. KHALIÁJURÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—(30.) The village of Khaliájurí is the only place of any note in this Fiscal Division; it is situated on the river Dhanu, which is navigable throughout the year; the superior landlords' revenue offices are located in this village.

X. TAPPÁ KURIKHÁI FISCAL DIVISION.—(31.) Ghurái, on the Ghorá-utrá river; population, 2,495; this village is the residence of many rich native merchants, chiefly dealers in cloth and Dacca muslin; it is also a large mart for dried fish. (32.) Ulákándí or Bhairab Bázár, situated on the Brahmaputra river, just at the tri-boundary junction point of the Districts of Dacca, Tipperah, and Maimansinh, is the most important commercial mart of the District, and a large trade is carried on between here and Náráinganj; population, 1,500; the village contains a good school, and a well supplied cattle market.

XI. MAIMANSINH FISCAL DIVISION.—(33.) Madanpur, twenty-two miles east of Nasírábád; population, 973. The village contains two large mosques, one of which is known by the name of Sháh Rumir Masjid. The story runs, that a member of the royal family of Constantinople wandered to this village during an attack of madness, but eventually recovered his health, and subjugated and converted to Muhammadanism the neighbouring tract of country. A masonry tomb to his memory exists on the west side of the village. (33.) Sambhuganj, three miles east of Nasírábád; one of the largest marts in the District, where all kinds of country produce, and many im-

ported articles are procurable ; population, 2,257. The court of the subordinate Judge of Mádárganj is located in the village. (34.) Gauripur, eleven miles east of Nasírábád ; a village of some note, although the population is very small. Three bi-weekly markets are held in the village for all kinds of country produce, cattle, and brass and copper utensils.

XII. Nasírujiál Fiscal Division.—(35.) Gujádiá on the river Narsundá on the southern border of the Fiscal Division ; population, 2,345. A Vaishnav *ákrá*, or monastery, is situated in the village. (36.) Kandiurá, a small village, but noticeable as the site of a Government distillery. (37.) Phatiká, on the Magrá river, a petty village, but a large and well known market is held in it twice a-week for the sale of all kinds of country produce, especially of grain. It is the most frequented mart in this part of the District. The Magrá river is a stream of no great width, but navigable for boats of some size all the year round. (38.) Barsíkurá, on the Dhanu river ; population, 450. This village is the principal place where the so-called Dacca cheese is manufactured. There are extensive grazing grounds in the neighbourhood where large numbers of buffaloes are pastured.

XIII. Pukhuriá Fiscal Division.—(39.) Subankhálí, situated on the Jamuná river over which there is a ferry, forty-four miles west of Nasírábád, with which it is connected by a tolerably good road. It is one of the large markets of the District, and a considerable export and import trade is carried on. The village also contains an indigo factory, the property of Mr W. Baldwin. (40.) Madhupur, a well-known village on the western border of the Madhupur jungle. It contains two Hindu temples, several substantial houses, and a police station.

XIV. Ran Bháwál Fiscal Division.—(41.) Biru or Datt's Bázár, situated on the Brahmaputra river ; population, 940. This is one of the principal marts of the District, and a considerable trade is carried on with Náráinganj. (42.) Barmi, on the river Banar, close to the borders of Dacca District ; there is an indigo factory in the village, and charcoal is largely manufactured.

XV. Sherpur Fiscal Division.—(43.) Sherpur, the principal town in the *parganá* ; details given on a previous page. (44.) Char Garhjaripá, a small village with a population of only 300, but noticeable as containing the remains of an old mud fort, the ruined walls of which are still twelve or fourteen feet in height. The fort is locally believed to have been built by one of the independent

Muhammadan kings of Bengal. (45.) Mádárpur, six miles north-west of Sherpur; population, 425. This is a village of some importance in the neighbourhood, and is the only place at which carts are procurable. A large market is held twice a-week, and there is a well supplied daily bázár. The village contains a large sheet of water, known as the Beshá *bil*, abounding in wild fowl. (46.) Nalitábárí, thirteen miles north-east of Sherpur, and one of the largest marts in the northern part of the District. A good supply of cotton produced in the Gáro Hills is brought to market here, as well as all kinds of country produce.

XVI. Susang Fiscal Division.—(47.) Durgápur on the Someswarí river; the principal village of the Fiscal Division, and the site of the palace of the Mahárájá of Susang; population, about 1000; the palace is large, but is now in a dilapidated state. (48.) Náráyandahar, a small village eighteen miles north-east of Nasírábád, which contains some old buildings, and is noted as being the residence of the Majumdár landholders, influential proprietors in the Fiscal Division. (49.) Púrabdeholá, a large village with several substantial masonry buildings and tanks. It also contains an extensive sheet of water, called the Ráj-deholá *bil*, which is beautifully clear and limpid.

The residents of the towns are said to give rise to a larger share of the work of administration than the rural population. With regard to the proportion of the agricultural to the non-agricultural community, the collector states, that taking Hindus and Musalmáns together, out of every thirty-eight inhabitants, twenty-nine are engaged in agriculture, and nine in other occupations. The Census Report of 1872 returns the total number of male adult agriculturists at 514,667, and male adult non-agriculturists at 212,949.

Material Condition of the People.—The people of the District are making rapid progress towards improvements of many kinds. A common husbandman now-a-days is much better dressed, has fewer unsatisfied wants, and more knowledge what tends to promote his comfort, than people of his class had twenty years ago. An ordinary well-to-do shopkeeper now dresses almost as well as a landholder did twenty years ago. He wears a clean white waistcloth, (*dhutí*), a coat (*pirán*), a cotton shawl (*chádar*), &c. The clothing of an average cultivator generally consists of a waistcloth and cotton shawl. A well-to-do shopkeeper's dress is worth from 3 rs. to 4 rs, or 6s. to 8s., and that of an average peasant about 1/8 rs.

or 3s. The former uses six, the latter four suits ayear; so that the annual cost of clothing in the first case amounts to from 18 rs. or £1, 16s. to 24 rs. or £2, 8s., and in the latter case to about 6 rs. or 12s. The homestead of a well-to-do shopkeeper generally consists of five or six separate huts in a single enclosure, furnished with two or three wooden chests, a chair or seat, and a service of brass or bell-metal plates and pots, numbering from ten to fifteen. An average husbandman's homestead consists of two or three huts, furnished with a few brass or bell-metal pots and plates, and some coarse mats for sitting or sleeping upon. Occasionally, he has also a chest for keeping his clothes in. The food of a well-to-do shopkeeper generally consists of rice, pulses, vegetables, fish and milk, and the Collector estimates the monthly living expenses of a middling sized household of this class, consisting of a man, wife, and two children, at 12 rs., or £1, 4s., including charges for clothing. An ordinary peasant eats coarser rice, with pulses, vegetables, and occasionally milk, and the Collector estimates the monthly expenses of a household of this class consisting of four members, to amount to about 8 rs. or 16s., including cost of clothing, &c.

AGRICULTURAL.—The staple product of Maimansinh is rice, of which three crops are cultivated—(1.) the *áus*, or autumn crop; (2.) the *áman*, or winter crop, and (3.) the *boro*, or spring crop. The Deputy Collector reports that *áus* rice is sown from February to April and even May, and reaped from the middle of May till about the middle of September. It seems that the harvest takes place earliest in the western Fiscal Divisions of the District; afterwards in the northern, and last of all in the southern tracts. In the south, there are only two kinds of *áus* rice cultivated; namely, the *jalí* and the *áus* proper; but in the western parts, the varieties of *áus* rice are much more numerous. Their names are as follow:—*chápánái, sháitá, hásá kumariá, ghritá kánchaní*, and *bháturí*, all of which are sown in May, and require a dry soil for their production. Other varieties of *áus*, namely, *kálámánik, báliábákrí, pánkait, kálá mádárí, káchhá lání, garphá, kurchá murí, lakshmí birál, kedá chák* and *baulá*, are sown in dry soil in April, and reaped in July and August. The *áman*, or winter rice, forms the great crop of the year. It is sown in April, May, and June, and reaped in October, November, and December. The principal varieties of this rice are thus named:—*baran, dolái, arálíá, kálíjirá, básiráj, ráimukhí*, which require marshy land to grow in, and *dhepá kákuá, til bájáil, mánik dighá, chámárá, madhu sáil, áswiná, málatí, ráj pál,*

kách kamal, and *pakshiráj*, which grow best in dry lands. The *ropá*, or transplanted *áman* crop, is composed of three varieties :—*kálijirá*, *básiráj*, and *ráimukhí*, which are all grown in moist soil, being sown in April, transplanted in June, July, and August, and reaped in November and December. The *boro*, or spring rice, is sown in November and December, and reaped in March, April, and May. This is also a transplanted crop, and grows best in low marshy lands. The other cereal crops are as follows:—wheat (*goham*), sown in dry land in November, and reaped in March; oats (*jab*), sown and reaped at the same seasons, and on the same variety of land; Indian corn (*bhuttá*), sown on high lands in April, and cut in July. The following are the principal pulses and green crops cultivated in Maimansinh ; *máskalái* (phaseolus radiatus), sown in dry lands in September and October, and gathered in December and January ; *matar* or peas (pisum sativum), sown on dry land in October, and gathered in February; *Khesárí* (lathyrus sativus), sown on dry land in October, and cut in March ; *arhar* or *harar* (cytisus cajan), sown in dry land in October, and reaped in May. *Musurí* (ervum lens), sown in dry land in October and November, and reaped in January and February; *mug* (phaseolus mungo), sown in dry land in September and October, and reaped in December and January ; *thíkrí* (phaseolus mela nospermus), sown in dry land in Septemtember, and gathered in January ; *sim*, or beans, sown in dry land in September, and gathered in January, February, and March, extensively used as a vegetable by the poor classes; *chiná*, a species of millet (panicum miliaceum), and *káon*, are sown in dry land in January, and reaped in April. Of oil seeds, *masiná*, or linseed (linum usitatissimum), is sown in dry land in October, and reaped in January and February; *sarishá*, or mustard (sinapis dichotoma), in dry land in October and November, and cut in January and February ; and *til* (sesamum Orientale), sown in dry land in March, and cut down in May.

Rice Cultivation.—The mode of cultivating rice is the same as that in use in other Districts. The Collector reports that some improvement has taken place of late years in the quality of the rice grown near the town, owing to the increased demand of the well-to-do and educated classes residing in the Civil Station. No such improvement has however taken place in the quality of rice grown in the interior. The extent of land under rice cultivation is said to have increased in quantity within the last twenty years by about twenty per cent. The different preparations made from rice, and their prices are as follows :—*muri*, paddy boiled and afterwards

parched and husked, sold at three halfpence per pound; *chirá*, paddy steeped in water, and afterwards fried, sold at three farthings a pound; *khai*, paddy slightly parched and husked, sold at three halfpence per pound; *mad*, a spirit distilled from rice, sells at about a shilling a quart; *Pachwai*, a fermented rice liquor is prepared by the Gáros and other border tribes, and largely consumed by them. It is generally made for home consumption, but when sold, fetches about two pence farthing a quart.

MISCELLANEOUS CROPS.—*Nil* (indigo) is somewhat extensively grown, being sown in dry land in September and October, and cut in May and June. Tobacco is sown in dry land in October and November, and cut in March. Sugar-cane is not very largely grown, but there are several considerable plantations of it in Husainsháhí and Joár Husainpur Fiscal Divisions; it is sown in dry land in February and April, and cut in December and January. *Pán* creepers are raised at all seasons, principally in Alapsinh and Jafarsháhí Fiscal Divisions. This crop requires transplanting and constant care, the prepared ground being called *baraj*. The other productions are capsicums, ginger, pepper, onions and garlic.

JUTE forms the great commercial staple of Maimansinh. The cultivation is largely carried on throughout nearly the whole District, but particularly in the rich alluvial tracts formed by the Brahmaputra in the south-eastern tract between Ghafargáon and Bhairab Bázár in the north of Dacca District. The river has here silted up a great deal of late years, and the alluvial accretions (*chars*) thus formed, are found to be exceedingly favourable to the growth of jute.

In February 1873, a special commission was issued by the Bengal Government to inquire into the cultivation and preparation of Jute. It consisted of a European gentleman from a mercantile house in Calcutta, and a native Deputy Magistrate and Collector. The former unfortunately died while the inquiry was in course of progress, and the work was completed by Bábu Hem Chandar Kar, the other member of the Commission. An able and exhaustive report by that gentleman has recently been published by the Government of Bengal. From it I condense the following paragraphs regarding the cultivation and preparation of jute, with special reference to Maimansinh District; using as far as possible his own words.

The jute of commerce, locally termed *koshtá* or *pát* by the natives, is the product of two different species of plant, both belonging to the natural order *Tiliaceæ*. This order embraces several genera, the

bark of which yields fibre; but of these, the genus *corchorus* is the most remarkable as including six different species of valuable fibre-producing plants. These are (1.) *corchorus capsularis*. (2.) *corchorus olitorius*. (3.) *corchorus fuscus*. (4.) *corchorus fascicularis*. (5.) *corchorus trilocularis*, and (6.) *corchorus decemangularis*. The two species first named are the only ones which yield the true jute, the others not being ordinarily cultivated for their fibre.

The *corchorus capsularis* is an annual plant, growing from five to ten feet high, with a cylindrical stalk as thick as a man's finger, and seldom branching except near the top. The leaves, which are of a light green colour, are about four or five inches long by one inch and a-half broad towards the base, but taper upwards into a long sharp point with edges cut into saw-like teeth; the two teeth next the stalk being prolonged into bristle-like points. The flowers are small and of a whitish-yellow colour, coming out in clusters of two or three together opposite the leaves. The seed-pods are short and globular, rough and wrinkled. It is thus described in Major Drury's "Useful Plants of India":—"Annual, 5-10 feet: calyx deeply 5-cleft: petals 5: leaves alternate, oblong accuminate, serrated, two lower serratures terminating in narrow filaments: peduncles short: flowers whitish-yellow in clusters opposite the leaves: capsules globose, truncated, wrinkled and muricated, 5-celled: seeds few in each cell, without transverse partitions: in addition to the 5-partite cells there are other 5 alternating, smaller and empty." The second species, the *corchorus olitorius*, is very similar to the last in general appearance, shape of leaves, colour of flower, and habits of growth; but it differs entirely in the formation of the seed-pod, which is elongated, almost cylindrical, and about the thickness of a quill. Major Drury thus describes the plant—"Annual, 5-6 feet, erect; leaves alternate, ovate-accuminated, serrated, the two lower serratures terminated by a slender filament; peduncles, 1-2 flowered; calyx 5-sepalled; petals 5, capsules nearly cylindrical, 10-ribbed, 5-celled, 5-valved; seeds numerous, with nearly perfect transverse septa; flowers small, yellow." Each of these species has a white and a reddish variety. The stalks and leaves of the first variety are of a light green colour; while in the second, the stalks are red and the leaves red veined. Both varieties of the plant are cultivated in Maimansinh.

In so wide and diversified a country as Bengal, it is to be expected that the physical character of the land on which jute is grown,

should vary considerably in different parts. High lands, low lands, recent alluvial formations or *chars*, dry lands, humid lands, all are more or less cultivated with jute. Generally, however, such lands may be classed under the heads of—1*st*, *Soná*, high land, which is usually reserved for the cultivation of fruit trees, pulses, vegetables, tobacco, sugar-cane, and the *áus* rice; and, 2*nd*, *Sáli*, or low land on which the *áman*, or winter rice crop is grown. In Maimansinh, the jute crop is generally cultivated on land near the husbandman's house sufficiently high to be out of reach of inundation. In the south-eastern part of the District, however, along the banks of the Brahmaputra, it is grown on the low lying river accretions. Laterite and gravelly soil are not favourable to the growth of the plant, and in Bánkurá, Bírbhúm, and portions of Bardwán and Midnapur where the soil largely consists of laterite, jute is very scantily cultivated.

As regards climate, all information tends to show that a hot damp atmosphere is most favourable to the growth of the plant. Too much rain at the beginning of the season and early floods, are equally destructive to the young plants, and injurious to the prospects of the the crop. Except in low situations, the seed is never sown until after a shower of rain to help germination. Alternate rain and sunshine are found to be most congenial to the jute plant, but excessive rain after the plant has attained a height of two or three feet will not prove materially injurious so long as no water lodges at the roots. The water when so lodged does not kill the plant, for in the Bákarganj and Faridpur Districts jute grows even in waist-deep water; but it promotes the growth of suckers, which makes the fibre what is technically called "rooty." Frequent light showers at first, and heavier rains afterwards, with the gradual rise of the rivers and a fair amount of sunshine, constitute the weather most favourable to the healthy growth of the plant. Jute suffers less injury from excessive rainfall than from the almost entire absence of it. Drought always stunts the growth of the plant, and if protracted very often entirely destroys it. Inundations do not destroy the plant so long as it is not submerged, and there is sufficient sunshine to afford the necessary warmth.

The period for sowing, and the manner in which the land is prepared for jute cultivation vary in different Districts, and sometimes even in different parts of the same District. In Maimansinh, jute is called either *áus* or *áman*, according to the description of soil in which it is sown. The *áus* jute is sown earlier than the *áman*.

Sowings are generally made in the month of April or May, after the cold weather crops have been reaped, and the field repeatedly ploughed. As a rule the preparation of the soil is first commenced in the case of the low lands, *chars*, *bils*, &c., where there is considerable risk of water rising high very early; and deferred to a later period in that of high lands, where no such apprehension need be entertained. The number of ploughings required is entirely dependent on the nature of the soil; a clayey hard soil requiring a greater number of ploughings than a light, sandy, or loamy one. Under any circumstance the land should be so ploughed as to render the soil finely pulverised, and to expose every part of it to the sun. Little attention seems to be paid by cultivators to the selection of good seed. In Maimansinh, a portion of the field is set aside for seed without reference to the quality of the plants, so that healthy and ill-grown plants alike contribute seed for the ensuing season's cultivation. As a rule, seed is not bought and sold, but raised from the plant by the cultivator himself; in cases where it is sold, the ordinary price is about 2 rs. a *maund*, or 5s. 5d. a cwt.; although in very brisk years, the price rises to 8 rs. or 10 rs. a *maund*, or from £1, 1s. 10d to £1, 7s. 3d. a cwt. The ordinary quantity of seed used is about 1½ *seer* per *bighá*, or 8 lb. per acre. The seed is sown broadcast on a clear, sunny day, and covered over with a thin crust of earth, either by the hand or by a harrow. Germination takes place three or four days after sowing, when the field is harrowed or weeded, or subjected to both processes. Overcrowding a field checks the full development of the plant, and for this reason the crop is occasionally thinned by the removal of the more backward plants. Ordinarily, the space left between the plants is six inches, but in some places the plants are left more widely apart.

The crop is reaped from about the middle of August to the middle of October. The best time for cutting is thought to be when the plant is in flower, and just before the appearance of the pods, when the fibre is of very superior quality. But about this time the cultivator's attention is taken up by other crops, and the majority of husbandmen are not in a condition to incur the necessary outlay for hired labour to gather in the jute. The plants are, therefore, often allowed to run to seed before being cut. On the other hand, it sometimes happens that to avoid an impending inundation, or from a wish to be early in the market, the cultivator pulls up or cuts the plant even before it has flowered. The fibre from plants which have not flowered, is

weak ; while that from plants in seed is harsh and wanting in gloss, although heavier and stronger than the fibre of the flowering plant. Whenever practicable, however, the plant is cut, either when flowering or when the flowering is just completed. In some places, after the crop has been cut, it is stacked in the field and exposed to the action of the dew and sunshine, till the leaves, which if steeped along with the stalks are said to discolour the fibre, have dropped off. In other localities, the leaves are thought to add to the weight of the stalks and to make them sink readily, and are not removed. Stacking is not generally practised in Maimansinh District, and the stalks when cut are made up into bundles, and thrown at once into water for the purpose of being steeped.

Stagnant water appears to be generally preferred for steeping the stalks in, as it expedites the process of fermentation, by reason of its containing a large proportion of decomposing vegetable matter. There is also great risk of the bundles being swept away by a sudden flood if steeped in a stream, and there is danger of the fibre being impregnated with the sand which is always carried in suspension by river currents. In steeping the stalks, they are covered with a layer of refuse tops of the jute plants, or with clods of earth, plantain tree trunks, logs of the date tree, or sometimes with straw smeared with mud. This is done partly with a view to protect the upper parts of the bundles from the action of the sun, partly to keep the stalks sufficiently below the surface of the water, and because it is believed to hasten the process of rotting. In some places the bundles are at first sunk by the root end, which is harder, leaving the upper end exposed above the water, and then after ten or twelve days the upper end is pressed down to the same level with the root ends, so that the whole length of the stalks may rot uniformly. While the bundles are under water they are examined from time to time to ascertain how far the rotting has progressed. When rotted to such a degree that the fibre peels off easily, the bundles are taken out of the water, and the fibre either picked away from the stem, or separated by beating in the water. After the fibre has been extracted it is washed, and all impurities removed or picked out. The fibre is usually washed in the same water in which the stalks have been steeped. But the cleaner the water and the more frequent the washings, the silkier and whiter is the fibre. Whenever readily to be found, therefore, running water is preferred for this process.

The Collector estimates the out-turn of jute in Maimansinh from

one *bighá* of land, or a third of an acre, to be from eight to nine *maunds*, or from $5\frac{3}{4}$ to $6\frac{1}{2}$ hundred-weights, worth from 1/8 rs. to 2 rs. a *maund*, or from 4s. 1d. to 5s. 5d. a hundred-weight. The value of a good crop of jute, therefore, would be about 14 rs. per *bighá* or £4, 4s. 0d. an acre.

These prices, moreover, were the ones ruling in 1873, and are much lower than those for previous years. The cost of cultivation is thus returned:—rent of land, 1/4 rs. a *bighá* or 7s. 6d. an acre; seed, $1\frac{1}{4}$ annás a *bighá*, or 6d. an acre; ploughing, harrowing, &c., 3/2 rs. per *bighá*, or 18s. 9d. an acre; weeding, 1/2 rs. per *bighá*, or 6s. 9d. an acre; cutting, 1 rs. per *bighá*, or 6s. an acre; steeping, picking, and tying up, 2/11 rs. a *bighá*, or 16s. an acre. Total cost, about 9/6 rs. a *bighá* or £2, 16s. an acre. The estimate does not represent the actual outlay incurred by the cultivator, but rather the cost which would be incurred if hired labour were employed. This, however, is very seldom the case, the entire labour of cultivation and preparation being carried on by the husbandman and his family. In the jute growing tracts, cultivators frequently form themselves into associations on the principle of mutual co-operation, and undertake by turn the cultivation of the field, or the preparation of the fibre, for the aggregate guild. This practice is known as *gántá* in Pabná and the Districts near Calcutta; and as *hámúr, jogul*, or *hámúrullá* in Maimansinh. In this District, the owner sometimes also lets out his jute land in *bhág, i.e.*, in consideration of a half share of the produce from the lessee of the land.

It has long been a disputed point as to whether jute is or is not an exhausting crop for the soil, and the information received by the commission from the various District officers in different parts of the country, exhibits a wide diversity of evidence on this point. On the whole, however, the generally received opinion is that jute is an exhausting crop, and the Jute Commissioner shares in this view. He states in his report:—"I have no hesitation in saying that jute exhausts and impoverishes the soil to a much greater extent than the other crops. In the absence of a sufficient series of chemical analyses of jute soils under different conditions, before and after the raising of a jute crop, I am unable to say what are the particular constituents of the soil which it abstracts; but that it does abstract some of its constituents very largely is evident, from the necessity which agriculturists find themselves under of re-invigorating their fields with manure and fresh earth collected from drains and other places where vegetable and animal decomposition have deposited a rich layer of

mould, or leaving them fallow for a time, or by a rotation of crops, the crops selected being such as are known by experience not to require the same soil as the jute. In the case of *chars*, *bils*, and low lands, this artificial re-invigoration is not required, as the silt deposited by the overflow of rivers, the washings of the high lands brought down by rain water and deposited on low ground, and the enormous mass of vegetation which rots in *bils*, effect by natural processes what the agriculturist on high lands has to accomplish by his own labour; but the necessity of supplying to the soil those constituents which the jute plant abstracts exists everywhere. Nor are the adverse opinions quoted above really opposed to this deduction; for it may be that in those places where the soil appears not to be exhausted, the rainfall and drainage are such as to obviate the necessity of artificial manure; or the soil there may be so rich in those particular constituents which promote the growth of the jute plant, that a succession of crops does not appreciably exhaust it; nay, it may adapt the soil for the better growth of other crops. Positive answers on these questions must, however, await extensive chemical analyses and experiments. As to the degree to which soil is exhausted by the cultivation of jute, I am disposed to think that ordinarily even virgin land, which has been broken up for a first crop of jute, will, in the second year, lose about 25 per cent. of its productive power; and that, even though afterwards manured, the yield in the third year will be about one half of the first year's crop. It is from this conviction of the exhausting power of jute on the soil that this crop is so frequently shifted from field to field; and I can testify from my own observation and inquiries that, except in the case of *chars* flooded annually, and very low lands which derive similar benefits by drainage, it is in a very few instances only that jute is grown on the same land for more than three years consecutively."

This exhaustion, where not remedied by inundation is met by (1.) the application of manure; (2.) rotation of crops; and (3.) allowing the land to remain fallow. The manure ordinarily used consists of cow-dung, ashes, and mud from neighbouring banks or swamps. The leaves of the plant are considered a good fertilizer, and are usually allowed to remain on the fields to rot. A rotation of crops is rarely resorted to in the case of jute lands in Maimansinh District, but such lands are generally left fallow every third or fourth year.

Drought is the most important of the natural calamities to which

the jute crop is liable; but the plants are subject to other accidents of a serious character. In the central and eastern Districts, entire fields of jute are sometimes destroyed by a kind of hairy caterpillar called *shúápoká*, which generally comes in seasons of drought and eats up the leaves and bark of the jute plants. The insect is known by various names in different Districts; those by which it is most commonly described being the *bichá* and *áinchá*. Another equally destructive insect is the cricket called *uchingrá* which burrows in the ground and either uproots the seedlings altogether, or destroys them by cutting through the roots. During protracted droughts in Maimansinh, the plants from want of moisture are visited by a blight called *káchurí* which warps and twists the leaves and stops the growth of the plant.

A question has been raised as to the effects of jute-steeping from a sanitary point of view, owing to the rotting of the plant in the water. A considerable diversity of opinion exists as to whether the practice is really prejudicial to health. Dr M'Donnell, who has long resided in the great jute-growing District of Sirájganj, inclines to the negative view. "I do not agree," he says, "that jute-steeping is in any respect unhealthy, or that it breeds any disease. It is certainly offensive to the smell; but so is the water in which the indigo plant is steeped, and the refuse of the indigo plant, but they are well-known to be otherwise than unhealthy. The drinking of the water would no doubt be injurious, but from June to September, when the process is carried on, the people can easily obtain other water."

It has been repeatedly alleged that of late years jute has deteriorated in quality, and that there has been a reckless selection of lands for jute cultivation. On this point too, a conflict of opinion exists among the different District officers. There is little doubt, that in proportion to the increase of the cultivation, the quantity of medium and inferior jute raised has been greater, season after season. When the demand is brisk and the prices high, people find a ready market for whatever they can produce, and naturally become careless; whereas a glutted market leads to the rejection of inferior articles, and consequently cultivators are driven to the necessity of care in improving the quality of their goods. This was well illustrated in the Calcutta market in 1872-73, when the demand fell greatly below the supply, and such demand as did exist was chiefly for fibre of the best quality; the lower varieties

being saleable only at a very cheap rate. The cultivator is generally careful in selecting the land whereon to grow jute; but a careful selection of land is not alone sufficient to secure a supply of good fibre. It is on the timely harvesting of the crop, the sufficient steeping of the stalks, and the careful dressing of the fibre, that the superior quality of the produce in a great measure depends; and it is of not less importance that the rainfall while the crop is on the ground should not only be sufficient but seasonable.

The high prices of 1871-72, threw the cultivator off his guard; and forgetting his habitual caution, he extended the area of his cultivation beyond the limits of his working power. Just at the time, too, when the jute had to be harvested and steeped, he was busy both in reaping his crops of *áus* rice and *kháon*, as well as in preparing to sow the *áman* paddy. His attention being thus divided, the jute crop was neglected; for even the cultivator who could afford to pay for hired labour, found it difficult to procure it, especially in a season when labour is most constantly and largely in requisition, and when the labouring population was also to a great extent crippled by the sickness then so widely prevalent. The result was a crop of inferior quality.

There are, however, many causes for the deterioration of jute, irrespective of want of care on the part of the cultivators. Even after taking every precaution, the husbandman finds himself helpless if the rainfall happen to be insufficient or unseasonable. In 1872 this was the difficulty with which he had to contend. Lower Bengal suffered from a deficiency of rain in every month of that year, and with an extended area under jute cultivation, a large portion of the fibre necessarily turned out of medium and inferior quality. Again, excessive rain, by driving the agriculturist to reap his crop before it is mature, leads to its deterioration. The plants on low lands being in imminent danger of death by submersion, the alternative is either to lose the entire crop, or by cutting early to secure a crop of inferior quality. The husbandmen naturally preferred the latter course. With a large area of cultivation spread over a very wide tract of country, on lands of very dissimilar character, and under very different circumstances, the result in 1872-73 was the influx of a large quantity of inferior jute into the market. There is nothing, however, to show that there has been any deterioration in the character of the jute plant itself, or a permanent falling off in the quality of its fibre.

The direction in which improvements may be easily and most

beneficially effected in the cultivation and preparation of jute, are (1.) the selection of seed, (2.) rotation of crops, and allowing jute land to remain fallow, and (3.) care and attention in the season of reaping and in the subsequent manipulation of the fibre. With regard to the first point, an exchange of seeds between different Districts might be tried with an almost certain improvement in the quality of the fibre. Moreover, as jute is generally conceded to be an exhausting crop, although some of the District officers maintain the contrary, no high lands should be planted with jute oftener than once in two or even three years. That the productive powers of jute land have been generally over-taxed, is inferred from the fact that of late more inferior fibre has been brought to the market than formerly, much of which must have been grown on exhausted soil. There is considerable difficulty, however, in carrying out a system of regular fallows at stated periods. The cultivator cannot always afford to pay rent for fallow lands, and the prospect of recouping two or three years' rent by the sale of one year's good crop is subject to so many contingencies, natural, commercial, and domestic, that few like to accept it. There is besides at present a great demand for arable land for a variety of crops, and few can afford to forego present opportunity for a future contingency. A third direction in which improvement might be effected, is with regard to the time of cutting the plant. The Superintendent of one of the largest Jute mills in the neighbourhood of Calcutta, writes as follows with reference to this point:—"Too much importance cannot be placed upon the fact, that the cutting of the jute at the proper time in a great measure determines its quality. If cut when the plant has just reached its full growth and the flowers begin to appear, the fibre will be strong, soft, and free from hard root which is so objectionable; on the other hand, if allowed to stand until decay has set in, the fibre will be hard and of a brown colour, and no amount of care in the steeping will remedy this. No proper tanks are provided for steeping in; any small hole or ditch by the road side is used. For a time these do well enough, but quantity after quantity is steeped in the same water, till it gets so dirty that the fibre steeped in it becomes discoloured and weak." The employment of machinery for the separation of fibre cheaply and effectually is very desirable, and it might be worth the while of Government to offer premiums for machines for the purpose. The primary conditions which such a machine would have to fulfil are—*1st.*, That it must be cheap enough to be within the reach of the bulk of the cultivators; *2nd.*,

it must be so easily worked that husbandmen of ordinary intelligence should be able to use it; and *3rd.*, it must be so simple in construction, that any village smith should be able to put it in order when required. The great desideratum is cheapness. Unless the cost of such a machine be so low as to bring it within the reach of ordinary cultivators themselves, it would effect little; as paid factory labour in large establishments would not be able to compete with the private enterprise of cultivators who devote their leisure hours to the manipulation of the plant.

Any improvements or changes imply a greater outlay of labour and capital than is now devoted to the work, and this will scarcely be risked so long as the cultivator does not find that the price of his produce is regulated by its quality alone; that the best quality commands the highest price; and that inferior fibre proves the least remunerative to him. Something may be done by diffusing information as to what alterations and changes in the present modes of cultivation and of manufacture are likely to improve the quality of jute, but the only thing which will really lead to the general adoption of improved methods of cultivation and manipulation is profit. Meanwhile he naturally clings to a process which, without any appreciable strain on his resource of capital and labour, now brings him such large returns. This cannot be better illustrated than by reference to the extension of the jute trade, and I quote the following *in extenso* from the Commissioners' Report:—

"Jute has been grown in India from about or even before the time of the Mahábhárata; and doubtless a considerable quantity of the fibre was produced in the seventeenth and the eighteenth centuries both for home consumption, and for gunnies for the packing of articles for exportation; probably also for the manufacture of cordage. But the raw material was not exported. Trial shipments of the fibre were made at the close of the last century, and although these were very favourably noticed and laid the foundation for a lucrative foreign trade, no systematic or material aid was given by Government, and the exports languished from that time to the close of the third decade of this century. In 1828-29 the total exports of jute amounted to only 364 cwt., valued at £62, 2s. From this year, the trade in the fibre seems to have gone on rising very steadily. At the close of the first five years from that date the exports rose to 25,333 cwt. In the next five years the average was 67,483. The next quinquennial

average was nearly double that of the preceding one (117,047 cwt.), and it doubled again in 1843-44 to 1847-48 (234,055 cwt.) This steady increase in the production of the fibre was effected solely by the energy of the cultivators, without any extraneous aid whatever. They found the occupation profitable, and engaged in it with alacrity, devoting their own land, time and capital to a cultivation which they understood thoroughly, and which always brought them a fair return. The fibre was gradually better and better known by the manufacturers in England, and as the demand rose, so did the supply. The superior quality of Russian flax, and its moderate price at the time was, however, a serious impediment to the extension of the jute trade, even if it had been, which it certainly was not, well known to manufacturers. Few would seek the jute fibre in distant India who could get the superior Russian flax at about the same price so much nearer home. The Russian war of 1854-55 upset this state of things. The importation of flax was stopped, and English manufacturers were driven to the necessity of finding a substitute, and jute at this juncture appeared the most promising. It was nearly as good as flax in quality; it was cheaper, and it was grown in a dependency of the British Crown, where it could be cultivated to any extent desirable. The stocks in the market were bought up at high prices, and the demand for the fibre in Bengal was brisk. The cultivator perceived his opportunity, and seized it of his own accord, without any prompting or aid worth the name. He kept up the supply to the full extent of the demand, and the average of export rose from 969,724 cwt. in 1858-59 to 1862-63, to 2,628,110 cwt. in 1863-64 to 1867-68, or nearly three-fold more than that of the preceding five years, or over eight times more than the supply of the year before the breaking out of the Russian war. The total value of these exports was £6,129,593. The last quinquennial average was 4,858,162 cwt., valued at £3,010,022. During the period from 1828-29 to 1872-73, the jute trade has risen from 364 cwt., valued at £62, 2s. in 1828-29 to 7,255,689 cwt., valued at £4,234,962 in 1872-73. It is usual with some to descant on the apathy, ignorance, and want of enterprise of the people of this country generally, and of the cultivators in particular; but the figures here given prove beyond the shadow of a cavil that they are, notwithstanding their real and alleged defects, sufficiently long-headed thoroughly to understand their interests, and capable of creating and extending an industry in five and forty years to the value of nearly four and a quarter millions pounds sterling, without any aid

whatever from without. That they are capable, likewise, of sustaining this trade and extending it, if required and made worth their while, none will, I feel certain, venture to question. As long as the trade will be profitable they will do all that is needed; but strong common sense and long-headedness will not accept theories for facts, nor adopt new methods and systems because they are new, or because they are told to adopt them. The new methods and systems must be proved to be real improvements, calculated for certain to add to their profits, or they will have none of them. To illustrate this subject further, I may here also advert to a fact which is of much moment. The high prices and heavy demands for jute in 1871-72 were quite sufficient to induce the cultivator in the following year, to increase the area of his cultivation by about 30 per cent. over that of the preceding year; but his customers failed to respond to his enterprise. The purchasers fell back, the prices fell, and the market was glutted; as a necessary consequence the grower was a heavy loser, and he at once reduced the area of his cultivation from about 925,899 acres in 1872 to nearly 517,107 acres in 1873. In short, the best and only incentive to the extension of the jute trade is, as in all other cases, profit; and as long as European manufacturers will keep it up by a steady demand at remunerative prices, so long there will be regular improvements, both in the quality and quantity of the supply; but sudden and heavy falls in prices will tell seriously against both."

The rapid extension of the jute trade of late years has materially improved the condition of the agricultural classes. The Collector of Maimansinh states as follows:—"In an economic point of view, jute has been an immense boon to the inhabitants of the District. It has enabled them to utilise lands which were previously of little value, and it has poured in a supply of silver till the great bulk of the people are decidedly raised above a condition of poverty. At the same time, I am not of opinion that the production of cereals has been diminished to any appreciable extent, if indeed it has been diminished at all. I am sensible of the difficulty of applying abstract rules of political economy to the state of things around us in India; but the following points may be noticed as bearing on this part of the question:—*1st*, the price of rice has not risen in the last four years; *2nd*, even if the price of rice had risen somewhat, this would have been sufficiently accounted for by the rise of price which would naturally follow the influx of silver rising from the sale of jute; *3rd*,

as, in spite of this, rice has not risen, it follows that rice cultivation must have been extended and not diminished; *4th*, it is impossible, however, to say what quantity of the silver which has flowed in has passed into circulation, as, of course, only silver in circulation can affect prices, and the quantity of silver hoarded in this District is very considerable. But apart from considerations of this kind, I can state with tolerable confidence, from my knowledge of the District and my experience as a settlement officer, that the production of cereals is not diminishing. It is seldom that the cultivator is tempted to sow jute upon lands which ought to be devoted to rice, as he has generally the command of lands of inferior quality, which are nevertheless very well adapted for jute."

As a rule jute is cultivated by the peasantry only with a view to supplementing their regular cultivation of rice and seeds. Very few, if any, devote themselves to it exclusively, and as the preliminary outlay on the crop is small, the labour, seed, and manure being the cultivator's own, there is not much demand for advances in order to enable the husbandman to go on with the cultivation. In some places, however, the system of advances has arisen, and it is prevalent in Maimansinh, Rangpur and Goálpárá. These advances are made and received under various conditions. In some places, the *mahájan* or village merchant makes the advance on the express understanding that he is to be repaid in jute to be delivered at the market rate of the day, and that he is also to be paid a commission of $1\frac{1}{4}$ *seers* or $2\frac{1}{2}$ lbs. of jute for each rupee advanced, as interest. In other places the entire produce of the field or fields is made over to the *mahájan*, who deducts the amount of his advance and interest from the proceeds of the sale of the jute. In and about Jamálpur in Maimansinh District, a cultivator under advance has to give to his *mahájan* 5 *seers* or 10 lbs. out of every *maund* (82 lbs.) sold by him, to cover the charge for interest on the loan; and in some instances, in addition to the 5 *seers* of jute, 2 *pice*, or three farthings per *maund*, in money is also levied by way of direct interest. In the Kisorĺganj sub-division of Maimansinh the *mahájan* who has made the advance generally takes repayment in jute at the rate of four *ánnás* or sixpence per *maund* less than the market rate; if the stipulated quantity is not delivered in the same season, the deficiency has to be made good the following year.

Where jute is not grown under advances, the cultivator takes the raw produce of his crop in bundles, to the nearest *hát* or village

market, or to the large marts, according to local circumstances; and there sells it to petty traders, known at different places under the names of *páikárs*, *phariás*, or *bepáris*, who convey the produce to the central towns, and dispose of it to the *mahájans*, or merchants of greater pretension. The petty traders also go about with money from homestead to homestead, buying up parcels of the fibre, which they either dispose of on their own account, or make over to the *mahájans* from whom they may have received advances. These itinerant traders, known in the eastern Districts where they have to travel in boats, as *bhásániá bepáris*, and elsewhere as *phariás*, are to be met with in every District where jute is largely grown, and almost everywhere appear as middlemen between the jute-grower and the merchant. In Rangpur jute sometimes passes from the cultivator direct to the *mahájans* themselves, who send it to Calcutta. It is disposed of to *bepáris* from Sirájganj, who go up in boats, occasionally with salt, but oftener with cash, either bartering for, or buying up, the jute according to the grower's choice. These *bepáris* are generally allowed a half share in the profits of the venture by the Sirájganj *mahájans*, who sell the jute at that mart to native or European merchants for shipment to Calcutta. In Dacca, when the cultivator owns a boat, he himself goes with his produce direct to the *mahájans*, chiefly at Náráinganj. Sometimes two or more cultivators club together and hire a boat jointly to carry their produce to market. But the *páikár* or *phariá* prevails everywhere.

The great jute mart in Bengal is Sirájganj in Pabná District. The District officer thus describes the manner in which jute transactions are conducted at Sirájganj, and the same description applies, *mutatis mutandis*, to the other large rural centres of the trade:—"The hanks are brought by boat or on men's heads to the nearest market or *hát*, one of which is to be found within a few miles of every village. There it is sold to *bepáris*, or petty dealers. The *bepáris* never make advances for jute to the cultivators, but always pay in ready money for what they buy. . . . The jute is next put into boats of from fifty to a hundred and fifty *maunds* burden, and is conveyed by the *bepáris* to the exporting marts—Sirájganj, Ráiganj, Pángásí, Chandrakoná, Ulápárá and Sháhzádpur. There the fibre is sold to the *mahájan*, the merchant who remains stationary in one place and buys jute brought to him, either as a speculation, or for a commission of 5 per cent. In Sirájganj the *bepárí* deals with the *mahájans* through the agency of a broker, called a *dálál*. Sales are conducted in a floating bázár

on the river, where all classes of traders, European as well as native, are to be seen daily between 8 and 11 A.M., passing backwards and forwards in light boats, called *dálálí dingís*, amidst an incessant clamour of tongues. More than half the *mahájans* are *Márwáris* (called *Káyás*), and their gay dress and the rapid movement of their boats give an animated appearance to the scene. There is the greatest noise and confusion on every side, but the real business is transacted without a word. The *dálál* tells the *mahájan* what is the number of *maunds* of jute in his client's boat, and where it comes from; he offers a sample, and then they put their hands together under a cloth. Offers and demands are indicated by tracing the Bengali figures expressing the rate per *maund* on the palm of the person concerned, no one else being able to know what amount is to be given or received. If the parties come to terms, a little jute from the sample is delivered by way of a sign that the bargain is complete. This trade language of signs is also used at Náráinganj and probably in most Indian marts. It may have been introduced by the *dálás* in order to cheat the *bepárís*. These country traders are liable to be deceived as to the price agreed upon, and always seem to play a very ridiculous part, sitting in a corner of the boat while strangers dispose of their property by secret signals. The bargain made in the broker's boat is seldom adhered to. When the *bepárí* brings his jute to the *mahájan*, he is told, generally with great truth, that it is not of as good quality as the sample, and the price has to be settled over again. If the market has risen, the seller claims the benefit." In case of a dispute regarding the quality of the article bargained for, a reduction is the usual course; and if this cannot be adjusted by the parties concerned, arbitration is resorted to. The price is generally paid on the twentieth day after purchase.

The great bulk brought down to Calcutta is usually conveyed by water; Maimansinh jute not often being despatched to Calcutta direct, but generally to the large marts of Sirájganj or Náráinganj. Occasionally it is forwarded direct to Calcutta in charge of the *mánjhí* or head man of the boat, who has been known to dispose of the jute on his own account and to return to the *mahájan* with a false tale of wreck and total loss of cargo. The cost of boat hire to Calcutta direct from Maimansinh varies from £3, 10s. to £5 (35-50 rs.), per 100 *maunds* (between 3 and 4 tons), the higher rates being charged in November and December when the rural population is engaged in harvesting the winter rice crop.

It may be well here to describe the system of trade followed when the jute reaches Calcutta. "When a consignment of jute arrives in Calcutta by rail, it is carted away to the store house of the consignee, generally an *áratdár*, or commission agent, who sells it at his own discretion, charging store rent at the rate of 1 *pice* or 1½ farthings, and commission at the rate of 1 *ánná* or 1½d. for every *maund* sold. The rent is usually charged for the total period the goods are stored, without reckoning the exact time, or making any difference for the occupation of the store-house for a long period in cases where the sale is delayed. If a consignment is coming by country boats, the consignee sends out men called *khálgastís* who go beyond the toll-house, board the boats consigned to the firm, and discharge the prescribed tolls which are subsequently recovered from the consignor. When the jute is sold from the boats in which it is brought, without being landed, a commission of only 1 *ánná* or 1½d. on each *maund* sold, is charged by the consignee. But if the consignment has to be kept in the *árat*, or store-house, 1 *pice* or 1½ farthings more per *maund*, is charged on account of rent, as in the case of jute brought by rail.

"The *áratdár* or commission agent to whom the consignment is made, acts as the seller's broker. The produce is, however, disposed of through the intervention of a regular broker acting on behalf of the intending buyer. The European exporting firms are the principal buyers. Occasionally, but rarely, when the market is very low, and the consignee is particularly anxious to close his account, the *áratdár* himself becomes the purchaser. When the fibre is approved of, and the terms are settled between the commission agent and the broker, a *jáchandár*, or examiner of the quality of the fibre, is called in to examine the consignment in the buyer's interest, and to fix the quantity to be given over and above per *maund*, in case the fibre be found wet or inferior to sample.

"Sometimes, even before the bargain is settled, or the disposal of the consignment has been arranged for, the *áratdár*, if applied to, advances to the consignee nearly the whole amount of the market value of the consignment, charging interest at 12 per cent. per annum. If the sale-proceeds exceed the amount of the advance and charges, the surplus is remitted to the seller, who, on the other hand, is required to refund the difference if the sale-proceeds fall short of the consignee's claims. Sometimes the *áratdárs* advance money to the petty traders in the jute-growing Districts, charging interest at

12 per cent. per annum on the sum advanced, on the understanding that they will send all they can collect to the *árats* making the advances. The debt is discharged out of the price realised by the sale of the jute they bring down to Calcutta. Sometimes a trader under advance sells his investment at a different *árat*, or agency house; but in such a case no difference is made in the rate of interest, nor any claim urged for damages. The usual precaution taken is to seize the boat as it arrives at the toll-*ghát* through the *khálgastís*, and recusancy on the part of the consigners, or of their supercargoes, leads to quarrels and appeals to the police: but this is not common."

I have mentioned that jute is prepared from two species of plants. No appreciable difference is reported in the quality of their respective produce. In commerce, however, marked distinctions are noticed in the productions of different places. These have led to a variety of specific names being applied to jute, of which the following are the most common :—(1) *Uttariyá*, (2) *Deswál*, (3) *Desí*, (4) *Deorá*, (5) *Náráinganji*, (6) *Bákrábádi*, (7) *Bhátiál*, (8.) *Karímganji*, (9) *Mirganji*, and (10) *Jangipuri*.

(1.) *Uttariyá*, the market name for the best variety of jute. It is called *uttariyá* or northern jute, because it comes from the Districts to the north of Sirájganj, *viz.*, Rangpur, Goálpárá, Bograh, parts of Maimansinh, Kuch Behar, and Jalpáigurí. This jute recommends itself to the trade by its possessing to the greatest extent those properties which are essentially necessary in fibres intended for spinning, namely length, colour, and strength. It sometimes, however, fails in toughness, and is never equal to the *desí* and *deswál* descriptions in softness. A superior quality of this jute is produced by the Hájang and Koch people in the hills north of Maimansinh. It comes into the market as late as November.

(2.) *Deswál.* Next in commercial value is the *deswál* jute, which commands a steady and good price on account of its fineness, softness, bright colour, and strength. It is stated, however, to have deteriorated to a certain extent within the last few years, from the inefficient system of drainage in the new fields where it is grown. The fibre has become shorter and more rooty, and also weaker. Its name implies that it is the native jute of Sirájganj and its neighbourhood. The varieties grown in *bils* or marshes are called *bilán;* those raised on *chars* are commercially known by the name of *charuá*. In Calcutta both sorts pass under the generic name of *deswál*. It first comes into the market about the latter end of July or the beginning of August.

(3.) *Desí* jute is the produce of Húglí, Bardwán, Jessor, and the 24 Parganás. It is of a long, fine, and soft fibre.

(4.) *Deorá.* This quality of jute comes from Faridpur and Bákarganj. Its name is taken from a village in Faridpur, which was formerly a large mart. The village has now dwindled into insignificance, but all the jute produced in Faridpur and in the neighbouring District of Bákarganj is known by its name. The fibre of this class is strong, coarse, black, and rooty, and much overspread with runners. It is largely used in the manufacture of rope and cordage, and would rise in value if the dealers would refrain from pouring water on the prepared fibre in order to increase its weight. Occasionally small parcels of this jute are met with of a very superior quality.

(5.) *Náráinganji* jute, called after the mart which is the centre of the trade, is mostly the produce of Dacca. It is well-suited for spinning, being strong, soft, and long. But from some neglect in steeping, the fibre by the time it reaches Calcutta, loses its original colour and turns a brownish tint, which detracts from its value.

(6.) *Bákrábádi* jute is the finest description of the fibre raised in Dacca District on the *chars* of the river Meghná. It excels particularly in colour and softness.

(7.) *Bhátiál* jute is also grown in Dacca and comes to Calcutta from Náráinganj. It is grown on river *chars*, and takes its name from the fact that it grows in the *bháti* or tidal country. It is a very coarse but strong fibre, and in demand in the British market for the manufacture of rope.

(8.) *Karimganji* jute grown in Maimansinh District, is an unusually long fibre, very strong and of good colour, partaking to some extent of the nature of the Náráinginj or Dacca jute.

(9.) *Mírganji* jute is the produce of Rangpur District, which although long, is generally of only medium quality.

(10.) *Jangipuri.* The produce of a portion of Pabná District goes by the name of Jangipuri, after the village of that name. It is of short fibre, weak, and bad for spinning.

The fluctuation in the price of jute during the past few years, has been remarkable. At Sirájganj market, superior jute which in 1871 sold at 5 rs. a *maund*, or 13s. 8d. a hundredweight, did not in 1872 realise more than from 3/10 rs. to 3/14 rs. a *maund*, or from 9s. 11d. to 10s. 7d. a hundredweight. In 1873 the prices of the different descriptions of jute at the same mart were as follows:—Best *uttariyá*, 3/4 rs., 3/6 rs., 3/8 rs., and 3/10 rs. per *maund*, or from 8s. 10d. to 9s. 11d. a hundredweight. Medium *uttariyá*, 2/12 rs. to 3/2 rs. a

maund, or from 7s. 6d. to 8s. 6d. a hundredweight. Inferior *uttariyá*, 1/10 rs. to 2/2 rs. a *maund*, or from 4s. 5d. to 5s. 9d. a hundredweight. Best *charuá*, 2/6 rs. to 2/8 rs. a *maund*, or from 6s. 6d. to 6s. 10d. a hundredweight. Medium and inferior *charuá*, 1/14 rs. to 2/4 rs. a *maund*, or from 5s. 1d. to 6s. 2d. a hundredweight. *Deswál*, 1/10 rs. to 2/2 rs. a *maund*, or from 4s. 5d. to 5s. 9d. a hundredweight.

At Náráinganj market in Dacca, jute sold in 1872 up to a maximum of 4/12 rs. a *maund*, or 13s. a hundredweight. In 1873 the highest prices realized ranged from 2/8 rs. to 2/12 rs. a *maund*, or from 6s. 10d. to 7s. 6d. a hundredweight. Inferior kinds sold in 1873 as low as 1 r. to 1/2 rs. per *maund*, or from 2s. 8d. to 3s. 1d. a hundredweight.

The prices at the Mádárípur mart in Bákarganj District, the seat of the *deorá* jute trade, varied in the early part of 1872 from 2/2 rs. to 2/4 rs. per *maund*, or from 5s. 9d. to 6s. 2d. per hundredweight. In 1873 prices are said to have fallen so low as from 12 to 14 *ánnás* per *maund*, or from 2s. to 2s. 4d. a hundredweight.

In the Calcutta market, the prices of the different descriptions of fibre in 1872 and 1873, are returned as under:—

	1872.		1873.	
	Per *Maund*.	Per Cwt.	Per *Maund*.	Per Cwt.
	Rupees.	*s.* *d.* *s.* *d.*	Rupees.	*s.* *d.* *s.* *d.*
Uttariyá, . .	4 to 6/4	10 11 to 17 1	2/8 to 4	6 10 to 10 11
Deswál, . .	3/8 to 4	9 6 ,, 10 11	1/14 to 3	5 1 ,, 8 2
Desí, . . .	3 to 3/12	8 2 ,, 10 3	2 to 2/8	5 5 ,, 6 10
Deorá, . . .	2 to 3	5 5 ,, 8 2	1/2 to 1/8	3 1 ,, 4 1
Náráinganji, .	3 to 4/8	8 2 ,, 12 3	2 to 3/8	5 5 ,, 9 6
Bákrábádi, .	3 to 3/8	8 2 ,, 9 6	1/14 to 2/10	5 1 ,, 7 2
Jangipuri, . .	2/12 to 3/4	7 6 ,, 8 10	2 to 2/8	5 5 ,, 6 10

The average price of jute in Maimansinh District in 1872 was returned at from 1/8 rs. to 2 rs. a *maund*, or from 4s. 1d. to 5s. 5d. a hundredweight.

Although the present depressed prices (1873-74) have thrown a gloom over the prospects of jute cultivation, the future of the trade is nevertheless promising. The Jute Commissioner in his Report, thus sums up the future prospects of jute cultivation :— "Taking only the present jute-growing tracts into consideration, the prospect of the cultivation in time to come may be regarded as most hopeful. The sixteen Districts which include the bulk of these tracts,

comprise a total area of 22,498,477 acres of arable land, out of which only 876,324 acres were devoted to jute in 1872 according to the District reports,—probably an inadequate estimate. Leaving any excess out of consideration, as its extent cannot be ascertained, and arguing on the figures at command, were the demand for jute to double in course of the next ten years, it would only take up about one-thirteenth of the arable area, leaving the remaining twelve-thirteenths for cereals and other crops. This estimate does not include the reclaimable waste lands in the Districts under notice. Their extent is vast; and as they are being rapidly brought under the plough, in reality jute will not trench upon the present fields for the food-crops to the extent shown above. Again, there are several Districts where jute is not as yet grown to any large extent, but which have taken to its culture, and are gradually extending their area, and these will in a great measure supplement the present sources of supply. Moreover, during the time the reclaimed lands will take in occupying the place of those fields which will be alienated from the food-crops by jute, those Districts which cannot grow jute can easily raise additional food-crops, which will in the usual course of trade feed the jute-growers, whose earnings by jute would be most welcome to them. Doubtless in a country governed by custom all changes are repugnant, and a transition state of agriculture and commerce must at first produce some disturbance of the usual order of things; but under the incentive of gain, so predominant in the human breast in every part of the world, which is of all others best able to ride rough-shod over custom, matters will settle into their new course without any appreciable inconvenience."

The following are the principal of the jute marts in Maimansinh District. (1.) *Sadr* or Head Quarters Sub-division—Nasírábád, Sambhuganj, Bairá, Datta Bázár, and Khairád. (2.) Kisoríganj Sub-division—Karímganj, Bhairab Bázár and Katiádí. (3.) Jamálpur Sub-division—Jamálpur, Baushi Bángáli, Nalitá Bárí, and Sherpur. (4.) Atiá Sub-division—Siálkul, Subankháli, and Nagarpur.

AREA OF DISTRICT, OUT-TURN OF CROPS, &C.—A slight discrepancy exists in the various returns as to the area of the District, but the difference is probably due to recent boundary changes. The Boundary Commissioner, in a return dated July 1874, gave the area at 6318 square miles. The Census Report takes the area at 6293 square miles. The Collector of the District reported in 1871 the estimated area to be 6464 square miles, and the same

figures are given by the Board of Revenue, and also by the late Collector, Mr Reynolds, in his Report on the District in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division." Of this latter area of 4,136,960 acres or 6464 square miles, the Collector estimates that 2,279,680 acres, or 3562 square miles are actually under cultivation; 820,480 acres, or 1282 square miles uncultivated but capable of being brought under tillage; and 1,036,800 acres or 1620 square miles as under jungle and uncultivable. The proportion of cultivable to uncultivable land given above differs from that stated in the Statistics, &c., of Dacca, and in the compiled Statistics of the Board of Revenue, but the returns agree in other respects. Of the total under cultivation in 1870, 97 per cent. or 2,221,180 acres were estimated to be under rice, and the remainder to be cultivated with pulses, indigo, jute, &c. In round figures, therefore, two-thirds of the entire District are either actually under cultivation, or capable of being brought under tillage, while the remaining one-third is waste and uncultivable. The outturn of paddy per acre varies considerably. In the northern portion, land paying a rental of 1/8 rs. a *bighá*, or 9s. per acre yields an outturn of from 5 to 6 *maunds* per *bighá*, or from 11 to 13 hundredweights per acre. In the western tracts the yield is somewhat less, while in the south of the District, land paying the same rent yields about 10 *maunds* of paddy per *bighá*, or 22 hundredweights per acre. There is no land in the southern part of the District which pays a higher rent than 1/8 rs. per *bighá*, or 9s. per acre, but in the western and northern portions there is a considerable extent of valuable land which pays a rental of 3 rs. per *bighá*, or 18s. an acre, and from these highly priced fields, an outturn of unhusked rice is obtained, varying from 8 to 12 *maunds* per *bighá*, or from 17½ to 26 hundredweights per acre. The price of the paddy grown on both sorts of land is about from 12 *ánnás* to 1 r. per *maund*, or from 2s. to 2s. 8d. a hundredweight. The land paying a rental of 1/8 rs. a *bighá*, or 9s. an acre, which is principally in the northern, western, and south-western portions of the District, in addition to the outturn of rice, yields a second crop of 1½ *maunds* per *bighá*, or a little over 3 hundredweights per acre of til seed, pulses, peas, &c., the value of the former being about 8s. 2d. and the two latter 6s. 10d. a hundredweight. Land of the richer sort, which pays a rental of 3 rs. per *bighá*, or 18s. an acre, produces a second crop of the same description, but the outturn is double in quantity. Mustard seed is also grown as a second crop on both descriptions of land, and yields

an outturn of from 1 to 2 *maunds* per *bighá*, or from 2 to 4 hundredweights an acre, worth from 3 rs. to 3/12 rs. a *maund*, or from 8s. 2d. to 10s. 3d. a hundredweight. In the south and south-east parts of the District, a second crop is not generally grown. Upon the whole, a fair outturn from lands valued at 1/8 rs. a *bighá*, or 9s. an acre, would be a crop of both descriptions of the weight of about 6½ *maunds* per *bighá*, or say 14 hundredweights per acre, worth about 9 rs. per *bighá*, or £2, 14s. an acre; and from the richer lands paying 3 rs. per *bighá*, or 18s. an acre rent, a double crop of about twelve *maunds* a *bighá*, or 26 hundredweights an acre is a fair average, and is worth about 17 rs. a *bigha*, or £5, 2s. an acre. It will be seen from the above that between one-fifth and one-sixth of the total value of produce is generally paid as rent, the remainder going to the cultivator for his capital and labour. This estimate does not include jute-growing lands.

SIZE OF CULTIVATORS' HOLDINGS.—Taking a fair average for the whole District, the Collector is of opinion that a farm of 60 *bighás*, or 20 acres would be considered a large holding for a peasant. A fair sized comfortable holding is from 15 to 20 *bighás*, or 5 to 7 acres. A single pair of oxen is able to plough about 5 acres of land, or perhaps a little, but not much more. The peasantry, as a class, are not in debt. Generally speaking, the lands are held by tenants at will, but in the south-east of the District, there are many tenants who hold their lands with a Right of Occupancy under Act x. of 1859. The Collector estimates that the number of cultivators who possess occupancy rights, is about one-sixteenth of the whole agricultural community, except in the south-east where the proportion is about three-eighths. The pressure of the population on the land is still light enough to allow of the husbandman's prosperity.

THE DOMESTIC ANIMALS of Maimansinh are oxen, buffaloes, sheep, goats, horses, pigs, dogs, cats, &c. Oxen and buffaloes are the only animals used in agriculture. The animals reared for food, or as articles of trade, are sheep, goats, horses, buffaloes, oxen, pigs, fowls, pigeons, ducks, &c. The value of an average cow is reported to be about 12 rs., or £1, 4s., and that of an average pair of oxen about 30 rs., or £3. A pair of buffaloes cost from 40 to 50 rs., or £4 to £5; a score of sheep about 25 rs., or £2, 10s.; a score of kids, six months old, 20 rs., or £2; and a score of pigs from 50 to 60 rs., or £5 to £6.

THE AGRICULTURAL IMPLEMENTS are of a very rude and simple description, and consist of the following articles:—(1.) a *kodáli*, or spade for digging the earth before ploughing; (2.) *nángal*, or plough; (3.) *joál*, or yoke; (4.) *cháng*, used in levelling the ground after ploughing; (5.) *bidá*, or harrow, formed of pieces of timber or bamboo, sometimes crossing each other, and set with either iron or wooden teeth. The last is drawn over the ploughed fields to level and break the clods, to cover the seed when it is sown, and to thin the plants when they have grown a few inches. (6.) *Mugur*, a wooden mallet to break the clods; (7.) *káchí*, or sickle; (8.) *hát nángaliá*, or hoe for weeding. The cattle and implements requisite to cultivate a "plough" of land, equal to about fifteen *bighás*, or five English acres, are a pair of oxen, a plough, yoke, spade, harrow, and weeder, the total cost of which would represent a capital of about 35 rs., or £3, 10s.

WAGES AND PRICES.—The rates of wages have considerably increased of late years, and at the present day range from fifty to seventy per cent. higher than fifteen years ago. In towns the price of labour is about one-third greater than agricultural wages in the rural tracts. The rate for labourers varies according to the season of the year, and the late Collector, Mr Reynolds, in his Report, states that unskilled labour can sometimes be obtained for 5 rs., or 10s. per month; but at harvest, or when agricultural operations are active, as much as 6 rs., or 6/8 rs., or from 12s. to 13s. a month would have to be paid. If the labourers are engaged only for a month, a fortnight's pay is usually taken in advance, and a month's pay if the engagement is for a longer period. Labourers can be obtained in considerable numbers at most of the principal bázárs. Agricultural day labourers usually receive 6 rs., or 12s. a month; smiths 7 to 10 rs., or from 14s. to £1; bricklayers and carpenters 10 rs., or £1 a month. For a cart and two bullocks, with a driver, the rate of hire is about 14 *ánnás*, or 1s. 9d. a day, but it is difficult to obtain carts in large numbers. The rates for boat hire are fixed according to tonnage and number of the crew. In 1867 the usual market rates were as follow:—for a boat of 100 *maunds*, or four tons burden, 25 rs., or £2, 10s. per month; one of 500 *maunds*, or seventeen tons, 70 rs., or £7 per month; and one of 1000 *maunds*, or thirty-four tons, 135 rs., or £13, 10s. per month. In 1871 the price of grain was as follows:—best cleaned rice from 2 rs. to 2/8 rs. and 3 rs. a *maund*, or from 5s. 5d. to 6s. 10d. and 8s. 2d. a hundredweight, varying

in the different localities in which it is grown; common rice varies from 1/8 rs. to 1/12 rs. per *maund*, or 4s. 1d. to 4s. 9d. a hundredweight; best quality unhusked rice 1/8 rs. a *maund*, or 4s. 1d. a hundredweight; common ditto, from 12 *ánnás* to 14 *ánnás* a *maund*, or from 2s. to 2s. 4d. a hundredweight; shelled barley, 3 rs. a *maund*, or 8s. 2d. a hundredweight; wheat, from 4 rs. to 5 rs. a *maund*, or from 10s. 11d. to 13s. 8d. a hundredweight; Indian corn, only grown in small quantities, 4 rs. a *maund*, or 10s. 11d. a hundredweight; indigo, from 200 rs. to 300 rs. a *maund*, or £27 to £40 a hundredweight; sugar cane, 1 r. a *maund*, or 2s. 8d. a hundredweight. The price of rice in 1866 was exceptionally high, although the famine did not directly affect the District. In September 1866 the price of cleaned rice in ordinary use rose to 4/4 rs. a *maund*, or 11s. 7d. a hundredweight, which was the highest point reached during the year. The average price throughout the year was 3 rs. a *maund*, or 8s. 2d. a hundredweight. In 1867 the price of other articles of produce, as reported by Mr Reynolds in page 280 of "The History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," was as follows:—Pulses, 2/10 rs. a *maund*, or 7s. 2d. a hundredweight; wheaten flour, 6/8 rs. a *maund*, or 17s. 9d. a hundredweight; cocoa-nut oil, from 22 rs. to 24 rs. per *maund*, or from £3, to £3, 5s. 6d. a hundredweight; jute, from 2/8 rs. to 4 rs. per *maund*, or from 6s. 10d. to 10s. 11d. a hundredweight; as stated on a previous page, the price of jute in 1873 had fallen to from 1/8 rs. to 2 rs. per *maund*. Cotton (in small quantities), 25 rs. per *maund*, or £3, 8s. 3d. per hundredweight; mustard oil, 11/8 rs. a *maund*, or £1, 11s. 4d. a hundredweight; tobacco, 7/8 rs. a *maund*, or £1 per hundredweight; molasses (*gur*), 10 rs. per *maund*, or £1, 7s. 4d. per hundredweight; linseed, 3/8 rs. a *maund*, or 9s. 6d. a hundredweight; mustard seed, 3 rs. per *maund*, or 8s. 2d. a hundredweight; clarified butter, 30 rs. to 35 rs. per *maund*, or from £4, 2s. to £4, 15s. 8d. a hundredweight; gram, 2/8 rs. to 3 rs. per *maund*, or from 6s. 10d. to 8s. 2d. a hundredweight; coarse sugar, from 10 rs. to 12 rs. per *maund*, or £1, 7s. 4d. to £1, 12s. 9d. a hundredweight; betel-nuts, 8 rs. per *maund*, or £1, 1s. 10d. a hundredweight; hides, 20 rs., or £2 per score; rice liquor, used by the lower classes, 8 ánnás, or 1s. a quart. No records exist in the Collector's office showing the former prices of grain or other articles of produce, but it is known that prices have greatly risen throughout the District during the last 20 years.

WEIGHTS AND MEASURES.—The local standards and measures of weight are extremely perplexing; nearly every Fiscal Division has its

own standard, and its own method of sub-dividing the *maund* (*man*). The following statement of the different local standards and measures will illustrate this:—(1.) In the Fiscal Divisions of Maimansinh, Ráidám, Báokhand, and Sinhdhá, rice, oil, clarified butter, jute, and tobacco are sold by the *seer* (*ser*) of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, equal to 2 lbs. 2 oz. $13\frac{1}{14}$ drs. avoirdupois. Other articles are sold by the *seer* of 60 *tolás* = 1 lb. 8 oz. 11 drs. The *maund* is thus sub-divided, and taking the basis of calculation to be the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, the following are the English equivalents for the various sub-divisions:—5 *seer* = 1 *káthá* = 10 lbs. 14 oz. $1\frac{5}{14}$ drs.; 4 *káthá* = 1 *bhutá* = 43 lbs. 8 oz. $5\frac{3}{7}$ drs; 2 *bhutá* = 1 *maund* = 87 lbs. 0 oz. 10 drs.; 2 *maunds* = 1 *árhá* = 167 lbs. 1 oz. $5\frac{4}{7}$ drs. In the cases where the *seer* of 60 *tolás* is adopted, the weights of the component parts of the *maund* is proportionately less. The standard *seer* is one of 80 *tolás* equal to 2 lbs. 0 oz. $14\frac{3}{8}$ drs. avoirdupois. (2.) In Husainsháhí Fiscal Division, rice, jute, and tobacco are sold by the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás* = 2 lbs. 2 oz. $13\frac{1}{14}$ drs. Other articles are sold, some by the *seer* of 80 *tolás* = 2 lbs. 0 oz. 14_{5} drs., and some by that of 60 *tolás* = 1 lb. 8 oz. 11 drs. (3.) In Joár Husainpur Fiscal Division the standard *seer* is the same as in Husainsháhí, except that the *maund* is differently divided, as follows:—10 *seer* = 1 *árhí* = 21 lbs. 12 oz. $2\frac{4}{7}$ drs.; 2 *árhí* = 1 *káthá* = 43 lbs. 8 oz. $5\frac{3}{7}$ drs.; 2 *káthá* = 1 *maund* = 87 lbs. 0 oz. 10^{6} drs. The English equivalents are calculated on the basis of the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*. Where the smaller *seer* is used the weight of the *maund* and its different sub-divisions is proportionately less. (4.) In Kágmárí Fiscal Division pulses and mustard are sold by the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, and rice and other articles by the smaller *seer* of 60 *tolás*. The sub-divisions of the *maund* are:—$2\frac{1}{2}$ *seers* = 1 *choán*; 16 *choán* = 1 *maund*. (5.) In Jafarsháhí and Mukimábád Fiscal Divisions, grain and jute are sold by the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, and other articles by the *seer* of 60 *tolás*. The component parts of this standard are:—5 *seers* = 1 *choán*; 8 *choán* = 1 *maund*. (6.) In Ságardí Fiscal Division articles are sold in the same manner as in Jafarsháhí, but the *maund* is sub-divided in the same manner as in the Fiscal Division of Maimansinh. (7.) In Pukhariá Fiscal Division articles are sold as in Jafarsháhí, and the *maund* is thus sub-divided:—10 *seers* = 1 *dhámá*; 4 *dhámá* = 1 *maund*. (8.) In Barbáju and Tulandar Fiscal Divisions articles are sold as in Jafarsháhí, the *maund* being sub-divided as follows:—10 *seers* = 1 *káthá*; 4 *káthá* = 1 *maund*.

(9.) In Sherpur Fiscal Division grain is sold by the *seer* of 82½ *tolás* = 2 lbs. 1 oz. 15$\frac{1}{12}$ drs., and other articles by the *seer* of 60 *tolás;* the *maund* is thus sub-divided:—5 *seer* = 1 *dhárá;* 8 *dhárá* = 1 *maund.* (10.) In Susang Fiscal Division clarified butter is sold by the *seer* of 90 *tolás* = 2 lbs. 5 oz. 0$\frac{9}{12}$ drs., other articles are sold as in Maimansinh, and the component parts of the *maund* are the same as in that Fiscal Division. (11.) In Atiá Fiscal Division all articles are sold by the *seer* of 82 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, the *maund* being sub-divided as in Sherpur. (12.) In Nasírujiál clarified butter is sold by the *seer* of 90 *tolás;* rice by the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, and other articles, some by the *seer* of 80 *tolás*, and some by that of 60. The *maund* is sub-divided as in Maimansinh Fiscal Division. (13.) In Kháliájurí Fiscal Division clarified butter and oil are sold by the *seer* of 90 *tolás*, and other articles, some by the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, and some by that of 80. The sub-divisions of the *maund* are the same as in Maimansinh. (14.) In Tappá Hazrádí, rice, oil, and *ghi* are sold by the *seer* of 84 *tolás* 10 *ánnás*, and other articles by that of 60 *tolás*, The weights are as follow:—7 *seer* = 1 *káthá;* 4 *káthá* = 1 *árhí;* 4 *árhí* = 1 *árhá;* 16 *árhá* = 1 *purá.* (15.) In Juánsháhí articles are sold as in Tappá Hazrádí, but the weights are different, as follows: 4 *seer* = 1 *purá;* 4 *purá* = 1 *káthá;* 20 *káthá* = 1 *bis.* (16.) In Ranbháwál all articles are sold by the *seer* of 82 *tolás.* The measures of time are the same throughout the District, as follows:—1 *danda* = 24 minutes; 7½ *danda* = 1 *prahar* = 3 hours; 8 *prahar* = 1 day and night of 24 hours. Measures of quantity are:—4 *kauri* = 1 *gandá;* 5 *gandá* = 1 *burí;* 4 *burí* = 1 *pan;* 16 *pan* = 1 *káhan.*

LAND MEASURES.—The local land measures are as numerous and perplexing as the weights, and vary greatly in different parts of the country. (1.) In Alapsinh and Tappá Ranbháwál the local standard is the *purá*, equal to 1·034 acres. The sub-divisions of the *purá* are:—4 *kauri* = 1 *gandá*, 5 *gandá* = 1 *kathá;* 16 *kathá* = 1 *purá.* (2.) In Barbáju, Kágmárí, Atiá, and Pukhariá Fiscal Divisions, land is measured by the *khádá*, which is equal to 5 acres 1 rood, 3 poles. The minor sub-divisions of the *khádá* are as follows:—4 *kauri* = 1 *gandá*, 7½ *gandá* = 1 *páki*, 16 *páki* = 1 *khádá.* (3.) In Maimansinh, Sinhdhá, Darzibáju, Ráidám, Susang, Husainsháhí, Nasírujiál, Kháliájurí, and Báokhand Fiscal Divisions, the standard measure is as follows:—16 *káthá* = 1 *árhá*, 16 *árhá* = 1 *purá* = 25 acres 3 roods 12 poles. (4.) In Tappá Hazrádí, Kásipur, Nawábád, Bárikándí, Joár Husainpur, Tappa Kurikhái

Tulandar, Balrámpur, and Idghar Fiscal Divisions, land is measured by the *dron*, equal to 5 acres 2 roods 12 poles, English. (5.) In Niklí, Juánsháhí, and Latífpúr, the standard is the *kání*, and 16 *kání* make 1 *dron*, but the size of the *dron* is very different to that in use in Hazrádí, and is equal to 16 acres 3 roods 1 pole, English measure. (6.) In Sherpur and Ságardí, the standard land measure is the *kur*, which is thus obtained :—20 *gandá* = 1 *káṭhá*, 20 *káthá* = 1 *kúr* = 1 acre 0 rood 25 poles, English. (7.) In Jafarsháhí and Mukimábád land is measured by the *páki* and *khádá* as in Barbáju Fiscal Division, but the standard is much larger, the *khádá* being equal to 7 acres 2 roods 25 poles. Upon the subject of these perplexing diversities in the land measures, Mr Reynolds, in his Report on the District published in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division" (p. 230), states that it would be a great convenience to have the confusing and anomalous land measures swept away, and one general standard of land measurement introduced; but adds that so long as the legislation on the subject is merely permissive, it does not appear likely that the people will be prevailed upon to abandon their old usages. It may also be noticed that an era prevails in the Fiscal Division of Susang different from that in ordinary use throughout the rest of the District. The year commences with the month of Aswin (September—October) instead of with that of Baisákh (April—May), and the reckoning is a year and a half in advance of the ordinary Bengal era.

Landless Day Labourers.—There is no tendency towards the growth of a distinct class of day labourers who neither possess nor rent any land in the District, but in harvest time a class of labourers termed *krisháns* come from Dacca and Faridpur in large numbers. These men are paid in kind, and usually leave the District as soon as the harvesting is over. Women and children are employed in field work, but not largely.

Varieties of Land Tenure. The following account of the different varieties of land tenure in Maimansinh is compiled from a report drawn up by Bábu Guru Charan Chakrabartti, Sub-Deputy Collector, dated 29th August 1873, and forwarded to me by the Government of Bengal. These tenures are divided into four classes, viz., (1.) estates paying revenue direct to Government; (2.) Government estates acquired by purchase or forfeiture from the original owners; (3.) under tenures; and (4.) rent free estates or tenures.

Estates Paying Revenue Direct to Government.—(1.) At

the time of the Permanent Settlement in 1793, the number of separate *zamíndáris* in Maimansinh District, was returned at 17. These were settled in 41 shares, of which, up to August 1873, 5 had been removed to other Districts, owing to transfers and alterations of boundaries. The remaining 36 shares have since increased to 109, to which four more have been added by transfer from other Districts, making a total of 113. Generally speaking, an entire *parganá*, or an aliquot part thereof, is termed a *zamíndárí* paying revenue direct to Government. Large divisions of a *parganá* separated from it before, or at the time of the Decennial Settlement, are termed either *ioár*, *táppá*, or *taráf*. They are held independently of the main portion, forming the *zámíndárí* or parent estate. The largest *zamíndáris* are those of Alapsinh, Maimansinh, Atiá, Pukhariá, Kágmárí, Susang and Husainsháhí. (2.) Independent *táluks*. The minor portions of a *parganá*, or portions of its other sub-divisions named above, are called *táluks*. They were created by the *zamíndárs* who used to receive the rents from them prior to the Decennial Settlement. At the time of that Settlement these *táluks* were separated from the parent *zamíndáris* and formed into independent estates paying revenue direct to Government. The rights and interests of the owners of these independent *táluks* are in every way the same as those of the *zamíndárs*. The number of such *táluks* on the District roll at the time of the Decennial Settlement was 2,600. It has now (1873) increased to 5,909. Classified according to rental, these *táluks* are returned as under:—Paying a Government revenue of £100 a year and upwards, 28; paying between £10 and £100 a year, 632; paying between £5 and £10 a year, 594; paying between £1 and £5 a year, 2113; paying less than £1 a year, 2542.

GOVERNMENT ESTATES.—These estates consist of lands bought in by Government at sales for arrears of revenue, or of newly formed alluvial lands, or lands which have been escheated or resumed. In 1873 there was 37 of these estates in Maimansinh District, classified as follows:—paying £100 a year, and upwards, 1; paying between £10 and £100, a year, 15; paying between £5 and £10 a year, 8; paying between £1 and £5 a year, 9; paying less than £1 a year, 4. When estates fall into the hands of Government, the first opportunity is usually taken of disposing of the proprietary rights in them to private individuals by settlement or sale. The grantees and purchasers are placed upon the same footing as the *zamíndárs* and independent *tálukdárs*.

UNDER TENURES.—Nineteen different classes of under-tenures are met with in Maimansinh, from the dependent *táluk* held immediately under the *zamíndár* or superior landlord, down to the holding of an ordinary *rayat* or tenant at will. It seems that most of these tenures existed from the time of the Decennial Settlement, and some of them long before. The feudal system, which under the Muhammadan Government prevailed in Upper India for centuries together, also found its way to Maimansinh. Favourite or successful servants of the Nawáb frequently obtained the grant of a *zamíndárí* or a *táluk*. Again, a feudatory chief divided his estate among his friends, relatives, or retainers, who in like manner divided their lands among others. In time poverty, or the creditors of the owner of a *parganá*, or of several villages, induced him to part with one or more villages of his estate, either absolutely or conditionally. It is to these conditional transfers of the old *zamíndárís* that the *patní*, *shikmí*, *maurúsí*, *mirásh ijárá* tenures, &c. chiefly owe their origin. The different varieties of these tenures are as follow:—

(1.) *Patní táluk*. The nature of *patní táluks* is fully described in Regulation VIII. of 1819. They were first created on the estates of the Maháráját of Bardwán, and in time spread over the whole of Bengal. The marked difference between a *patní* and other *shikmí* or dependent tenures, is observable in the procedure laid down for the recovery of arrears of rent due to the superior landord. A detailed account of this tenure will be found in my Statistical Account of Bardwán, in which District the *patní* system is best exemplified.

(2.) *Dar-patní táluk*. When a *patnídár* lets his estate in part or in its entirety, he is said to have created a *dar-patní*. The *dar-patnídár* enjoys all the rights and immunities of the *patnídár*, so far as concerns the sub-tenure held from him. The *patnídár* pays rent to the *zamíndár* or *tálukdár* to whose estate the *patní* appertains. So also the *dar-patnídár* pays rent to his landlord the *patnídár*; but he is not legally liable for any rent to the *zámíndár* or *tálukdár*. The sale of the parent estate for arrears of Government revenue frees it of all its previous encumbrances in *patní* and *dar-patní*. Even a *pátnídar* is not entitled to any indemnification when he pays the Government revenue to save the parent estate from running into arrear. By a proviso in the lease a *patní* or a *dar-patní* is occasionally rendered voidable should the tenant neglect to do some specified act.

(3.) *Shikmí táluk.* The term *shikmí* or dependent *táluk* is used in contradistinction to *Khárijá* or independent *táluk* as described in the first class of tenures. It is a general name for a class of under-tenures which vary more or less in their nature or right and interest, and are held under the *zamíndár* or *tálukdár.* The conditions on which the lease is granted make the rent of the tenure either fixed or variable. In different parts of the District different names are given to *shikmí* tenures of the same class. In some places *shikmí táluks* are known by the name of *pattái* or *pattáo táluk* also.

(4.) *Istimrárí* or *mukarrarí.* An estate of the kind known as *istimrárí* or *mukarrarí* is one which has been held at a fixed rent from the time of the Permanent Settlement. The sale of the parent estate for arrears of Government revenue does not affect this sort of tenure, while the auction purchaser is entitled to make null and void all the similar tenures created subsequent to the Permanent Settlement. The prefix "*káim*" (permanent) is added to *mukarrarí* to make assurance doubly sure. Such *mukarrarí táluks* of this District are sometimes considered to be *ijahárí táluks,* by the proprietor who created them.

(5.) *Maurúsí*; an hereditary tenure held either at a fixed or progressive rate of rent, according to the conditions of the lease.

(6.) *Naganí jamá táluk* is an under-tenure held subject to a light quit rent. In every other respect it is similar to a *maurúsí táluk.* This tenure was created by the ancestors of the present Rájá of Susang, as an inducement to people to settle on their estates.

(7.) *Ijahárí táluk.* An under-tenure is called *ijahárí táluk* when the superior landlord does not chose to admit the *mukarrarí* right of the holder of the *táluk,* while on the other hand, the *tálukdár* asserts his right to hold the land at a fixed rent. Some of the *ijahárí táluks* in Maimansinh date from a period anterior to the Permanent Settlement.

(8.) *Dikhlí táluk.* This tenure is stated to be peculiar to Tappá Hazrádí and Juansháhí Fiscal Divisions. It consists in the sale of a village or a specific quantity of land of either a *khárijá* or independent, or a *shikmí* or dependent *táluk.* By such a sale the right to the land passes absolutely to the purchaser, who has to pay in addition to the purchase money, a fixed rent to the superior landlord, the vendor.

(9.) *Mistákh*; a kind of sub-under-tenure held under a *shikmí tálukdár.*

(10.) *Mirásh*; a tenure in perpetuity of land situated within certain definite boundaries, and obtained from its proprietor on payment of a sum of money down (*salámí*), and with a further engagement to pay a fixed rate of rent to the lessor.

(11.) *Maurúsí ijárá* is an estate farmed in perpetuity and heritable. It is a dependent *táluk* in all respects except in name.

(12.) *Ijárá.* An *ijárá* generally consists of an entire estate, or one or more villages of an estate, farmed out for a term of years. Sometimes market and bázárs are also let in farm. Hardly any of the Maimansinh rich landholders manage their own property, and such lands as are not granted away in under tenures, are almost universally let in farm. The leases are short, seldom exceeding five years. This practice of granting farming leases for short terms, is a great source of litigation, and one of the causes of the comparative backwardness of the District. The farmer has no object in making improvements, and in general he has no capital to do so. His aim is simply to make the most he can out of the farm during the period of his lease.

(13.) *Dáisudhí ijárá.* When a man borrows money, and for the repayment of the debt, lets his land in farm to the lender for a definite period or until the debt contracted is liquidated in full, the lease is called a *dáisudhí ijárá.*

(14.) *Dar-ijárá.* A farmer or *ijárádár* of an estate can also sublet his farm for the period of his lease, the transaction being known by the name of *dar-ijárá.*

(15.) *Katkabálá.* The tenure known by this name consists in the mortgage of an estate by its owner for the repayment of a debt. When possession of the property is given to the mortgagee, with stipulation that he shall enjoy the whole profit in lieu of interest until payment of the principal, it becomes an usufructuary mortgage. Notwithstanding the expressed stipulation as regards the application of the profit to interest only, any sum realized from the usufruct beyond legal interest is deducted from the principal. When possession of the mortgaged property is retained by the mortgagor it amounts to a conditional sale, which is to be absolute or not, as the mortgagor fails to repay or does repay the debt contracted under the mortgage.

(16.) *Chak.* A sort of under-tenure of the *shikmí táluk* class, granted either in perpetuity at a fixed rental, or for a limited period.

(17.) *Jot* is a *rayatí* or cultivating tenure. An ordinary *jot* consists of a few parcels of cultivated land with homestead for the tenant to live in. The tenant is in general the actual cultivator of the land, but in some of the larger *jots* the holder sublets the land.

(18.) *Nij jot* or *Khámár.* In many cases, the *zamíndárs* or superior landholders retain a portion of their estates in their own cultivation as home farms. These lands are called *Nij jot* or *Khámár.*

(19.) *Bargá.* In this tenure, the occupant of the land, generally a *jotdár* or petty *tálukdár* makes over the land to another person on condition of receiving one-half of the crop at harvest-time.

RENT FREE ESTATES.—The District records show that 139 valid *lákhiráj* or revenue free estates exist in the District. Besides these there are numerous other rent-free tenures, which have been granted by the landholders either for the worship of the gods, maintenance of religious persons, or in return for services rendered.

VILLAGE OFFICIALS.—The village officials of the old village communities, have died out in Maimansinh District, except in name. The present village officers are simply the servants of the landholders. They are designated *náib*, *gumáshtá*, *tahsíldár*, *karmachárí*, *patwárí*, *mandal*, *páik*, and *dakrá*, each performing his respective duty; but nowhere in the District do the independent officials of the old village communities appear to be at work, though in many places the ancient names have been retained. The *náib* is the representative or manager of the proprietor of an estate, and the collection of the rents is carried on by other subordinate officials under his supervision.

RATES OF RENT.—The following table showing the prevailing rates of rent paid by cultivators for land growing ordinary crops, is taken from a report by the Collector to the Bengal Government, dated 15th August 1872.

Arable land in Maimansinh District may be roughly divided into (*a*) ordinary village lands, and (*b*) *char* or alluvial lands, and islands formed by the rivers. The difference between the rates for ordinary village lands and for *char*, as indicated in the table, arises from a combination of several causes. It is partly the result of a difference in the soil, the *char* lands being more sandy and containing a less proportion of loam; but it arises also from the fact that *char* lands are for the most part less favourably situated with regard to markets and means of communication; and I have no

doubt that we should also take into account a sense of insecurity as regards the action of the river on *char* lands, which has an effect upon the rental, even in cases in which practically there is little or no danger of diluvion.

PREVAILING RATES OF RENT FOR LAND IN MAIMANSINH DISTRICT.

DESCRIPTION OF LAND.	Maimansinh and Jamálpur Sub-divisions.		Kisoriganj Sub-division.		Atiá Sub-division.	
	Per standard *bighá*.	Per English acre.	Per standard *bighá*.	Per English acre.	Per standard *bighá*.	Per English acre.
	RS. A. RS. A	S. D. S. D.	RS. A. RS. A.	S. D. S. D.	RS. A. RS. A.	S. D. S. D.
1. High land for early or *aus* rice, producing also a cold weather crop of mustard seed or pulses.	0 12 to 1 4	4 6 to 7 6	0 5½ to 0 12	2 0 to 4 6	0 12 to 1 8	4 6 to 9 0
2. *Char* land of the same description as the above.	0 9 to 1 2	3 4½ to 6 9	0 5 to 0 9½	1 10½ to 3 6	0 8 to 1 2	3 0 to 6 9
3. High land producing early rice, but no second crop.	0 6 to 0 10	2 3 to 3 9	0 4 to 0 7½	1 6 to 2 9	0 8 to 1 0	3 0 to 6 0
4. Low lands for late or *áman* rice,	0 10 to 1 2	3 9 to 6 9	0 7 to 0 13½	2 7½ to 5 0	0 12 to 1 8	4 6 to 9 0
5. *Char* lands for *áman* rice,	0 7 to 0 14	2 7½ to 5 3	0 4 to 0 8	1 6 to 3 0	0 7 to 0 14	2 7½ to 5 3
6. High lands producing only a cold weather crop of pulses or oilseed.	0 3 to 0 9	1 1½ to 3 4½	0 3 to 0 7	1 1½ to 2 7½	0 4 to 0 12	1 6 to 4 6
7. *Char* land of the same description as the above.	0 2 to 0 6	0 9 to 2 3	0 2 to 0 6	0 9 to 2 3	0 2 to 0 6	0 9 to 2 3
8. Village lands for jute,	0 10 to 1 2	3 9 to 6 9	0 7 to 0 13½	2 7½ to 5 0	0 12 to 1 8	4 6 to 9 0
9. *Char* lands for jute,	0 7 to 0 14	2 7½ to 5 3	0 4 to 0 8	1 6 to 3 0	0 7 to 0 14	2 7½ to 5 3
10. Sugar-cane land,	1 12 to 3 8	10 6 to 21 0	1 8 to 3 0	9 0 to 18 0	1 12 to 3 8	10 6 to 21 0
11. Village lands for thatching grass,	0 10 to 1 2	3 9 to 6 9	0 5 to 0 8	1 10½ to 3 0	0 10 to 1 2	3 9 to 6 9
12. *Char* lands for thatching grass,	0 7 to 0 14	2 7½ to 5 3	0 3 to 0 6	1 1½ to 2 3	0 7 to 0 14	2 7½ to 5 3
13. Ordinary lands for vegetable gardens,	0 12 to 1 8	4 6 to 9 0	0 8 to 1 4	3 0 to 7 6	0 12 to 1 8	4 6 to 9 0
14. *Char* lands for vegetable gardens,	0 9 to 1 2	3 4½ to 6 9	0 5 to 0 10	1 10½ to 3 9	0 9 to 1 2	3 4½ to 6 9
15. *Pán* gardens,	3 8 to 5 8	21 0 to 33 0	2 4 to 4 0	13 6 to 24 0	3 0 to 5 0	18 0 to 30 0

The Collector, in forwarding the Report, states his belief that these figures in the foregoing table represent as accurately as possible the rates actually paid for arable land in Maimansinh District. They show an increase of from 30 to 50 per cent. on the rates which were common for the same qualities of land prior to the introduction of Act X. of 1859. I have already exhibited the diversities in the local mensuration (p. 446); and as an illustration of the difficulties involved, the Collector in his District Report, published in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," dwells on the inconvenience of the local land measures in estimating the average rates of rent paid for the several qualities of land in different parts of the District. In order to make the comparison, the local measures must be reduced to a uniform standard, and even when this is done, the difficulties in arriving at the truth are very great. The following extract on the subject, taken from Mr Reynold's, the Collector, Report, will illustrate this:—"I am aware that there is a widely-diffused notion that there exist what are called "*parganá* rates," according to which the rental of land is regulated by its situation within this or that fiscal division,

entirely irrespective of the qualities of the land itself. If this theory were a true one, the inquiry would be greatly simplified; for it would be only necessary to ascertain the customary rates of each fiscal division, and on such a question common fame might properly be followed. My own experience, however, has led me to the conclusion that (at least in those Districts of Eastern Bengal with which I am acquainted) these "*parganá* rates" have no existence whatever. I do not of course mean that the rates of rent are not different in different fiscal divisions; but the difference, in my belief, depends altogether upon the quality of the soil and other natural advantages. When lands of similar quality, lying close to the common boundary of two fiscal divisions, are compared together, it will be found that they are assessed at the same average rates. This will often be disguised in Maimansinh by the difference of the local standards; the rate on one side of the boundary may be 5 rs. or 10s. per *puŕá*, and on the other side 2 rs. or 4s. per *káni*, and yet there may be no real difference between the two. Of course, the comparative fertility of soil is not the only element in determining the rate of assessment, though it is the principal one. All natural advantages are to be taken into account; vicinity of roads and other means of communication, healthiness of situation, good water, good markets for produce, &c. I believe that different rates depend entirely on the comparative possession of these and other similar advantages, and that they are not in any way determined by the fact of lands nominally belonging to this or that fiscal division. I should therefore think it an absurdity to say that the rate of homestead lands is so much in Alapsinh and so much in Kágmárí. Lands with the same advantages will bear the same rental in each fiscal division; and to bring the name of the fiscal division into the question at all, seems to me to involve an element of error and confusion, as it implies that all the homestead lands in the same fiscal division possess the same advantages, which is notoriously contrary to the fact. . . . I may add, that I greatly doubt whether it would be possible, even with the most careful enquiries, to ascertain accurately the average rental of land. All the statistics I have ever seen on the subject have omitted to notice one important element of variation—I mean the different tastes and characters of landlords. On one landholder's estate the rents may be nominally high; but it is well known that the area entered in the *zamíndárí* papers is much below the truth, and the cultivator is willing to pay a high rent for 50 *bighás*, as he knows that he will really get 70 *bighás* for his money. The neighbouring landholder

follows a totally different plan. He has his lands accurately measured, and lets them at a low rate. It is clear that any comparison between the average rates of assessment on these two estates would be fallacious; and if the estates were otherwise of similar quality, but situated in different fiscal divisions, they would probably be pointed to as a striking confirmation of the theory of "*parganá* rates." The delusion might last till the first landholder died, and his successor had a new measurement of the lands made, when it would be found that the rents would speedily fall to the level of those in the neighbouring estate. . . . In some parts of the District, as Juánsháhí, it is not the practice to reckon house land according to the area, but at a contract rate in each separate instance. There is no reason, however, for thinking that the result is materially different from what it would be on the more usual system of calculating by the area of the land. The two extremes of the District, as regards fertility of soil and other natural advantages, are Juánsháhí and the northern part of Alapsinh, the former being the least and the latter the most favoured locality. Next to Alapsinh, the lands of Jafarsháhí, and of some parts of Pukhariá, are the most valuable. A custom exists in some places of imposing a double rate upon lands which produce two crops in the year. Not only is this done, but the tenant is entered in the *zamíndárí* accounts as holding twice the area of land which is actually in his possession, the land being reckoned twice over, and a separate rental assessed for each of the two annual crops. This is locally known by the name of *rangwárí jamá*. The only instances of this which I have met with, have been in Husainsháhí fiscal division; but the practice may prevail in other parts of the District also. It is proper to add, that in the cases which have come to my knowledge, the double rental was merely sufficient to raise the assessment to the amount of rent paid elsewhere for similar descriptions of land."

ENHANCEMENT OF RENTS.—Although a considerable enhancement in the rates of rent throughout the District has taken place of late years, the Collector states that in his opinion it would be wrong to attribute it to the working of the Land Law (Act X. of 1859) alone. The general rise in the prices of nearly all articles of consumption has of itself contributed to the increase in the rates of rent. The provisions of Act X. have exercised an important influence in giving the cultivators a defined status only changeable by course of law.

MANURE, IRRIGATION, &c.—Cow-dung manure is used; from 22 to 26 hundredweights being required for an acre of rice and sugar-cane land in the west and south-west of the District; in other parts a smaller

quantity of manure is considered enough. The cost of manuring an acre of rice and sugar-cane land is estimated at about 4s. a year. Irrigation is only used in the cultivation of *boro* rice, for which purpose artificial canals are cut from natural watercourses on to the fields. The Collector estimates the cost at from 4 rs. to 5 rs. per *bighá*, or from £1, 4s. to £1, 10s. per acre per annum. Compared with other District returns, this seems high. Land is rarely left fallow; but occasionally, after a crop has been raised for three or four consecutive years from some poor land, the field is allowed a little rest to recruit itself.

NATURAL CALAMITIES.—Maimansinh suffers occasionally from the ravages of insects, but the damage caused by the blight to the crop is never of serious extent. Floods occur now and then, at intervals of several years, but the damage caused by them is usually slight and transient; and the Collector states that there is no demand for embankments, or other protective works against inundation. The floods, when they do occur, are caused by the rising of the rivers before they enter the District, and not by excessive rainfall within it. Drought sufficient to affect the general prosperity of the District has never occurred within the memory of the present generation. The collector is of opinion, that in some isolated parts of the District irrigation works on a small scale would be beneficial, but that, as a whole, Maimansinh has many natural advantages which render artificial works, such as canals, unnecessary as a protection against drought. In the southern part of the District, there are some elevated and some low-lying tracts which exert compensating influences in the case either of droughts or floods—that is to say, in years of floods the higher levels would have an increased fertility, on the other hand, in seasons of drought, the low marshy lands would in some measure tend to compensate for the loss of crops in the uplands. However, as anything like a general destruction of crops has not occurred within the memory of the present generation, the margin of loss from either of these causes which would need to be supplemented, has not been such as to attract particular attention.

FAMINES.—During the famine of 1866-67 the price of unhusked rice rose as high as 2 rs. per *maund*, or 5s. 5d. a hundredweight, and cleaned rice to 4/4 rs. a *maund*, or 11s. 7d. a hundredweight. Prices of grain have since been greatly reduced from what they were during the famine, but have not returned to what used to be considered their ordinary rates before the famine. The Collector reports that the famine-point would be reached in Maimansinh when paddy or unhusked

rice sold at 4 rs. a *maund*, or 10s. 11d. a hundredweight, and rice at 8 rs. a *maund*, or £1, 1s. 10d. a hundredweight. These, however, seem to me, from the estimates supplied by neighbouring Districts, to represent a degree of scarcity which would have passed the famine point. But in some parts of this District, and particularly towards the south, the people are in the habit of laying up a stock of rice to guard against the contingency of high prices and the failure of the particular harvest. Till this reserve store is exhausted, prices would not reach the above rates. When they did touch those rates the private stock might be held to have been exhausted, and immediate famine would be impending. The principal crop on which the District depends is the *áman* harvest; and although the *áus* is also an important crop, it could not make up for an almost total loss of the first, so as to enable the people to live through the year without actual famine. If the price of paddy were as high as 1/8 rs. a *maund*, or 4s. 1d. a hundredweight, and rice 3 rs. a *maund*, or 8s. 2d. a hundredweight, in January or February, after the gathering in of the winter harvest, the Collector would consider these rates to be a warning of the approach of famine later in the year. At present, the means of communication at the disposal of the District in the cold weather are not sufficient to avert the extremity of famine by importation from other parts of the country; but in the rains the water communication would be sufficient to make up in a large degree for the deficiency of the local crops.

Foreign and Absentee Landlords.—In 1871 there were three European landholders on the rent-roll of the District, besides nine Armenians and Eurasians. The number of Musalmán proprietors is 1171, who pay a total land revenue to Government of £8,760. From about one-eighth to one-sixth of the whole District is owned by absentee landlords.

Roads and Means of Communication.—There are three main lines of roads in Maimansinh, one leading from the head-quarters town of Nasírábád to Tok, on the boundary of Dacca District; a second to the sub-divisional town of Jamálpur in the west; and a third to the town of Subankhálí, in Pukhariá Fiscal Division, also in the west of the District. The first is forty miles in length, and is bridged throughout. The second is thirty-two miles in length, and is intersected by the Banar and Satara rivers, which are unbridged. In the cold and dry seasons these streams are of little depth, and are easily forded; in the rains they are crossed by means of ferries. The only bridge of any magnitude along this road is a wooden bridge at Ashtodhar over the Srísháli river. The third road, that to Suban-

khálí, is forty-four miles in length, and is also intersected by the Banar and Satara rivers, which are unbridged. There is a masonry bridge on this road over the Gujá river at Madhupur, and several wooden bridges. These three lines of road are all unmetalled, but they are in fair order, and passable by wheeled carriages throughout the year. Besides these roads, there is one from Jamálpur to Karaíbárí, in the north-west of the District, thirty miles long, and in fair repair; also a road from Jamálpur to Sherpur, nine miles in length; and one from Jamálpur to Pingná, thirty-two miles in length; all which are only practicable for horse or foot passengers. There are also roads, or rather tracks, from the Brahmaputra to Karímganj, a distance of twenty-five miles; from Sherpur to Piárpur, and from Agarusindur to Bájitpur, sixteen and thirty miles in length respectively. None of these are suited for wheeled traffic. The only other road is a tolerably good one from the town of Nasírábád to Gaurípur; but this is only practicable in the rains for passengers on foot or horseback. On the whole, there are about 146 miles of good roads, and 124 miles of inferior roads or tracks, in the District. None of these are under the supervision of the Public Works Department, but are under the management of the local officers, and maintained by grants from the Amalgamated District Road Fund. During the year 1871 the sum of £1000 was allowed for their maintenance, &c. This the Collector considers to be a very inadequate sum. No large markets have lately sprung up along the lines of road. There are no railways or canals in the District, but a few years ago a proposal was made for opening a canal from Rám Gopálpur to the Brahmaputra river, the landholders of Maimansinh Fiscal Division offering to defray one-half of the cost of the work. It was found, however, that the advantages of this canal would be but questionable, as a sufficient supply of water could not be commanded to maintain it in a navigable condition throughout the year.

MANUFACTURES.—Maimansinh District is not now the seat of any manufacturing industry on a large scale. In former times the muslins of Kisoríganj and Bájitpur were of considerable note, and the East India Company had factories at both these places. The Kisoríganj factory is now the warehouse of a cloth merchant, and a Police Station stands on the site of that at Bájitpur. Muslin, however, is still manufactured in this quarter of the District, though not to any great extent. The fine *sitalpáti* mats are largely manufactured in the eastern and south-eastern tracts, where the marshes furnish an abundant supply of reeds for the purpose. Mustard oil and coarse

sugar is manufactured throughout the District for local consumption. Indigo is manufactured on the estates of Mr Wise and Mr Dunne for the Calcutta market. The description of cheese known as Dacca cheese—and clarified butter are also largely manufactured in the low-lying portions of Juánsháhí and Nasírujiál Fiscal Divisions, where there are considerable tracts of rich pasture for cattle. Charcoal burning is carried on at Barmí on the borders of Dacca, and also at Gábtalí on the outskirts of the Madhupur Forest. Brass and copper culinary and other utensils are manufactured in several parts of the District, both for local use and for export to the large mart at Sirájganj in Pabná and other places. The women of the poorer classes weave a sort of coarse silk cloth, from the produce of silk-worms which they rear themselves; the worms are fed on the leaves of the *bherandá* tree (Argemone Mexicana). On the whole, the social condition of the manufacturing classes is good. With the exception of indigo manufacture, there is no well-marked distinction between capital and labour. All other articles are manufactured by the people on their own account, and in their own houses. No system of advancing money for manufacturing purposes prevails in the District.

The following table shows the number of skilled workmen, mechanics and artizans, under their respective trades, making a total of 32,973 men, or 4·53 per cent. of the total male adult population.

MANUFACTURING CLASS AND ARTIZANS OF MAIMANSINH DISTRICT, 1872.

	Male Adults.		Male Adults.
Bricklayers (*Rájmistrís*),	792	Brought forward, .	16,208
Stone masons, . .	51	Basket-makers, . .	58
Brick-makers, . .	22	Toy makers, . .	146
Sawyers, . . .	154	Bead makers, . .	58
Carpenters, . .	5454	Workers in lacquered ware,	14
Thatchers, . . .	80	Shell carvers, . .	92
Well diggers, . .	17	Cane workers, . .	3
Boat builders, . .	30	Cotton spinners, . .	27
Blacksmiths, . .	1769	Silk weavers, . .	8
Coppersmiths, . .	32	Cotton weavers, . .	14,505
Braziers, . . .	65	Jute weavers, . .	105
Workers in bell-metal,	98	Tailors, . . .	897
Kalaigars, . . .	18	Shoe makers, . .	613
Goldsmiths, . .	2289	Gunnybag makers, .	144
Potters, . . .	4350	Net makers, . .	18
Glass makers, . .	9	Jute spinners, . .	13
Mat makers, . .	802	Bookbinders (*daftrís*),	12
Cabinet-makers, . . .	176	Paper makers, . .	52
Carried over, .	16,208	Total, . . .	32,973

COMMERCE AND TRADE.—The chief articles of import are cotton, betel-nuts, and chilies from Tipperah; cattle from Western Bengal; cocoa-nuts from the southern Districts; and refined sugar, piece goods, wheat, &c., chiefly from Calcutta *via* Náráinganj. The principal exports are rice, jute, indigo, reed mats, hides, brass and copper utensils, cheese, clarified butter, &c. Tobacco and muslins are also exported to a small extent. The following is a list of the more important commercial and trading markets:—(1.) Nasírábád, the chief town and civil station of the District. (2.) Dhápuniá, a large mart for grain. (3.) Sambhuganj, where all descriptions of commodities are bought and sold. (4.) Jamálpur, town. (5.) Sherpur, a large village but now somewhat decayed in importance. (6.) Nalitábárí, the most important mart in the northern part of the District. (7.) Subankhálí, the principal seat of trade in the west of the District. (8.) Husainpur, a large and well-supplied bázár. (9.) Ulákándí or Bhairab Bázár, situated on the Brahmaputra near its junction with the Meghná, the largest and most important mart in the District. (10.) Karímganj, a large bázár. (11.) Katiádí, a large commercial mart, but of less importance than formerly. (12.) Káliácháprá, a market principally for grain. (13.) Kisorganj, the head-quarters of the sub-division of the same name, and a tolerably large market. The District trade is chiefly carried on by means of permanent markets, but also partly by means of fairs. The principal of these is the *Jhulan* fair, held in celebration of the birth of Krishna, at Kisorganj in the month of August, which is frequented by traders from Dacca, Tipperah and Silhet as well as by merchants of the District, at which a considerable traffic is carried on in cloth, piece-goods, hardware, spices, shoes, and miscellaneous articles. The next in importance is the *Dol* or swinging festival held at Husainpur in March; it is not now so largely attended. Fairs are also held at Sherpur and Gobindganj in March and October, and also in Jamálpur, but these are not of much importance, and attract few, if any merchants or traders from other Districts. The Collector is of opinion that, upon the whole, the exports exceed the imports, leaving a yearly balance in favour of the District.

CAPITAL.—No rule of general application prevails regarding the manner in which accumulations of money by the people are employed. The cloth merchants employ their profits as capital in their business, while the grain merchants lend out a considerable portion of theirs at interest. The landed classes in the District as a rule have very little profit to dispose of, and the Collector states that, with the ex-

ception of the Rájá of Susang, he does not know of any proprietor who expends money on the improvement of his land. The usual rate of interest in small transactions when the borrower pawns some article equal in value to the sum borrowed, is twenty-four per cent. per annum; in large transactions when a mortgage is given upon moveable property, the rate is eighteen per cent., and in the same class of transactions with a mortgage upon houses or lands, the rate is twelve per cent. per annum. Petty agricultural advances to the cultivators on personal security are rarely made; but when they are, interest is charged at the rate of twenty-five per cent. per annum, payable in kind. Cases of advances made to the peasants, and secured by a lien upon the crops, are reported as unknown in Maimansinh. Landed estates sell for sums varying from twenty-five to forty years' purchase, but as a rule, thirty years' purchase is looked upon as a high price. There are no large banking establishments in the District, and loans are usually conducted by village shopkeepers, who combine rice-dealing with usury.

The total of the incomes in Maimansinh District over £50 per annum is about £450,000, according to the proceedings under the Income Tax Act of 1870-71. The net amount of income-tax realized in that year with a tax at 3⅛ per cent., was £13,293, 10s. In the following year, 1871-72, with the tax at the rate of 1½¾ per cent. levied on the incomes above £75 per annum, the net income-tax realized amounted to £3,929.

ADMINISTRATIVE.— REVENUE AND EXPENDITURE.— Both the revenue and expenditure of the District have steadily increased since the administration passed into British hands. In 1795, the first year for which records exist, the total revenue of Maimansinh District, after making all deductions for transfers and inefficient balances, amounted to £77,160, and the net expenditure on civil administration to £12,028. In 1821-22, the net revenue had increased to £92,908, and the net civil expenditure to £14,521. In 1860-61, or two years after the country passed from the hands of the East India Company into those of the Crown, the total net revenue of Maimansinh amounted to £132,051, and the net civil expenditure to £24,460. In 1870-71, after about twelve years' administration by the Crown, the net revenue had increased to £161,617, and the civil expenditure to no less than £49,574. Between 1795 and 1870, therefore, the net revenue of Maimansinh District increased by 109 per cent., or more than doubled itself; while the civil expenditure has more than quadrupled itself in the same period.

The following balance sheets show the details of revenue and expenditure for the years 1795-96, 1821-22, 1860-61, and 1870-71, respectively. The figures given in the tables for the earlier years must not be taken as absolutely correct, but as only the best I can get. Under the more exact administration which has prevailed of late years, the Statement for 1870-71 may be accepted as accurate. I quote the figures as furnished to me by the Collector, with the exception of those for education, police, jails, post office, and income-tax, which have been taken from the several Departmental Reports:—

No separate return is given of police expenditure in either of the tables 1821-22 or 1860-61. At these periods such Police as existed was under the control of the Magistrate of the District, and the expenditure is probably included under the *diwání*, or criminal charges. I have deducted from the receipt side of these two tables, small amounts under the heading of Civil and Annuity Funds, aggregating £400. This is not a source of revenue, but merely money held in deposit to provide for future annuities and pensions.

BALANCE SHEET OF MAIMANSINH DISTRICT FOR 1795-96.

REVENUE.	£	s.	d.	EXPENDITURE.	£	s.	d.
Land Revenue .	71,999	1	6	*Diwání* charges .	6,186	6	10
Proceeds from sale of Govt. property .	1,050	0	0	Revenue charges .	5,422	16	10
Profit and Loss .	267	7	5	Profit and Loss .	15	9	4
Police . . .	1,132	10	1	Police . . .	94	10	2
Excise . . .	60	1	3	Donations . .	8	13	1
Dacca Mint . .	2,650	7	4	Interest on loan .	248	5	6
				Post Office . .	52	11	6
Total £	77,159	7	7	Total £	12,028	13	3

BALANCE SHEET OF MAIMANSINH DISTRICT FOR 1821-22.

REVENUE.				EXPENDITURE.			
Land Revenue, .	£78,416	14	1	*Diwání* charges,	£6,931	0	0
Nawárá (fleet fund),	283	19	10	Revenue charges,	6,272	4	1
Stamps, . .	4,614	9	9	Stamps, . .	1,235	4	1
Post office, . .	211	12	4	Post Office, .	60	0	0
Police, . . .	619	14	4	Donations, . .	22	19	9
Remittance from the Judge,	939	11	5				
Revenue charges general,	110	19	6				
Excise, . . .	5,131	7	2				
Profit and Loss, . .	2,579	17	5				
Total,	£92,908	5	10	Total.	£14,5217	11	

BALANCE SHEE

REVENU	
Land Revenue,	
Excise,	
Stamps,	
Police,	
Judicial receipts,	
Criminal, ,,	
Revenue, ,,	
Law,	
Post Office,	
Schooling fees and Subscriptions,	
Record fees,	
Local funds,	
Municipal Fund,	
Income Tax,	
Opium,	
Profit and Loss,	
Total,	

BALANCE SHE

REVENU	
Land Revenue, (collections),	
Excise,	
Fines, Judicial and Revenue,	
Police,	
Registration,	
Income Tax,	
Local Fund,	
Education, schooling fees, &c.,	
Jail Manufacturers,	
Post Office,	
Stamps,	
Civil Court *amins* fees,	
Pèon's fees,	
Sale of proprietary right in Government estates,	
Khas Mahal Tahsildars,	
Sale proceeds of unclaimed property,	
Law suits,	
Forfeiture of recognisances,	
Miscellaneous,	
Total,	

* Exclusive of Mur
(£20,228, 8s.), defrayed

THE LAND TAX.—While the general revenue of the District has increased by 109 per cent., or more than doubled itself, between 1795-96 and 1870-71, the Government land-tax has remained almost stationary, the "current demand" having increased from £80,605, 6s. to £84,593, 12s., or by only 4·95 per cent. within the same period. Maimansinh is not a District of very small estates, nor has sub-infeudation increased to any great extent, as is the case in the neighbouring District of Silhet just transferred to the newly created Province of Assam. The number of registered proprietors and coparceners in each estate in Maimansinh is still almost the same as it was at the close of the last century; in 1795-96 the number of registered proprietors to each estate was 1·03, in 1870-71 it had only increased to 1·16. In 1795-96 there were altogether 4178 estates on the rent-roll of the District, paying revenue direct to Government. These 4178 estates were held by 4308 registered proprietors or coparceners, paying a total land-revenue to Government of £80,605, 6s., equal to an average payment of £19, 5s. 10d. from each estate, or £18, 14s. 2d. by each individual proprietor or coparcener. The amount of land-revenue here given—viz., £80,605, 6s.—is probably the total land-revenue demand. As will be seen in the table showing the balance-sheet of the District for 1795-96 on page 97, the total amount of land-revenue actually collected in that year amounted to only £71,999, 1s. 6d. In 1803-4, the total number of estates on the rent-roll of the District amounted to 4180, held by 4601 individual proprietors or co-parceners, subject to a Government land revenue demand of £80,800, 12s., equal to an average payment of £19, 6s. 7d. from each estate, or £17, 11s. 3d. from each individual proprietor or coparcener. In 1850-51, 5531 estates, owned by 6425 individuals, were held subject to the payment of a Government demand of £82,242, 16s., equal to an average payment of £14, 17s. 4d. from each estate, or £12, 16s. by each individual proprietor or coparcener. In 1870-71, the number of estates on the District Register had increased to 6298, and the number of individual proprietors or coparceners to 7354; in this year the "current demand" of land revenue amounted to £84,593, 12s., equal to an average payment of £13, 8s. 7d. from each estate, or £11, 10s. from each individual proprietor or co-parcener. The total "collections" amounted to £84,282, 12s.

THE AMOUNT OF PROTECTION afforded to person and property has steadily increased of late years. In 1793, there were but two magisterial and two Civil and Revenue Courts in the whole District. In

1800 there were three Magisterial and two Civil and Revenue Courts. In 1860-61 there were ten Magisterial and thirteen Civil and Revenue Courts; and in 1870-71 ten Magisterial and fourteen Civil and Revenue Courts. In 1793, there were three covenanted European officers at work in the District throughout the year; in 1800 and 1850, four; and in 1860 and 1870-71, five. These five officers are the Magistrate and Collector; the Civil and Sessions Judge, the Joint Magistrate and Deputy Collector, and two Assistant Magistrates and Collectors.

WORKING OF THE LAND LAW.—The number of rent cases instituted in different years, under the provisions of Act X. of 1859, is as follows:—In 1861-62, 3291 original suits were instituted, besides 757 miscellaneous applications; in 1862-63, there were 3363 original suits and 3062 miscellaneous applications; in 1866-67, 2369 original suits and 2522 miscellaneous applications; and in 1868-69, 2253 original suits and 2170 miscellaneous applications.

POLICE.—In this, as in every other branch of the administration, considerable improvement has taken place of late years, and there is now a well-organised force for the detection and punishment of crime. In 1793, the cost of officering the police, from the rank of Head Constable (*jamádár*) upwards, was only £66, 8s.; in 1840, £102, 12s.; and in 1860, £136, 10s. The present system of regular District Police was introduced in 1861, and in the following year consisted of 20 native officers and 192 footmen, besides the old village police or *chaukidárs*. For police purposes, the District is now divided into fifteen police circles or *thánás*, as follow:—In the *Sadr* or headquarters' subdivision—(1) Maimansinh, (2) Mádárganj, (3) Ghafargáon, (4) Netrakoná, (5) Durgápur, and (6) Phulpur. In Jamálpur subdivision—(7) Jamálpur, (8) Sherpur, and (9) Díwánganj. In Atiá subdivision—(10) Atiá, (11) Pingná, and (12) Madhupur. In Kisoríganj subdivision—(13) Kisoríganj, (14) Niklí, and (15) Bájitpur. The District Police Force consists of three bodies—the regular police, a small body of municipal police for the protection of the towns and larger villages, and the village watch or rural police.

REGULAR POLICE.—At the end of the year 1871, the Regular District Police was composed as follows:—3 European superior officers, consisting of a District Superintendent and 2 Assistant Superintendents, receiving a total salary of £1620 per annum; 79 subordinate officers, maintained at a total cost of £3894, or an average pay of £49, 5s. 10d. each; and 411 native foot constables,

maintained at a total cost of £3232, 16s., equal to an average annual pay of £7, 17s. 4d. a year for each man. Total Regular Police Force of all ranks, 493. Besides the actual cost of maintaining the officers and men, a sum of £180 a year is allowed as travelling expenses for the superior European officers; £212 for pay and travelling allowances of their office establishment; and £914, 16s. for contingencies and all other expenses, making up the total cost of the Regular Police at £10,053, 12s. The Census of 1872 returns the area of Maimansinh District at 6293 square miles, and the population at 2,349,917 souls. According to this basis of calculation, there is one regular policeman to every 12·76 square miles of the District area, or one to every 4766 of the population; maintained at an average cost of £1, 11s. 11¼d. per square mile, or a fraction over a penny per head of the population.

THE MUNICIPAL POLICE is a small body consisting of 6 officers and 83 men, stationed in the municipalities of Maimansinh or Nasírábád, Jamálpur, Kisorganj, and Sherpur; and maintained in 1871 at a total cost of £655, 16s., defrayed by means of rates levied on the shopkeepers and house-owners. The population of these four towns, according to the Census, is 46,032. According to these figures, there is one municipal policeman to every 517 of the town population; the cost of maintenance being 3⅜d. per head of the total town population.

THE VILLAGE WATCH, OR RURAL POLICE, is a force which in 1871 consisted of 5619 men, maintained at a total cost of £20,228, 8s., borne by the villagers, the average pay of each man being £3, 12s. a year. According to the Census returns of area and population, there is one village watchman to every 1·12 square miles of District area, or one to every 418 of the population. Each village watchman has on an average 54 houses under his charge.

Including, therefore, the Regular Force, the Municipal Police, and the Village Watch, the machinery for protecting person and property in Maimansinh District consisted in 1871 of a total force of 6201 men of all ranks, maintained at a total cost of £30,937, 16s. Compared with the area and population, this gives one police officer to every 1·01 square miles, or one to every 379 of the population. The total cost amounted to £4, 18s. 4d. per square mile of area, or a fraction over 3½d. per head of the population.

POLICE WORK.—In 1871, the police conducted 1082 "cognisable" cases in which the percentage of final convictions to men brought to

trial was 51·8; and 1743 "non-cognisable" cases, in which the percentage of final convictions to men brought to trial was 48·7. Total of "cognisable" and "non-cognisable" cases, 2825; proportion of final convictions to men brought to trial, 49·7 per cent. General crime has much decreased of late years, but in 1871 the police do not seem to have had much success in dealing with serious offences. The number of acquittals was high; out of 119 cases, in 63 or 53 per cent., the prisoners were acquitted. Six murder cases occurred in 1871 against 14 in the previous year; 6 men were acquitted at the Sessions Court, but I cannot find from the Inspector General's Report whether any were convicted. *Dákáiti*, or gang robbery, furnished 9 cases, all of which resulted in acquittals; and kidnapping, or abduction, 8 cases, all of which also resulted in acquittals. Out of 142 cases of wrongful restraint, in 75 or 53 per cent. convictions were obtained.

Criminal Classes.—The Inspector General of Jails in his Report for 1868, states that murder or culpable homicide is the most prevalent heinous crime of Maimansinh, and bears a larger ratio to other crimes than in neighbouring Districts. Murders are generally committed either from motives of jealousy or from land disputes. *Dákáiti*, or gang robbery, is not common; but groundless charges are frequently made to the police, which fall through on investigation. When a case of gang robbery does occur, the offence is generally committed by Hindus. Charges of adultery and abduction are numerous, but in general the evidence either fails, or the case is not prosecuted to conviction. These cases, with scarcely an exception, occur among Muhammadans of the lower class. Housebreaking is not an uncommon offence, and on the whole, is stated to be more often committed by Hindus than by Muhammadans. In petty cases, such as assault and trespass, the great majority of the offenders are Muhammadans. Crime, however, is not very prevalent, and in this respect Maimansinh contrasts favourably with many of the surrounding Districts.

Jail Statistics.—There are four jails in Maimansinh—viz., the District Jail at the Civil Station, and subdivisional lock-ups at Jamálpur, Kisorganj, and Atiá. The following figures, showing the jail population of Maimansinh District for 1857-58, 1860-61, and 1870 are compiled from a return specially prepared for me by the Inspector-General of Jails. The figures for the two first-named years must be regarded with caution, and taken only as approximately

correct. Owing to defects in the original returns, which cannot now be remedied, in some cases prisoners are counted twice over: prisoners transferred from the Central Jail to the lock-ups, being returned in both statements without allowance being made for the transfers. Under-trial prisoners subsequently convicted, also appear twice, having been returned under both heads. No means now exist of eliminating these discrepancies. Since 1870, an improved form of preparing the returns has been introduced, and the statistics for that year may be taken as correct.

In 1857-58, the first year for which materials are available, the daily average number of prisoners in the Maimansinh jail and sub-divisional lock-ups, was 548; the total number of civil, criminal and under-trial prisoners, admitted during the year, being 1438. The discharges were as follow:—transferred, 56; released, 1326; escaped, 8; died, 86; executed, 3; total, 1479. In 1860-61, the jail returns shew a daily average number of prisoners of 489, the total admission of prisoners of all classes during the year, being 1600. The discharges were—transferred, 195; released, 1277; escaped, 3; died, 67; executed, 3; total 1545. In 1870, the daily average jail population was 653, the total number of prisoners admitted during the year being 1801. The discharges were,—transferred, 16; released, 1414; escaped, 9; died, 23; executed, 1; total, 1463. In 1872, the total daily average number of prisoners in the Maimansinh jail and lock-ups had fallen to 409·12, or according to the Census returns of the population, one prisoner always in jail to every 5743 of the population. The sanitary condition of the jail has very much improved of late years. In 1857-58, the per-centage of prisoners admitted to hospital amounted to 204·38 per cent, and the deaths to 86 or 15·69 per cent. of the average jail populaton; in 1860-61, the admissions into hospitals amounted to 258·28 per cent., and the deaths to 67, or 13·70 per cent. of the average prison population; in 1870, the admissions to the jail hospital had fallen to 98·01 per cent., and the deaths to 23 or 3·52 per cent. of the average prison population. In 1872, 15 deaths occurred, or 3·79 per cent. of the average jail population, excluding lock-ups; the death rate in this year being 1·55 per cent. less than the average rate in the prisons throughout Bengal.

The average cost of maintenance per prisoner in the Maimansinh jail and lock-ups, including rations, establishment, hospital charges, contigencies, and all other charges except the prison police guard, is returned as follows:—In 1857-58 it amounted to £3, 19s. 8½d per

head; in 1860-61 to £3, 7s. 9½d; and in 1870 to £3, 17s. 9½d per head. The cost of the jail police guard in 1870 amounted to an average of 14s. per head, making a gross charge to Government of £4, 11s. 9½ per head. The Inspector General of Jails in his Report for 1870, returns the total cost of the Maimansinh jail and lock-ups, including police guard, at £2676. Excluding the cost of the police guard, which is included in the general police budget for the District, the cost of the jail amounted to £2268, 4s.

Prison manufactures have now been carried on in Maimansinh jail for a period of thirty years, and a fair amount of profitable work is exacted from the able-bodied convicts, towards reducing the cost of their maintenance. In 1857-58, the receipts arising from the sale of jail manufactures, together with the value of the stock remaining on hand at the end of the year, amounted to £649, 16s. 5d., and the charges to £388, 4s. 5d.; showing an excess of receipts, overcharges, or profit, of £261, 12s.; average earnings by each prisoner employed in manufacture, £1, 0s. 5¼d. In 1860-61, the receipts amounted to £631, 19s. 7½d and the charges to £334, 5s. 5d., leaving a profit of £297, 14s. 2½d; average earnings by each prisoner employed in manufactures, £1, 4s. 11d. In 1870, the total credits arising from jail manufactures amounted to £1107, 18s. 10d., and the total debits to £781, 14s. 4d., leaving an excess of receipts, overcharges, or profit, of £326, 4s, 6d., average earnings by each prisoner engaged in manufacture, £1, 15s. 10d. Of the 182 prisoners engaged in manufacture in 1870, 71 were employed in weaving gunny; 40 in gardening; 16 in cloth weaving; 12 in bamboo, rattan, and reed work; 28 in brick-making; 11 in oil-pressing; and 4 in paper-making; total, 182. In 1872 labour rules were more rigidly enforced, and although fewer prisoners were employed on actual remunerative labour than in 1870, the results were more satisfactory. The total cost of the manufacturing department amounted to £426, 13s. and the cash remitted to the treasury on account of manufactures to £857, 14s., leaving an actual profit of £431, 1s. The average number of prisoners employed in industrial manufactures was 160; the average amount earned by each prisoner employed in manufactures being £5, 6s. 9d., of which £2, 13s. 7d. was profit. The 160 prisoners were employed as under:—gunny weaving, 38; gardening, 45; manufacturing clothing, 9; bamboo, rattan, and reed work, 14; manufacturing bricks and tiles, 36; oil-making, 8; string-making, 6; and 4 on carpentry, iron work, and miscellaneous jobs; total, 160.

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EDUCATIONAL ST
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Return of Government and Aided Schools in Maimansinh District for the years 1856-57,

Since 1870, there has been a much more rapid development of education than in former years. Under Sir George Campbell in 1871-72, a new system of primary education was introduced, by which most of the existing village schools received a small grant in aid from Government. The result was that on the 31st March 1873, the total number of Government and Aided Schools, was 174, attended by 6,372 pupils, exclusive of 71 unaided schools attended by 2,425 pupils, making a total of 245 schools and 8,797 pupils, of whom all except 5 were males. This increase of education was effected at very little additional cost to the State, the amount of Government grant being only £1,688, 10s., and the total cost of educating 8,797 pupils attending 245 schools being returned at £4,649, 10s. The following table exhibits the results at a glance.

EDUCATIONAL STATISTICS OF MAIMANSINH DISTRICT FOR THE YEAR 1872-73.

Description of Schools.	No. of Schools on 31st March 1873.	No. of pupils attending on 31st March 1873.	Average daily attendance.	Receipts.			Total Cost.	Average cost to Government per pupil (31st March).	Total average cost per pupil (31st March).
				Government grant.	From Local sources. Fees and Fines.	From Local sources. Subscriptions.	Total Receipts.		
				£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.
Higher Schools,									
Government, .	1	321	322	210 0 0	606 0 7	...	816 0 7	732 8 5	0 13 1½	2 5 7½
Unaided, . . .	1	181	159	...	45 4 7	296 3 1	341 7 8	286 19 2	...	1 11 8½
Total, . .	2	502	481	210 0 0	651 5 2	296 3 1	1,157 8 3	1,019 7 7	0 8 4½	2 0 7½
Middle Schools,										
Government, .	1	314	285	42 0 0	135 10 6	...	177 10 6	167 18 0	0 2 8	0 10 8½
Aided, ...	56	2,441	2,089	930 14 6	435 14 11	898 1 2	2,264 10 7	2,240 16 4	0 7 7½	0 18 4½
Unaided, . . .	14	695	640	...	80 7 7	357 8 2	437 15 9	424 19 11	...	0 12 2½
Total, . .	71	3,450	3,014	972 14 6	651 13 0	1,255 9 4	2,879 16 10	2,833 14 3	0 5 7½	0 16 5
Primary Schools,										
Government, .	9	218	197	202 3 10	4 11 6	...	206 15 4	206 15 4	0 18 6½	0 18 11½
Aided, ...	11	232	237	59 10 10	22 7 4	28 3 7	110 1 9	116 10 5	0 5 1½	0 10 0½
Aided *pathsalas,*	95	2,801	1,820	34 5 3	94 1 3	93 15 7	222 2 1	223 6 7	0 0 2½	0 1 7
Unaided *pathsalas,*	56	1,549	...	...	6 11 10	34 4 6	40 16 4	40 0 2	...	0 0 6½
Total, . .	171	4,800	2,254	295 19 11	127 11 11	156 3 8	579 15 6	586 12 6	0 1 2½	0 2 5½
Normal Schools,										
Government, .	1	45	37	209 19 7	...	...	209 15 7	209 15 8	4 13 2½	4 13 2½
Grand Total, . .	245	8,797	5,786	1,688 10 0	1,430 10 1	1,707 16 1	4,826 16 2	4,649 10 0	0 3 10	0 10 6½

POSTAL STATISTICS.—The Postal Statistics show a rapid expansion since 1861-62. During the ten years between 1861-62 and 1870-71, the number of letters, newspapers, books, and parcels received at the Maimansinh Post Office has increased from 76,260 to 153,288, or exactly doubled. The postal receipts have nearly trebled since 1861-62, while the expenditure has multiplied exactly six times within the same period. The following table showing the working of the Post Office for the years 1861-62, 1865-66, and

1870-71, has been furnished to me by the Director General of Post Offices.

POSTAL STATISTICS OF MAIMANSINH DISTRICT FOR THE YEARS 1861-62, 1865-66, and 1870-71.

	1861-62.		1865-66.		1870-71.	
	Received.	Despatched.	Received.	Despatched.	Received.	Despatched.
Service Letters,	13,742	12,060	3,694	15,050	*	Returns not received.
Private Letters,	51,258	47,931	73,113	63,660		
Total,	65,000	59,991	76,807	78,710	140,027	
Newspapers,	6,541	374	7,997	927	9,279	
Parcels,	3,067	543	1,308	2,160	1,046	
Books,	1,652	11	514	93	2,936	
Grand Total,	76,260	60,919	86,626	81,890	153,288	
Sale of Postage Stamps,	£305 4 3		£470 13 10		£820 13 6	
Cash Collections,	270 10 6		393 1 1		890 2 8	
Total Postal receipts,	575 14 9		863 14 11		1,710 16 2†	
Total Postal expenditure,	308 4 11		325 11 6		1,807 18 1	

POLITICAL DIVISIONS.—Maimansinh District is divided into four administrative tracts or sub-divisions, as follow. The population figures are compiled from statements 1A and 1B Appendix to the Census Report of 1872: the administrative figures are derived from the special report furnished to me by the Collector.

THE MAIMANSINH OR HEAD-QUARTERS SUB-DIVISION, formed in the year 1786, contained in 1872 an area of 3210 square miles, with a total population of 1,035,647 souls, inhabiting 3765 villages or townships, and dwelling in 134,625 houses. Of the sub-divisional population, 644,446 or 62·2 per cent. are Muhammadans; proportion of males in the Musalmán population, 51·4 per cent. The Hindus number 381,393 or 36·9 per cent. of the sub-divisional population; proportion of males in the Hindu population, 51·5 per cent. The Christians only numbered 58, the proportion of males being 67·2 per cent. Other denominations not separately classified, number 9750, or ·9 per cent. of the sub-divisional population, proportion of males, 49·5 per cent. General proportion of males in the total sub-divisional population, 51·5 per cent. Average number of persons per square mile, 323; average number of villages or townships per square mile, 1·17;

* Service and private letters not shown separately, as all pay alike now.

† Exclusive of £57, 4s. 6d. received for sale of service stamps for official correspondence. Service stamps were first introduced in 1866.

average number of persons per village or township, 275; average number of houses per square mile, 42; average number of persons per house, 7·7. The subdivision comprises the police circles (*thánás*) of (1.) Maimansinh, (2.) Mádárganj, (3.) Ghafargáon, (4.) Netrakoná, (5.) Durgápur, and (6.) Phulpur. In 1870-71 it contained 18 Magisterial, Revenue, and Civil Courts, presided over by the following officers:—1 Judge; 1 Magistrate and Collector; 1 Joint Magistrate and Deputy Collector; 2 Assistant Magistrates and Deputy Collectors; 3 Deputy Magistrates and Deputy Collectors; 1 Subordinate Judge: 1 Additional Judge and 5 *munsifs*. The Regular Police, in 1870, consisted of 304 men, and the Village Watch, or Rural Police, 2887. The charge of the sub-divisional administration in 1870-71, as represented by the cost of the Courts, the Regular Police, and the Village Watch, is returned at £24,158 (including the Headquarters' Establishments), of which £10,393, 4s. is the cost of the Rural Police defrayed by the villagers.

JAMALPUR SUB-DIVISION was created in 1845. In 1872 it comprised an area of 1288 square miles, and contained a total population of 414,469 souls inhabiting 981 villages or townships, and dwelling in 50,671 houses. Of the sub-divisional population, 306,780 or 74 per cent. are Muhammadans; proportion of males in the total Musalmán population, 50·9 per cent. The Hindus number 105,777 or 25·5 per cent.; proportion of males, 50·2 per cent. Only 2 Christians are returned as dwelling in the sub-division. Other denominations number 1910, or ·5 per cent. of the sub-divisional population; proportion of males, 48·7 per cent. General proportion of males in the total sub-divisional population 50·7 per cent.; average density of population per square mile, 322; average number of villages or townships per square mile, ·76; average number of inhabitants per village or township, 422; average number of houses per square mile, 39; average number of inmates per house, 8·2. The sub-division comprises the police circles (*thánás*) of (1.) Jamálpur, (2.) Sherpur, and (3.) Díwánganj. In 1870 it contained a Deputy Magistrate and Deputy Collector's Court, and two *munsif's* Courts. The Regular Police numbered 64 and the Village Watch 895 men. The separate cost of sub-divisional administration in 1870-71, as represented by the maintenance of the Courts, the Regular Police, and the Village Watch, is returned at £5686, 10s., of which £3222 is the expense of the Rural Police, which is borne by the villagers.

ATIA SUB-DIVISION was created in 1869. In 1872 it comprised an

area of 1041 square miles, and contained a total population of 536,201 souls inhabiting 1917 villages, and dwelling in 73,338 houses. Of the sub-divisional population, 350,696, or 65·4 per cent. are Muhammadans; proportion of males in total Musalmán population 50·1 per cent. The Hindus number 185,016, or 34·5 per cent. of the sub-divisional population; proportion of males, 48·3 per cent. Only 1 Christian is returned as residing in the sub-division. The "other" population numbers 488, or ·1 per cent. of the subdivisional population; proportion of males, 39·5 per cent. General proportion of males in the total sub-divisional population, 49·5 per cent; average density of population per square mile, 515; average number of villages or townships per square mile 1·84; average number of inhabitants per village or township, 280; average number of houses per square mile, 70; average number of inmates per house, 7·3. The sub-division comprises the Police circles (*thánás*) of (1.) Pingná, (2.) Madhupur, and (3.) Atiá. In 1870 it contained a Deputy Magistrate and Deputy Collector's Court, and two *Munsifs'* Courts. The Regular Police numbered 59, and the Village Watch or Rural Police, 1224 men. The separate cost of sub-divisional administration in 1870-71, as represented by the maintenance of the Courts, the Regular Police Force and the Village Watch, is returned at £6464, inclusive of £4406, 8s. which forms the cost of the Rural Police, and is contributed by the villagers.

KISORIGANJ SUB-DIVISION was created in 1860. In 1872 it comprised an area of 754 square miles, and contained a total population of 363,600 souls, inhabiting 938 villages and dwelling in 49,374 houses. Of the sub-divisional population, 217,713 or 59·9 per cent. are Muhammadans; proportion of males in total Musalmán population, 49·4 per cent. The Hindus number 145,777 or 40·1 per cent. of the sub-divisional population; proportion of males 49·4 per cent. Christians, 63; proportion of males, 49·2 per cent. "Others," 47; proportion of males, 6·4 per cent. General proportion of males in the total sub-divisional population 49·4 per cent; average density of population per square mile, 482; average number of villages or townships per square mile, 1·24; average number of inhabitants per village or township, 388; average number of houses per square mile, 65; average number of inmates per house, 7·4. The sub-division comprises the police circles (*thánás*) of (1.) Kisoríganj, (2.) Niklí, and (3.) Bájitpur. In 1870 it contained a Deputy Magistrate and Deputy Collector's Court, and two *Munsifs'* Courts. The Regular Police numbered 62, and the Village

Watch, or Rural Police, 737 men. The separate cost of sub-divisional administration in 1870-71, as represented in the maintenance of the Courts, and the Regular and Village Police, is returned at £4578, 2s. inclusive of £2653, 4s. which forms the cost of the Rural Police, and is contributed by the villagers.

FISCAL DIVISIONS. The following list of *parganás* or Fiscal Divisions in Maimansinh District, showing the area, number of estates, amount of land revenue, &c., of each *parganá*, together with the Subordinate Judge's Court which has jurisdiction in it, is taken from the Board of Revenue's *parganá* statistics of area, revenue, &c. As explained at the end of the list, the figures, although not exactly correct, may be accepted as closely approximating to the truth. With regard to the Courts, it should be remembered that changes in jurisdiction from time to time take place. I give them as officially supplied to me (1870-71).

(1.) ALAPSINH, area, 292,272 acres, or 456·67 square miles; contains 55 estates; pays a land revenue of £7903, 2s.; and is subject to the jurisdiction of the Subordinate Judge of Nasirábád.

(2.) ATIA, area, 498,988 acres, or 779·67 square miles; 147 estates; land revenue, £6,090, 12s.; court at Atiá town.

(3.) BALRAMPUR, area, 2621 acres, or 4·09 square miles; 2 estates; land revenue, £24, 6s.; court at Nikli.

(4.) BARBAJU, area, 189,615 acres, or 296·27 square miles; 952 estates; land revenue, £5191, 18s.; court at Sirájganj in Pabná District.

(5.) BARDAKHAT, area, 20,831 acres, or 32·55 square miles; 39 estates; land revenue, £1390, 12s.; courts at Bájitpur and Nikli.

(6.) BAOKHAND; area, 6483 acres, or 10·13 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £77, 6s.; court at Netrakoná.

(7.) BARIKANDI; area, 2398 acres, or 3·75 square miles; 21 estates; land revenue, £605; court at Náráinganj in Dacca District.

(8.) HAZRADI; area, 179,068 acres, or 279·79 square miles; 1576 estates; land revenue, £4527, 8s.; court at Netrakoná.

(9.) HUSAINSHAHI; area, 144,605 acres, or 225·94 square miles; 310 estates; land revenue, £6532, 6s.; courts at Nikli and Mádárganj.

(10.) IDGHAR; area, 539 acres, or ·84 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £17, 10s.; court at Nikli.

(11.) JAFARSHAHI; area, 148,886 acres, or 232·63 square miles 10 estates; land revenue, £101, 10s.; court at Pingná.

(12.) JOAR HUSAINPUR; area, 42,529 acres, or 66·45 square miles; 126 estates; land revenue, £1010, 6s.; court at Nikli.

(13.) JUANSHAHI; area, 208,456 acres, or 325·71 square miles; 262 estates; land revenue, £2795, 12s.; court at Bájitpur.

(14.) KAGMARI; area, 220,163 acres, or 344 square miles; 452 estates; land revenue, £4982, 6s.; court at Atiá.

(15.) KASIPUR; area, 1027 acres, or 1·60 square miles; 66 estates; land revenue, £242, 6s.; court at Atiá.

(16.) KHALIAJURI; area, 84,854 acres, or 132·58 square miles; 4 estates; land revenue, £290, 14s.; court at Mádárganj.

(17.) KURIKHAI; area, 47,244 acres, or 73·82 square miles; 16 estates; land revenue, £1376, 8s; courts at Bájitpur and Niklí.

(18.) LATIBPUR; area, 12,836 acres, or 20·06 square miles; 2 estates; land revenue, £183, 16s.; court at Bájitpur.

(19.) MAIMANSINH; area, 289,133 acres, or 451·77 square miles; 79 estates; land revenue, £13,784, 10s.; courts at Mádárganj, Niklí and Bájitpur.

(20.) MUKIMABAD; area, 2163 acres, or 3·38 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £74, 16s.; court at Netrakoná.

(21.) NASIRUJIAL; area, 229,270 acres, or 358·23 square miles; 841 estates; land revenue, £5110; court at Mádárganj.

(22.) NAWABAD; area, 222 acres, or 35 square miles; 34 estates; land revenue, £458; court at Náráinganj in Dacca District.

(23.) NIKLI; area, 1691 acres, or 2·64 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £151, 18s.; court at Bájitpur.

(24.) PUKHARIA; area, 329,760 acres, or 515·25 square miles; 604 estates; land revenue, £12,410, 2s.; courts at Pingná and Atiá.

(25.) RAIDAM; area, 24,788 acres, or 38·73 square miles; 45 estates; land revenue, £286, 16s.; court at Netrakoná.

(26.) RAN BHAWAL; area, 277,985 acres, or 434·35 square miles; 143 estates; land revenue, £3,227; court at Niklí.

(27.) SAGARDI; area, 19,668 acres, or 30·73 square miles; 6 estates; land revenue, £236, 4s.; court at Ghoshgáon.

(28.) SHERPUR; area, 482,135 acres, or 753·33 square miles; 87 estates; land revenue, £3,611, 10s.; court at Sherpur.

(29.) SINHDHA; area, 34,361 acres, or 53·69 square miles; 15 estates; land revenue, £279, 4s.; courts at Netrakoná and Mádárganj.

(30.) SUSANG; area, 288,803 acres; or 451·25 square miles; 23 estates; land revenue, £2,183, 14s.; court at Netrakoná.

The above figures show a total area of 4,083,394 acres, or 6380·30

square miles, against 6293 square miles as taken for the purposes of the Census, 5921 estates against 6298 as returned by the Collector in 1870-71; and a total land revenue of £85,156, against £85,319 realised in 1870-71. I have no means of checking the details furnished by the Board of Revenue, but the totals are sufficiently close to the figures obtained from other sources. The list of Fiscal Divisions furnished by the Collector, is the same as that given above, except that it does not include Barikándí, and gives three others, *viz.*, —Darzí Bázu, Sátsikká, and Tulandár.

CLIMATE.—The climate is most variable, especially in the rains, when after a very hot March and April, there may be several days in May when the temperature is not above 80, caused by frequent heavy showers. The rainy season is tolerably healthy, but towards its end, and before the cold weather sets in, the District is specially unhealthy, both to natives and Europeans. Highest temperature in 1869, 92° in April; lowest 57° in December. Total rainfall in 1869 97·85 inches. Average annual rainfall, 105 inches.

MEDICAL.—The principal endemic diseases of the District are malarious fevers, chiefly of the intermittent type, although a low form of remittent fever is also common. Dysentery is prevalent, and also rheumatism, apparently caused by the dampness of the District. Bronchitis is common, but phthisis and tubercular affections are comparatively rare, except in the jail, where they are said to have been developed by overcrowding. Sporadic cases of cholera occur throughout the whole year, and the disease occasionally makes its appearance in an epidemic form. Outbreaks of small-pox are common. Inoculation is very largely practised in the District, thus tending to spread the disease, and resulting in many fatal cases. The Civil Surgeon thinks that vaccination will make little or no progress in the District until its practice is made compulsory, as the people generally evince a deep-rooted objection to it. Quinine is now said to be superseding native drugs in cases of fever. The few fairs held in the District are merely local gatherings, and do not appear to have any influence upon health.

SANITATION; CONSERVANCY, &c.—The health of the Civil Station Nasírábád or Maimansinh has much deteriorated of late, owing to a large sand-bank or *char* covered with low jungle having been thrown up by the river in front of the town. The level of the town lies below the river bank. The surface water, instead of draining into the river, collects in ditches along the sides of the street, which are

filled with every de
dry seasons. In th
black fœtid matter,
south of the town.
several types. As
the Station should
stated that in his
accrue on account
more than met by t
or other of whom
certificate. In defa
take the conservanc
hands. The drinki
from the river, or fr
those who live at
pestilent little tanks
filth. As a rule, th
ing purposes, for ba

CHARITABLE DI
amount of relief
Maimansinh in 187
by Government, an
There are five dispe
hospital accommoda
indoor and outdoor
10,744, at a total
Medicines supplied
Dispensaries to G
Medicines, amount

The Dispensaries and Medical Charities of Maimansinh District in 1871.

Dispensaries.	Date of establishment.	Indoor Patients.							Outdoor Patients		Operations.		Government Grant.	Value of European medicines supplied by Government free of charge.	Subscriptions and income from other sources.	Total income, exclusive of value of European medicines supplied by Government free of charge.	Total expenditure, exclusive of value of European medicines.
		Total treated.	Relieved or recovered.	Not improved or ceased to attend.	Died.	Remaining in hospital.	Percentage of deaths to treated.	Daily average number of sick.	Total treated.	Average daily attendance.	Capital.	Minor.	£. s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.
1. Maimansinh Dispensary	1854	271	239	2	24	6	8·85	7·59	2358	27·07	3	271	60 0 0	...	88 7 0	148 7 0	187 1 8
2. Sherpur Branch Dispensary	1867	20	15	2	1	2	5·00	1·19	745	12·93	...	...	48 0 0	4 9 0	49 13 0	97 13 0	111 4 4
3. Rámgopálpur Branch Dispensary	1868	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	2668	27·52	...	2	48 0 0	4 13 6	48 0 0	96 0 0	81 5 9
4. Husainpur Branch Dispensary	1870	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	2167	16·20	...	...	48 0 0	3 15 3	48 0 0	96 0 0	78 3 9
5. Tangail Branch Dispensary *	1871	62	46	4	8	4	12·90	4·10	2453	41·88	2	9	...	3 19 3	160 0 0	160 0 0	109 0 2
Total		353	300	8	33	12	9·35	4·29	10,391	25·12	5	282	204 0 0	16 17 0	394 0 0	598 0 0	566 15 8

* A private dispensary maintained by the liberality of the local *zamindár*, Bábu Dwárká Náth Rái Chaudhrí.

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